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UNIT**01**

FOUNDATIONS OF FUNCTIONAL ENGLISH

Introduction to Functional English

Functional English refers to the use of the English language to perform specific tasks in daily life, academic studies, or career development. It equips individuals with essential knowledge, skills, and understanding to help them communicate and function confidently and independently in various situations. Functional English is crucial for success in both professional and academic environments. This type of English goes beyond basic language knowledge and focuses on practical use in real-life contexts, helping individuals operate effectively in work and education.

Functional English in Education and Work

For many years, employers and universities have emphasized the need for young people to leave school with practical language skills that allow them to function independently and confidently in the workplace and higher education. In today's competitive world, it is more important than ever that students from all academic backgrounds can handle the demands of both work and further studies. Functional English provides the necessary tools for individuals to develop practical language skills that they can apply to real-world situations.

Real-Life Application of Functional English

Unlike traditional English learning, functional skills are embedded into real-life situations. Teachers create opportunities for students to apply what they learn in daily scenarios, making learning more relevant and engaging. When students can connect their academic studies with real-life applications, they become more enthusiastic about learning. This practical approach ensures that the knowledge and skills gained are not only theoretical but also useful in everyday life.

Components of Functional English

Functional English consists of four key components: listening, speaking, reading, and writing. These skills are essential for effective communication and are the building blocks of language proficiency.

Listening Skills

Listening is an important part of communication, yet it is often overlooked. Listening does not simply mean hearing words but understanding the message behind them. To listen effectively, one must focus on what the speaker is saying, without allowing personal opinions to interfere. The best way to confirm understanding is to repeat what the speaker said and clarify the meaning. Tone of voice plays a crucial role in communication, especially when speaking on the phone, where visual cues are absent.

Tips for Effective Listening:

- Focus on the speaker without interrupting.
- Identify the tone of voice to understand the speaker's emotions.

- Clarify by repeating what was said to ensure understanding.

Speaking Skills

Speaking is an essential part of functional English, and the best way to improve is through practice. Speaking involves two main sub-skills: linguistic and communicative.

- **Linguistic skills** include phonology, grammar, syntax, and vocabulary, which help in constructing sentences correctly.
- **Communicative skills** are social skills that allow people to interact confidently and effectively with others in various situations.

To communicate clearly, one needs to speak in a way that is easy for others to understand.

Tips for Improving Speaking Skills:

- Practice speaking regularly with others.
- Focus on clear pronunciation and proper grammar.
- Use simple language to express ideas effectively.

Writing Skills

Writing in functional English should be clear and well-organized. Each paragraph should focus on a single idea, and all sentences should support this central idea. Writing must be relevant, logical, and well-developed. A unified and coherent piece of writing helps the reader follow the argument or explanation more easily.

Components of Good Writing:

- **Unity:** All sentences in a paragraph should relate to a single topic.

- **Relevance:** Each sentence should support the main idea of the paragraph.
- **Coherence:** Sentences should be organized logically and flow smoothly.
- **Development:** Ideas must be supported with evidence and details to explain the topic clearly.

Tips for Effective Writing:

- Start with a clear topic sentence that introduces the main idea.
- Use supporting sentences to elaborate on the topic.
- Ensure all sentences are connected and follow a logical sequence.

Reading Skills

Reading comprehension is the ability to understand and interpret written texts. It involves not only reading words but also grasping the meaning and intent behind them. Good reading skills enable a person to engage with written content and apply it to real-life situations.

Skills for Effective Reading:

- **Skimming and scanning:** To quickly find important information.
- **Critical thinking:** To analyze and interpret what is being read.
- **Summarizing:** To condense the key points of a text.

Opportunities with Functional English

Mastering functional English opens up many career opportunities across various fields of life. Here are some

potential career paths for individuals with strong functional English skills:

Media and Journalism

With functional English, you can pursue a career in media and journalism. This industry includes roles in film, television, newspapers, and online news platforms. You could also work as a reviewer, analyzing events, food, or games. This field offers a wide range of exciting opportunities for creative and communicative individuals.

Publishing Industry

The publishing industry, particularly digital publishing, is booming. Functional English skills are essential in this field, whether you're working with e-books, online magazines, or websites. The ability to write and communicate effectively is highly valued in publishing houses.

Teaching and Lecturing

With strong functional English skills, you can also explore a career in education. Becoming a teacher or lecturer requires additional training, but the demand for qualified English language instructors is high. Whether teaching at a school or university, functional English is crucial for effective communication in the classroom.

Advertising, PR, and Marketing

These fields require high levels of creativity and excellent communication skills. Functional English enables individuals to convey messages clearly and persuasively, making it an essential skill in advertising, public relations, and marketing. With the rise of digital marketing, professionals must be adept at using language across various platforms.

Creative Writing

If you have a passion for storytelling, functional English allows you to pursue a career in creative writing. Whether writing novels, articles, or movie scripts, good writing skills are essential for success in the creative industry.

Language Translation

In today's globalized world, language translators are in high demand. Functional English can help you become a translator, working with government agencies, universities, multinational companies, or even as a freelancer. The ability to communicate in multiple languages is a valuable asset in the modern workforce.

Functional English is a critical skill for success in both personal and professional life. It enables individuals to communicate effectively, solve problems, and apply their knowledge in real-world situations.

Short Questions and their Answers

Q.1. What is Functional English?

Ans: Functional English refers to the practical use of English for specific tasks in daily life, academic studies, and careers. It helps individuals communicate confidently and independently in real-life situations. Unlike traditional language learning, it focuses on practical application rather than just theory.

Q.2. Why is Functional English important in education?

Ans: Functional English equips students with the necessary language skills to handle real-life

challenges in academic and professional environments. It prepares them to communicate effectively in the workplace and further studies.

Q.3: How is Functional English different from traditional English learning?

Ans: Functional English focuses on applying language skills in real-life situations, while traditional English often centers around grammar and theory. It makes learning more relevant and engaging by connecting academic studies to daily life. This practical approach ensures that students gain useful skills for everyday communication.

Q.4: What are the four key components of Functional English?

Ans: The four key components are listening, speaking, reading, and writing, all essential for effective communication. Listening involves understanding the message, not just hearing words. Speaking, reading, and writing focus on clear, confident communication in various situations.

Q.5: How does Functional English benefit career opportunities?

Ans: Mastering Functional English opens doors in fields like media, journalism, marketing, teaching, and translation. Strong communication skills are essential in these industries to convey messages clearly and persuasively.



1.2. VOCABULARY BUILDING

1.2.1 CONTEXTUAL USAGE

The term "context" is complex and has multiple meanings, depending on the field of study. In language-related disciplines like pragmatics, lexicography, and translation studies, context plays a central role. Scholars have different views on what context means. For example, one scholar defines context as the surrounding elements that influence the meaning, form, or function of a particular unit. Another scholar sees context as encompassing both linguistic elements and external factors. This broader view is often used, but some prefer to limit context to the linguistic environment only. In this approach, context can extend beyond individual sentences and includes the surrounding text, aligning with the idea of "co-text," which refers to the text surrounding a particular item.

Context and Examples

There is often confusion between *context* and *example*. In many cases, they serve similar purposes. Both involve groups of linguistic elements that help clarify the meaning of a specific element. "Examples" are typically found in dictionaries, while "contexts" are used in term banks. Due to online publication, contexts in term banks are usually longer than examples in printed dictionaries. Despite their length differences, both contexts and examples offer valuable information to understand the meaning of terms.

Contextual Information

Contextual information provides various insights. There are three main types: semantic, collocational, and syntactic information.

Semantic information explains the meaning of a word. For instance, "explosion" can refer to a violent burst, as in a bomb explosion, or to a sudden outburst of emotion, like anger.

Collocational information shows common word pairings, such as "cause an explosion" or "spark off an explosion."

Syntactic information reveals how a word combines with others in sentences. For example, in the sentence "The spread of the suburbs has triggered a population explosion among America's deer," "explosion" is used as a direct object and follows the preposition "among."

Types of Examples/Contexts

Contexts and examples can be categorized based on their purpose, the type of information they provide, and the amount of information. Three main classifications are often used.

- i. One classification divides examples into "decoding" and "encoding" examples. Decoding examples provide detailed semantic information, especially for less common terms, while encoding examples focus on collocations or syntactic patterns.
- ii. Another classification separates contexts into "defining," which provides a clear idea of the term's meaning, "explanatory," which describes characteristics without defining, and "associative,"

which links terms to their field without semantic details.

- iii. A third classification includes "defining/descriptive" contexts that show the term's meaning and related terms, "metalinguistic" contexts that comment on the term's usage, and "attesting" contexts that confirm the term's existence with minimal additional information.

Contextual Usage of Vocabulary

Understanding the contextual usage of vocabulary is essential for grasping how words function in different situations. Context influences the meaning of words, which can vary based on semantic, collocational, and syntactic factors. Here's a detailed look at these aspects with examples:

1. Semantic Context

Semantic context refers to the meaning of a word within a specific situation or sentence. Words can have multiple meanings, and their intended sense often depends on the surrounding context.

Example 1:

Sentence: "The explosion was heard from miles away."

Context: In this sentence, "explosion" refers to a sudden, loud, and violent burst, likely caused by a bomb or similar device.

Example 2:

Sentence: "Her explosion of creativity amazed everyone."

Context: Here, "explosion" is used metaphorically to describe a sudden and intense burst of creativity, not a literal physical blast.

Semantic context helps clarify whether a word is used literally or figuratively and what specific meaning it carries in that instance.

2. Collocational Context

Collocational context involves the words that frequently appear alongside a given term. These word pairings can influence the meaning and usage of the term.

Example 1:

Phrase: "Economic boom"

Collocates: "Economic" often pairs with "boom" to refer to a period of rapid economic growth. The collocation suggests a positive economic trend.

Example 2:

Phrase: "Social upheaval"

Collocates: "Social" pairs with "upheaval" to describe significant disruptions or changes in societal structures. This collocation implies serious and often disruptive changes.

Understanding collocational context helps in using words correctly in phrases and identifying common patterns in language.

3. Syntactic Context

Syntactic context refers to how a word fits into the structure of a sentence and interacts with other words. The syntactic role of a word can affect its meaning and usage.

Example 1:

Sentence: "The company's expansion led to a boom in the job market."

Syntactic Role: In this sentence, "expansion" is the subject of the sentence, and "boom" is the result of the expansion. "Boom" acts as the direct object of the verb "led to."

Example 2:

Sentence: "The population experienced an explosion of growth."

Syntactic Role: Here, "explosion" is used as a noun modified by the adjective "of growth." It follows the verb "experienced" and describes the type of growth.

Syntactic context clarifies how words function in sentences and how their relationships with other words shape their meaning.

Thus, contextual usage of vocabulary involves understanding how words are influenced by their semantic, collocational, and syntactic contexts. Semantic context reveals the meaning of a word, collocational context shows common word pairings, and syntactic context explains how words combine within sentences. By analyzing these aspects, one can better grasp the nuances of vocabulary and use words accurately in various situations.

Short Questions and Their Answers

Q.1. What is semantic context?

Ans: Semantic context refers to the meaning of a word in a particular sentence or situation. Words can have multiple meanings, and the context helps clarify

which meaning is intended. For example, "explosion" can mean a physical blast or a burst of emotion.

Q.2: How does collocational context help in understanding words?

Ans: Collocational context involves words that often appear together in a sentence. These word pairings help you use words correctly and understand common language patterns. For instance, "economic boom" and "social upheaval" are examples of collocations.

Q.3: What is syntactic context?

Ans: Syntactic context refers to how words fit together in a sentence. It helps determine the grammatical structure and function of words. For example, "explosion" can be used as a noun after a verb, like in "experienced an explosion of growth."

Q.4: How do examples differ from contexts?

Ans: Examples usually explain a word's meaning in a specific situation, often found in dictionaries. Contexts, used in term banks, are longer and provide more detailed information about word usage. Both help in clarifying the meaning of a term.

Q.5: Why is understanding contextual usage of vocabulary important?

Ans: Contextual usage helps to understand how words function in different situations. It influences the meaning of words based on semantic, collocational, and syntactic factors. This understanding allows for accurate word usage in communication.



1.2.2 SYNONYMS

Synonyms are the words which are similar to each other in meaning. But a close study would reveal that though the synonyms are similar in meaning, there is always a shade of difference in their intention and application. Therefore, a student must understand the minute distinction between their meanings to be able to use them correctly. Following list of popular Synonyms explaining the delicate difference in their meanings and their use in sentences.

A LIST OF SYNONYMS WITH USAGE

1. **Home**—(dwelling place with all its happy associations such as furnishings, family, love, etc.)

He is returning home after many years.

House—(dwelling place, building only)

He has built a big house.

2. **Hear**—(in the ordinary sense)

We could hear them talking.

Listen—(implies careful attention)

The whole class will listen to you.

3. **Infectious**—(refers to a disease that spreads through air or water) Cholera is an infectious disease.

Contagious—(a disease that spreads by physical contact) Small-pox is a contagious disease.

4. **Idle**—(inactive or without work through circumstances)

He has been sitting idle for several months now.

Lazy—(inactive by habit or temperament)

He is too lazy to finish his work in time.

5. **Ill**—(not in health) He is ill these days.

Sick—(under the effect of some disease)

A sick man must take his medicine regularly.

6. **Mistake**—(misunderstanding or miscalculation)

They mistake him for a gentleman. Don't commit such a mistake again.

Blunder—(serious or gross mistake)

You would be committing a blunder if you don't report the matter to the police.

Error—(departure from established rules or practice).
Avoid grammatical errors.

7. **Oral**—(in the spoken form)

The teacher took an oral test.

Verbal—(in words only as against in writing)

Let me have your statement in writing; I shall not accept your verbal assurance.

8. **Presume**—(to believe what we think to be true)

I presume he is an honest man.

Assume—(in matters that ought to be true)

I assume my father will send me money in time.

9. **Possible**—(not contrary to natural conditions or reason)

If we drive a little faster, it is possible we may reach before sunset.

Probable—(what may happen)

It is probable that the examination may be postponed.

10. **Praise**—(refers to one's actions):

We must praise his efforts.

Admire—(refers to one's qualities or possessions):

We must admire his courage.

11. **Prohibit**—(legal or official restriction):

Drinking is prohibited here.

Forbid—(in personal or private matters):

My father forbids me to leave today.

12. **Recollect**—(call to mind through some efforts):

Can you recollect what he said ?

Remember—(call to mind with very little or no efforts):

I remember we met last month.

13. **Regret**—(unhappiness over what one has done or left undone):

To my great regret, I have suspended him.

Sorrow—(refers to some loss or evil):

His wife's death has plunged him into deep sorrow.

14. **Say**—(to assert; to declare): I say I have not done it.

Speak—(to express in the ordinary way):

He speaks very fast.

Tell—(to inform; to narrate):

He will tell you the whole story.

15. **See**—(without any effort):

We see greenery all around us.

Look—(with effort or intention): Please look at me.

Watch—(to observe closely):

You must watch his movements carefully.

16. **Scenery**—(landscape):

Every visitor admires the scenery of Kashmir.

Scene—(Place or spot of some action or occurrence):

He was present at the scene of accident.

17. **Vacant**—(refers to a thing or situation which is at present free or unoccupied but which was previously filled):

The post of the accountant has fallen vacant.

Empty—(where there is nothing): The room is empty.

18. **Assent**—(relates to matters of judgment):

The President has given his assent to the bill.

Consent—(relates to matters of conduct):

My father has given his consent to my proposal.

19. **Allow**—(denotes a negative action and means abstain from refusal): I can't allow you to go there

Permit—(denotes a positive action and means to give a decided assent):

My parents have permitted me to join the Navy.

20. **Abstain**—(from a thing):

You must abstain from hard drinks.

Refrain—(from an action):

You are refrained from taking any further action.

21. **Avenge**—(just punishment on evil-doers):

I shall avenge my father's death upon the murderer.

Revenge—(to inflict pain or injury out of resentment or grudge):

I will certainly revenge myself on him for this insult.

22. **Admit**—(to acknowledge or accept): I admit my fault.

Confess—(to acknowledge responsibility or guilt):

He confessed his involvement in the crime.

23. **Anger**—(sudden feeling of displeasure):

He showed much anger at his irresponsible behaviour.

Resentment—(a lasting feeling of displeasure):

He bears resentment against me.

24. **Answer**—(a question is answered):

Answer any five questions.

Reply—(a letter or a charge is replied):

You have to reply these charges within a week.

25. **Attain**—(to get by exertion or labour):

He has attained proficiency in English.

Acquire—(to have some hold permanently):

He has acquired one more house.

26. **Ancient**—(opposed to modern): This is an ancient fort.

Old—(opposed to young or new): He deals in old books.

27. **Ability**—(power to do something physical or intellectual):

He has remarkable ability to guide you in this field.

Capacity—(power to achieve, hold or contain)

1. He has the capacity to consume one cold drink.

2. This hall has a capacity for two hundred people.

28. **Astonishment**—(extreme surprise):

I was astonished to see a crowd of people.

Surprise—(due to something new or unexpected):

I was surprised to find my father waiting for me.

Wonder—(surprise mixed with admiration):

I wondered at her great skill in dancing.

29. **Bravery**—(physical):

He showed much bravery in challenging the dacoits.

Courage—(born of reason and reflection):

He showed much courage in refusing to pay.

Valour—(highest quality of courage):

The soldier displayed great valour in battle.

Boldness—(short-lived courage for an occasion):

He showed boldness in facing the critical situation.

Daring—(courage with rashness):

He showed much daring in jumping into the river.

30. **Battle**—(a single contest between two opposing armies):

The soldiers fought bravely in the battle.

War—(a series of contests between two opposing armies): The First World War started in 1914.

Fight—(a combat between a small number of persons):

There was a fight between the police and the dacoits.

31. **Begin**—(used on all occasions): Let us begin the match.

Commence—(used only in official and formal language):

The University examinations commence on April 15.
Start—(implies an idea of an actual physical motion):
Now the match starts.

32. **Beautiful**—(implies certain degree of delicacy, not applicable to men): She is a very beautiful girl.

Handsome—(is used for men):

He is a handsome young man.

33. **Custom**—(generally refers to the repeated action of many persons, a community, a society, a race, etc.):
Community feast after death is a bad custom in different countries.

Habit—(is applicable when we are speaking of just one person): He is in the habit of reading late in the night.

34. **Cite**—(is used for things or persons):

I can cite the authority of Tagore on this point.

Quote—(is used for things only):

I quote a passage from Milton.

35. **Compulsion**—(is physical):

I have to work here under compulsion.

Obligation—(is moral):

I am under obligation to vote for him.

36. **Confer**—(conferring is an act of authority):

The Chancellor will confer the Degrees.

Bestow—(bestowing is an act of generosity or charity):

I bestow an old-age pension on you.

37. **Crime**—(an offence against the law):

Smuggling is a crime.

Vice—(an offence against morals): Smoking is a vice.

Sin—(an offence against the law of God or religious law): Illicit love is a sin.

38. **Ceiling**—(the inner side of a roof):

The colour of our ceiling is white.

Roof—(the entire covering of a room or house):

The roof is leaking.

39. **Character**—(mental or moral nature):

He is a man of high character.

Conduct—(one's actions): His conduct is praiseworthy.

40. **Contentment**—(a state of mind in which one does not wish for more): Contentment is the basis of happiness.

Satisfaction—(fulfilment of one's expectations):

The success of my son has given me full satisfaction.

41. **Cool**—(denotes a pleasant sensation):

A cool breeze is blowing.

Cold—(denotes an unpleasant sensation):

The weather is very cold.

42. **Defend**—(refers to present danger):

I can well defend myself against this charge.

Protect—(refers to approaching danger):

We should have a strong army to protect our country.

43. **Deny**—(refers to matters of fact or knowledge):

I forcefully deny my participation in this criminal act.

Refuse—(refers to matters of wish or request):

I refuse to accept your request.

44. **Doubt**—(to doubt a fact or a statement):

I doubt his version of the incident.

Suspect—(to suspect is to be inclined to think a thing untrue): I suspect his honesty.

45. **Discover**—(to find out a thing or country that existed before): Columbus discovered America.

Invent—(to create what did not exist before):

Wright Brothers invented the aeroplane.

46. **Drown**—(refers to persons):

A man drowned in the river.

Sink—(refers to things): A boat sank in the river.

47. **Desire**—(is used of that which is near at hand or in thought):

I have a keen desire to attend my friend's marriage.

Wish—(is used of that which is remote):

I wish I could set up a large factory.

48. **Want**—(is used of that which is lacking or absent):

The crops have dried up for want of rains.

Need—(is used of that which is both lacking and necessary): I urgently need a good dictionary.

Require—(demand or ask for in words):

I require your personal help.

49. **Envy**—(feeling uneasy at others' good fortune): It is a common weakness to envy the good fortune of others.

Jealousy—(Suspicious of rivalry, lack of trust):

He languishes under jealousy against all his friends.

50. **Enough**—(relates to the quantity which one wishes to have): This amount is enough for your purpose.

Sufficient—(relates to the use that is to be made of anything): There is sufficient milk for four cups of tea.

51. **Event**—(an important happening):

Marriage is an important event in the life of every person.

Incident—(an ordinary happening):

We forget many small incidents of life.

Accident—(an unexpected serious occurrence):

Several persons were killed in the accident.

52. **Excuse**—(is used with reference to trifling matters):

His illness is just an excuse for doing no work.

Forgive—(is used with reference to offences):

Please forgive me for this mistake.

Pardon—(is used with reference to simpler offences):

I beg your pardon for not bringing your book today.

53. **Famous**—(is used in a good sense):

The Shakarparian is a famous monument.

Notorious—(is used in a bad sense):

A notorious dacoit has been killed.

Renowned—(is used for a high and dignified kind of reputation): Dr. Ali was a renowned poet.

54. **Freedom**—(implies absence of restraint at the present moment): Everybody wants freedom.

Liberty—(implies freedom from previous restraint; undue freedom)

1. The convict was set at liberty.
2. Too much liberty is bad.

55. **Falsehood**—(something said or done with or without the idea of deceiving a man):

He was guilty of falsehood when he said that he had completed all his work.

Lie—(speaking untrue words with the intention of deceiving others):

He was certainly telling a lie when he said that he was the owner of the factory.

56. **Grateful**—(one who remains indebted for the kindness of a benefactor):

I am grateful to my uncle for many favours.

Thankful—(one who cherishes the memory of the favours shown by one's benefactor): I shall always remain thankful to all my friends for their encouragement.

57. **Hope**—(is used when what we anticipate is very likely to happen):

He has every hope of passing in the first division.

Expect—(is use when what we anticipate is good but not very certain. It refers to future):

He expects to get some timely help from his uncle.

58. **Watch**—(to observe closely):

You must watch his conduct very closely.

Witness—(is used of persons or events as evidences):
My friend is an eye-witness of the whole incident.

59. **Sight**—(faculty of vision ; anything seen):

It was indeed a horrible sight.

Scenery—(the view of landscape):

The scenery of Kashmir is highly colourful.

Scene—(landscape, a place where an event or accident takes place):

That is the scene where the battle was fought.

60. **Trade**—(it is business on either small or large scale):
The trade of cotton cloth is on the decline.

Commerce—(it is always on a large scale, specially between countries):

Pakistan's commerce with African countries is steadily increasing.

61. **Libel**—(unfavourable or dishonourable observations or defamation in written or printed form):

I am suing this newspaper for libel against me.

Slander—(spreading defamation orally):

He has been slandering me for no reason or rhyme.

62. **Place**—(to put a thing somewhere):

Please place this chair in the lawn.

Keep—(to put something for a long time):

I keep my books in my study room.

63. **Redress**—(relief or compensation as a matter of right or justice):

The injured worker must get due redress from the factory.

Relief—(implies kindness or generosity):

Immediate relief should be provided to the people in flood-affected areas.

64. **Rob**—(to take away by force):

The dacoits robbed the whole family on the point of gun.

Steal—(to take away secretly):

Here thieves may steal away even in day time.

65. **Reverence**—(deep respect, religious devotion):

The Archbishop was held in high reverence.

Respect—(honour, high opinion):

We all give him due respect for his scholarship.

66. **Illegal**—(deliberately against law):

Smuggling of contraband articles is an illegal act.

Unlawful—(not in conformity with law):

Don't do anything unlawful.

MULTIPLE CHOICE QUESTIONS (MCQS)

1. Which word refers to a dwelling place with happy associations such as furnishings, family, and love?
 - a) House
 - b) Residence
 - c) ✓ Home
 - d) Apartment
2. What is the appropriate synonym for a disease

that spreads through physical contact?

- a) Infectious
- b) Viral
- c) ✓ **Contagious**
- d) Bacterial

3. Which word implies careful attention when hearing something?

- a) Hear
- b) Observe
- c) ✓ **Listen**
- d) Watch

4. Which word refers to a serious or gross mistake?

- a) Mistake
- b) ✓ **Blunder**
- c) Error
- d) Slip

5. What is the synonym for something that is probable to happen?

- a) Certain
- b) Possible
- c) Sure
- d) ✓ **Probable**

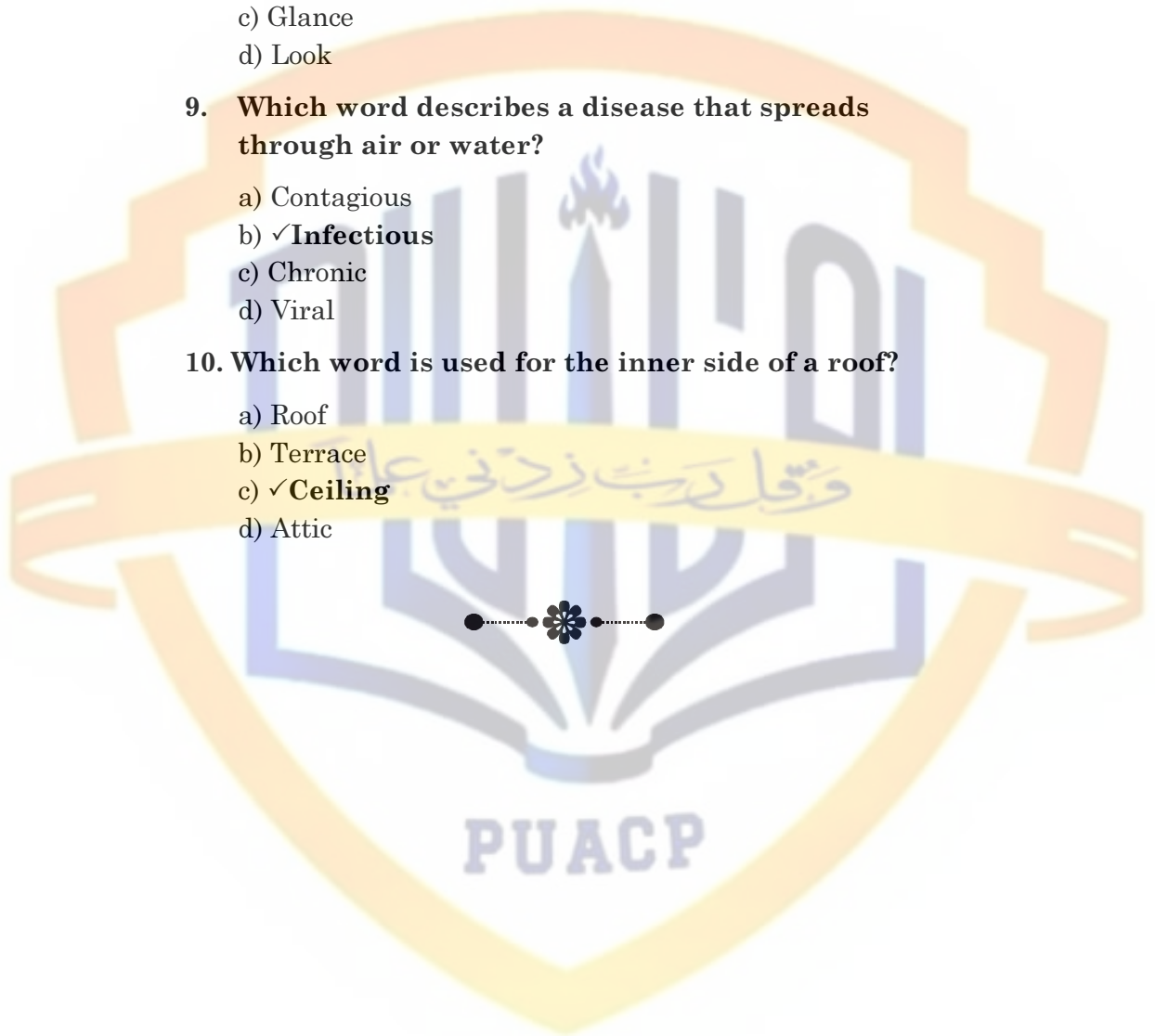
6. Which word refers to the spoken form of a test?

- a) ✓ **Oral**
- b) Verbal
- c) Written
- d) Visual

7. What word refers to unhappiness over something one has done or left undone?

- a) Guilt

- b) ✓ **Regret**
 - c) Remorse
 - d) Sorrow
8. Which word is used when you observe closely with intention?
- a) See
 - b) ✓ **Watch**
 - c) Glance
 - d) Look
9. Which word describes a disease that spreads through air or water?
- a) Contagious
 - b) ✓ **Infectious**
 - c) Chronic
 - d) Viral
10. Which word is used for the inner side of a roof?
- a) Roof
 - b) Terrace
 - c) ✓ **Ceiling**
 - d) Attic



1.2.3 ANTONYMS

“Antonyms are words of the same grammatical class (Nouns, Verbs, Adjectives, etc.) that have opposite meanings.”
David Green

Antonyms are of two kinds—

- i. The first kind of Antonyms are those that are formed by the addition of **Prefixes or Suffixes** before or after some words.
- ii. The second kind of Antonyms are those **words** that have opposite meanings to the given words without having any etymological relationship with them—

HERE IS A LIST OF ANTONYMS WITH USAGE

1. **Above**—(in a higher position):
The stars shine brightly above.
Below—(in a lower position):
The ground lies below our feet.
2. **Abstract**—(unreal, conceptual only):
His thoughts were too abstract for me to understand.
Concrete—(real):
She gave me a concrete example to clarify her point.
3. **Accept**—(to agree to receive or take):
She decided to accept the job offer.
Reject—(to refuse): He rejected the idea outright.
4. **Acquit**—(to set free):
The jury acquitted him of all charges.
Condemn—(to punish):

The court condemned the criminal for his actions.

5. **Advance—(to move forward):**

The troops advanced towards the battlefield.

Retreat—(to move backward):

They had to retreat when they were outnumbered.

6. **Affirm—(accept, admit):**

She affirmed her commitment to the cause.

Deny—(refuse):

He denied any involvement in the incident.

7. **Affluence—(prosperity):**

He enjoyed the affluence of a successful career.

Poverty—(being poor):

Many struggle with the harsh realities of poverty.

8. **Aggravate—(increase, worsen):**

His actions aggravated the situation.

Alleviate—(lessen, reduce):

The medication helped to alleviate her pain.

9. **Agree—(to have the same opinion):**

They agree on most political issues.

Differ—(to have a different opinion):

They differ on how to approach the problem.

10. **Allow—(to permit):**

The teacher allowed them extra time for the test.

Forbid—(to prohibit):

The law forbids texting while driving.

11. **Analysis—(breaking up into parts):**

His analysis of the data was thorough.

Synthesis—(combination of parts):

The synthesis of ideas led to a breakthrough.

12. **Ancestor—(forefathers):**

They trace their lineage back to a famous ancestor.

Descendant—(coming down from ancestors):

She is a descendant of a noble family.

13. **Ancient—(old, from a long time ago):**

The ancient ruins were fascinating to explore.

Modern—(of the present time):

Modern architecture contrasts with ancient structures.

14. **Aristocrat—(a member of the noble class):**

The aristocrat lived in a grand mansion.

Commoner—(a person without noble rank):

The commoner worked hard to provide for his family.

15. **Arrive—(to reach a destination):**

They arrived at the airport early.

Depart—(to leave a place):

The train departed on time.

16. **Ascent—(rising, moving upward):**

The balloon made a slow ascent into the sky.

Descent—(declining, moving downward):

The plane made a smooth descent to the runway.

17. **Assent—(agree):**

They gave their assent to the new policy.

Dissent—(disagree):

There was some dissent among the board members.

18. **Asset—(something valuable):**

Her communication skills are a valuable asset.

Liability—(a responsibility or debt):

The old equipment became a liability for the company.

19. **Attract—(to draw towards):**

The bright lights attract many tourists.

Repel—(to push away):

The strong odor repelled everyone from the room.

20. **Awake—(not asleep):**

He was still awake late into the night.

Asleep—(in a state of sleep):

The baby was fast asleep in her crib.

21. **Barren—(unproductive, unable to produce):**

The barren land yielded no crops.

Fertile—(productive, able to produce):

The fertile soil was perfect for farming.

22. **Base—(lacking moral principles):**

His base actions shocked everyone.

Noble—(having high moral qualities):

She is known for her noble character.

23. **Beautiful—(pleasing to the senses):**

The sunset was beautiful.

Ugly—(unpleasant to look at):

The old building was considered ugly by many.

24. **Belief—(acceptance that something is true):**

Her belief in justice never wavered.

Doubt—(uncertainty):

He expressed doubt about the plan's success.

25. **Benediction—(blessing):**

The kind man offered a benediction for the couple.

Malediction—(curse):

The witch uttered a malediction upon her enemies.

26. **Benevolence—(generosity):**

His benevolence towards the poor was widely praised.

Malevolence—(ill-will, lack of generosity):

Her malevolence was clear in her spiteful actions.

27. **Bold—(courageous):**

His bold decision changed the course of the company.

Timid—(lacking courage):

She was too timid to speak up in the meeting.

28. **Bonafides—(trustworthiness):**

He proved his bonafides in the negotiation.

Malafides—(lack of trustworthiness):

There were doubts about his malafides.

29. **Boom—(rise, growth):**

The tech industry experienced a boom in recent years.

Slump—(fall, decline):

The economy went into a slump after the crisis.

30. **Bravery—(courage):**

His bravery in battle was legendary.

Cowardice—(lack of courage):

His cowardice in the face of danger was disappointing.

31. **Bright—(shining, full of light):**

The bright sun lit up the sky.

Dim—(lacking brightness):

The room was dim and hard to see in.

32. **Carnal—(of the senses):**

He was led by his carnal desires.

Spiritual—(of the spirit or soul):

She focused on her spiritual growth.

33. **Centrifugal—(moving away from the center):**

The centrifugal force pushed the object outward.

Centripetal—(drawn towards the center):

The centripetal force kept the planets in orbit.

34. **Cheap—(inexpensive):**

The product was cheap but effective.

Dear—(expensive):

The antique furniture was quite dear.

35. **Cheerful—(happy, joyful):**

She was in a cheerful mood all day.

Gloomy—(sad, unhappy):

The gloomy weather matched her mood.

36. **Clean—(free from dirt):**

The kitchen was spotless and clean.

Dirty—(covered in dirt):

The floor was dirty after the party.

37. **Clergy—(religious leaders, priests):**

The clergy gathered for the meeting.

Laity—(common people, non-clergy):

The laity supported the church's new initiatives.

38. **Clever—(intelligent, quick-thinking):**

She came up with a clever solution to the problem.

Stupid—(lacking intelligence):

His stupid mistake cost them the game.

39. **Common—(ordinary, usual):**

It's common to see tourists in this city.

Rare—(unusual, uncommon):

Rare birds were spotted in the forest.

40. **Compulsory—(required, mandatory):**

Attending the meeting is compulsory for all employees.

Optional—(not required):

Participation in the event is optional.

41. **Concord—(agreement, harmony):**

The nations worked in concord to maintain peace.

Discord—(disagreement, conflict):

There was discord among the members of the team.

42. **Confident—(having confidence):**

He was confident about his chances of winning.

Diffident—(lacking confidence):

She felt diffident speaking in front of a large audience.

43. **Convex—(curved outward):**

The lens had a convex shape.

Concave—(curved inward):

The concave mirror reflected a distorted image.

44. **Covert—(concealed, hidden):**

The spy's mission was covert.

Overt—(open, not hidden):

Their overt hostility was evident to everyone.

45. **Create—(to make something new):**

The artist worked to create a masterpiece.

Destroy—(to ruin or end something):

The storm destroyed their home.

46. **Dark—(lack of light):** The room was completely dark.

Light—(brightness):

The light from the lamp filled the room.

47. **Dawn—(the first light of day):**

The dawn brought a new beginning.

Dusk—(the last light of the day):

The dusk signaled the end of the day.

48. **Debit**—(a recorded amount of money to be paid):

The debit was taken from his account.

Credit—(a recorded amount of money to be received):

The credit increased his balance.

49. **Debtor**—(one who owes money):

The debtor struggled to pay his debts.

Creditor—(one who lends money):

The creditor extended the loan.

50. **Deduction**—(from general to specific):

The deduction led to a logical conclusion.

Induction—(from specific to general):

Induction helped establish a broad theory.

51. **Deep**—(far below the surface):

The ocean is deep at this point.

Shallow—(not deep):

The river is shallow near the shore.

52. **Defendant**—(the one being accused):

The defendant pleaded **not** guilty.

Plaintiff—(the one who brings a case):

The plaintiff presented strong evidence.

53. **Defensive**—(protecting oneself):

The player took a defensive position.

Offensive—(attacking):

The offensive strategy surprised the opponents.

54. **Deficit**—(a shortfall in funds):

The government is facing a deficit.

Surplus—(an excess of funds):

The company reported a surplus this quarter.

55. **Deflate**—(to release air): The balloon began to deflate.

Inflate—(to fill with air):

She inflated the tire before the trip.

56. **Deliberate**—(done intentionally):

It was a deliberate attempt to solve the issue.

Unintentional—(accidental):

The mistake was unintentional.

57. **Democracy**—(government by the people):

Democracy thrives on participation.

Autocracy—(government by one):

An autocracy allows no opposition.

58. **Diligent**—(hardworking):

He was diligent in his studies.

Lazy—(unwilling to work):

His lazy attitude was a concern.

59. **Dilute**—(to make thinner or weaker):

She had to dilute the solution.

Concentrated—(made stronger):

The juice was too concentrated to drink.

60. **Dwarf**—(a very small person or thing):

The tree looked like a dwarf next to the others.

Giant—(a very large person or thing):

The giant towered over the village.

61. **Ebb**—(to move away, as a tide):

The tide began to ebb in the evening.

Flow—(to move forward continuously):

The river continued to flow through the valley.

62. **Efflux**—(flowing out):

The efflux of water from the pipe was rapid.

Influx—(flowing in): The city saw an influx of tourists.

63. **Egoism**—(self-centered thinking):

His actions were driven by egoism.

Altruism—(concern for others):

Altruism led her to help those in need.

64. **Elevation**—(a rise in position or height):

The mountain's elevation made the climb difficult.

Depression—(a low area or fall):

The depression in the ground filled with water.

65. **Emigrant**—(one who leaves their own country):

The emigrant moved abroad for better opportunities.

Immigrant—(one who settles in a new country):

The immigrant adapted to the local culture.

66. **Exaggeration**—(making something seem greater):

His story was full of exaggeration.

Understatement—(making something seem less important):

Calling it a minor issue was an understatement.

67. **Exclude**—(to leave out):

They decided to exclude him from the list.

Include—(to add in):

We must include all relevant information.

68. **Exit**—(a way out):

She found the exit at the back of the building.

Entrance—(a way in):

The entrance was grand and impressive.

69. **Exotic**—(foreign or unusual):

The garden had many exotic plants.

Indigenous—(native or local):

The indigenous trees are well-suited to the climate.

70. **Expand**—(to make larger):

The company plans to expand its operations.

Contract—(to reduce in size):

The balloon began to contract as it cooled.

71. **Explicit**—(clear and detailed):

The instructions were explicit.

Implicit—(implied or understood):

His meaning was implicit in the statement.

72. **Exterior**—(outside):

The building's exterior was made of glass.

Interior—(inside):

The interior of the house was spacious.

73. **External**—(outside):

External factors affected the decision.

Internal—(inside):

He focused on internal improvement.

74. **Extravagant**—(wasteful or excessive):

The party was an extravagant affair.

Frugal—(careful in spending): She led a frugal lifestyle.

75. **Famous**—(widely known):

The actor was famous worldwide.

Obscure—(not well known):

The author remained obscure despite his talent.

76. **Fast**—(moving quickly): The horse ran fast.**Slow**—(moving slowly):

The turtle moved slow across the field.

77. **Fat**—(having excess weight):

The cat had grown fat over the winter.

Thin—(slim or not overweight):

She remained thin despite her large appetite.

78. **Fictitious**—(imaginary or made-up):

The story was entirely fictitious.

Real—(based on reality):

The events in the documentary were real.

79. **Flattery**—(excessive praise):

His words were pure flattery.

Detraction—(criticism or belittling):

Her detraction of the project was unwarranted.

80. **Float**—(to stay on the surface):

The leaf floated on the water.

Sink—(to go below the surface):

The stone sank to the bottom of the pond.

81. **Forget**—(to fail to remember):

I forget where I put my keys.

Remember—(to recall):

I remember the day we first met.

82. **Foreign**—(from another country):

The food was prepared in a foreign style.

Native—(belonging to one's own country):

He spoke his native language fluently.

83. **Frequent**—(happening often):

He made frequent visits to the library.

Rare—(happening seldom):

Sightings of the bird were rare.

84. **Fresh**—(new or recently made):

The bread was fresh out of the oven.

Stale—(old or no longer fresh):

The bread had gone stale after a few days.

85. **Friendly**—(kind and pleasant):

The dog was very friendly.

Hostile—(unfriendly or aggressive):

Their behavior was hostile towards outsiders.

86. **Full**—(completely filled): The cup was full of water.

Empty—(containing nothing):

The room was completely empty.

87. **Gain**—(to acquire or increase):

He hoped to gain more knowledge.

Loss—(to decrease or lose):

The company suffered a financial loss.

88. **Gather**—(to collect or bring together):

They gathered information from various sources.

Scatter—(to disperse or spread):

The wind scattered the leaves across the yard.

89. **General**—(applicable to most):

He made a general statement.

Particular—(specific or special):

He focused on the particular details.

90. **Generous**—(willing to give):

She was known for being generous with her time.

Mean—(unwilling to give):

He was known for being mean with his money.

91. **Keen**—(sharp or intense):

His keen observation helped solve the mystery.

Blunt—(not sharp):

The knife was too blunt to cut through the bread.

Dull—(lacking sharpness or brightness):

The dull blade made the task harder.

92. **Kernel**—(the central or most important part):

The kernel of the argument was solid.

Shell—(the outer covering of something):

The shell of the nut was difficult to crack.

93. **Kill**—(to cause death):

They had to kill the infected animal to prevent the spread of the disease.

Resurrect—(to bring back to life):

The doctor was able to resurrect the patient after the accident.

94. **Kind**—(having a gentle nature):

She is always kind to everyone.

Cruel—(causing pain or suffering):

His cruel behavior was unacceptable.

95. **Kindle**—(to start a fire):

He used dry twigs to kindle the fire.

Extinguish—(to put out a fire):

They managed to extinguish the flames quickly.

96. **King**—(a male ruler of a country):

The king ruled his land with justice.

Subject—(a person under the rule of a king):

The subjects of the kingdom respected their ruler.

97. **Knowledge**—(awareness or understanding):

His knowledge of history is vast.

Ignorance—(lack of knowledge):

Ignorance of the law is not an excuse.

98. **Lament**—(to mourn or express sorrow):

She lamented the loss of her pet.

Rejoice—(to feel or express joy):

They rejoiced upon hearing the good news.

99. **Landlord**—(a person who rents out property):

The landlord visited the property monthly.

Tenant—(a person who rents property):

The tenant took good care of the house.

100. **Lascivious**—(showing strong sexual desire):

His lascivious behavior was inappropriate.

Chaste—(morally pure):

She lived a chaste and modest life.

101. **Licentious**—(lacking moral restraint):

His licentious lifestyle shocked many.

Moral—(concerned with principles of right and wrong):

He is known for his strong moral values.

102. **Lewd**—(obscene or indecent):

The lewd comments were completely out of line.

Virtuous—(having high moral standards):

She was known for her virtuous behavior.

103.**Later**—(at a time following):

We will meet later in the afternoon.

Earlier—(before the expected time):

He arrived earlier than planned.

104.**Latter**—(the second of two):

Of the two options, I prefer the latter.

Former—(the first of two):

She chose the former option, which seemed better.

105.**Lead**—(to guide or be in charge):

She will lead the team during the project.

Follow—(to come after or pursue):

The children followed their teacher in a line.

106.**Lend**—(to give temporarily):

I will lend you my book for the weekend.

Borrow—(to take temporarily):

May I borrow your pen for a moment?

107.**Let**—(to allow):

He will let us use his car for the trip.

Hire—(to pay for temporary use):

We decided to hire a car for the weekend.

108.**Liberate**—(to set free):

The revolution sought to liberate the oppressed.

Enslave—(to make someone a slave):

The dictator sought to enslave his people.

109.**Literal**—(taking words in their most basic sense):

The literal meaning of the text was clear.

Figurative—(using symbolic language):

The poem was rich in figurative expressions.

110.**Loose**—(not tight or secure):

The shoelace was loose, so he tied it again.

Tight—(firmly fixed in place):

The lid was too tight to open easily.

111.**Loquacious**—(very talkative):

The loquacious child kept everyone entertained.

Taciturn—(reserved or not talkative):

He was taciturn and rarely spoke at gatherings.

112.**Lose**—(to misplace or be deprived of):

I don't want to lose my keys again.

Find—(to discover or recover):

She was relieved to find her lost wallet.

113.**Major**—(greater in importance):

The major issue was discussed at length.

Minor—(lesser in importance):

The minor details were handled later.

114.**Many**—(a large number):

Many people attended the event.

Few—(a small number): Only a few seats were left.

115.**Marriage**—(the state of being married):

Their marriage was celebrated with joy.

Celibacy—(the state of abstaining from marriage):

He chose a life of celibacy for personal reasons.

116.**Masculine**—(having qualities traditionally associated with men):

His masculine traits were admired by many.

Feminine—(having qualities traditionally associated with women):

She displayed a feminine grace in her movements.

117.**Material**—(related to physical objects):

He was more interested in material wealth.

Spiritual—(related to the spirit or soul):

She focused on her spiritual growth.

118.**Maximum**—(the greatest possible amount):

The maximum capacity of the room is 100.

Minimum—(the least possible amount):

The minimum age for voting is 18.

119.**Memory**—(the ability to recall information):

Her memory of the event was vivid.

Oblivion—(the state of being forgotten):

The old tradition faded into oblivion.

120.**Microcosm**—(a small, representative system):

121. The classroom was a microcosm of society.

Macrocosm—(the whole universe or a large system):

The earth is just a part of the larger macrocosm.

122. **Mild**—(not severe or extreme):

The weather was mild and pleasant.

Stern—(strict and severe):

The teacher's stern approach kept the students disciplined.

123. **Miser**—(a person who hoards wealth):

The miser refused to spend any of his fortune.

Spendthrift—(a person who spends money carelessly):

The spendthrift bought expensive things without thought.

124. **Monogamy**—(the practice of being married to one person at a time):

They believed in monogamy and a lifelong partnership.

Polygamy—(the practice of having more than one spouse):

In some cultures, polygamy is an accepted practice.

125. **Monotheism**—(belief in one god):

Monotheism is a central concept in many religions.

Polytheism—(belief in multiple gods):

Ancient Greeks practiced polytheism.

126. **Monotony**—(lack of variety):

The monotony of the work made it tedious.

Variety—(a range of different things):

There was a variety of options to choose from.

127.**Motion**—(movement):

The motion of the car made him feel sleepy.

Rest—(a state of stillness):

After hours of work, he needed some rest.

128.**Naive**—(lacking experience or sophistication):

The naive child believed every story she heard.

Sophisticated—(worldly and cultured):

His sophisticated manners impressed everyone.

129.**Narrow**—(not wide):

The narrow street was difficult to navigate.

Broad—(wide and spacious):

The broad avenue was lined with trees.

130.**Native**—(belonging to one's country):

He is a native of this region.

Foreign—(from another country):

The foreign visitors admired the local culture.

131.**Natural**—(existing in nature):

The natural beauty of the park is breathtaking.

Artificial—(man-made or fake):

The artificial flowers looked almost real.

132.**Nebulous**—(unclear or vague):

His explanation was nebulous and hard to understand.

Distinct—(clear and well-defined):

The distinct outline of the mountain was visible from afar.

133. **Negative**—(expressing denial or refusal):

She gave a negative response to the invitation.

Positive—(expressing approval or agreement):

His positive attitude helped him succeed.

134. **Neutral**—(not taking sides):

The country remained neutral during the conflict.

Partial—(favoring one side):

Her judgment was partial and biased.

135. **Niggard**—(a person who is extremely stingy):

He was known as a niggard, never willing to share.

Spendthrift—(a person who wastes money):

Despite his wealth, he lived like a spendthrift.

136. **Noxious**—(harmful or poisonous):

The noxious fumes made it difficult to breathe.

Wholesome—(beneficial to health):

The wholesome meal left everyone feeling nourished.

137. **Observe**—(to watch carefully):

She observed the behavior of the birds.

Reverse—(to go in the opposite direction):

He reversed the car out of the driveway.

138. **Offer**—(to present or propose):

They offered him a job at the company.

Refuse—(to decline or reject):

She refused the offer politely.

139. **Often**—(frequently, many times):

He often visits his grandparents.

Seldom—(rarely, not often):

She seldom goes to the movies.

140. **Optimistic**—(hopeful, positive):

He is optimistic about his future.

Pessimistic—(hopeless, sad):

She has a pessimistic view of the situation.

141. **Oral**—(spoken, not written):

He gave an oral presentation to the class.

Written—(expressed in writing):

The agreement was in written form.

142. **Oriental**—(relating to the East):

Oriental cultures have rich traditions.

Occidental—(relating to the West):

Occidental art is very diverse.

143. **Original**—(first or real copy):

This is the original painting by the artist.

Duplicate—(false copy, not real):

The document was a duplicate of the original.

144. **Orthodox**—(traditional, conforming to established beliefs):

He follows orthodox religious practices.

Heterodox—(non-traditional, non-conforming):

Her views were considered heterodox by the community.

145. **Ostensible**—(appearing to be true, showy):

His ostensible reason for quitting was health issues.

Actual—(real, genuine):

The actual reason was dissatisfaction with his job.

146. **Partly**—(to some degree):

He was partly responsible for the accident.

Wholly—(completely):

She is wholly to blame for the misunderstanding.

147. **Permanent**—(lasting, enduring):

The position is permanent.

Temporary—(lasting for a short time):

This is only a temporary arrangement.

148. **Permit**—(to allow):

They permitted the use of the hall for the event.

Prohibit—(to forbid):

Smoking is prohibited in this area.

149. **Philanthropist**—(one who promotes public good):

The philanthropist donated generously to the hospital.

Misanthropist—(one who is against public good):

The misanthropist avoided social gatherings.

150. **Pleasure**—(a feeling of happiness or enjoyment):

Reading brings her great pleasure.

Pain—(a feeling of discomfort or suffering):

He felt pain after the injury.

151. **Practice**—(the act of doing something repeatedly):

He practices piano every day.

Theory—(an idea or set of ideas):

The theory behind his actions was complex.

152. **Pragmatic**—(practical, realistic):

He took a pragmatic approach to solving the problem.

Idealistic—(focused on ideals, not practicality):

Her idealistic goals were hard to achieve.

153. **Praise**—(to express admiration):

They praised her for her excellent work.

Blame—(to hold responsible for a fault):

He blamed his colleague for the mistake.

154. **Precede**—(to come before):

The speech preceded the award ceremony.

Succeed—(to come after):

His hard work succeeded in getting him promoted.

155. **Pride**—(a feeling of self-respect or achievement):

He takes pride in his work.

Humility—(lack of pride, modesty):

Her humility made her well-liked.

156. **Profit**—(a financial gain):

The company made a large profit this year.

Loss—(a negative financial outcome):

They suffered a loss due to poor sales.

157. **Progress**—(forward movement):

The project is making good progress.

Regress—(to move backward):

The patient's health regressed after the surgery.

158. **Progressive**—(moving forward, innovative):

He is known for his progressive ideas.

Reactionary—(opposing change, conservative):

His reactionary stance was clear in the debate.

159. **Promote**—(to raise to a higher position):

She was promoted to manager.

Demote—(to lower in rank):

He was demoted due to poor performance.

160. **Prow**—(the front part of a ship):

The prow of the ship cut through the water.

Stern—(the back part of a ship):

The stern was heavily damaged in the storm.

161. **Public**—(open to everyone):

The park is open to the public.

Private—(restricted to certain people):

This is a private property.

162. **Quiet**—(silent or calm): The library was quiet.

Noisy—(full of noise):

The children were noisy in the playground.

163. **Queer**—(strange or unusual):

He had a queer feeling about the place.

Normal—(usual, typical):

Everything seemed normal at the office.

164. **Rash**—(acting without thought):

His rash decision cost him the job.

Cautious—(careful, avoiding risks):

She was cautious when crossing the street.

165. **Rapid**—(fast): The river's current was rapid.

Slow—(not fast): The car was moving at a slow speed.

166. **Recede**—(to move back):

The floodwaters began to recede.

Advance—(to move forward):

The army advanced towards the city.

167. **Relative**—(dependent on something else):

Happiness is relative to one's situation.

Absolute—(not dependent on anything else):

His authority in the matter was absolute.

168. **Reluctant**—(hesitant, unwilling):

She was reluctant to accept the offer.

Willing—(ready, eager):

He was willing to help her with the project.

169. **Remember**—(to recall):

She remembered the incident vividly.

Forget—(to fail to recall):

He forgot where he put his keys.

170. **Remitter**—(the one who sends):

The remitter sent money to his family.

Recipient—(the one who receives):

The recipient of the package was delighted.

171. **Reserved**—(quiet, introverted):

He was reserved and didn't talk much.

Sociable—(friendly, outgoing):

She is very sociable and loves meeting new people.

172. **Resist**—(to oppose or stand against):

He resisted the temptation to eat the cake.

Submit—(to yield or give in):

She submitted to the demands of the situation.

173. **Retail**—(selling goods in small quantities):

The shop retails a variety of products.

Wholesale—(selling goods in large quantities):

The company deals in wholesale business.

174. **Reward**—(to give something for good behavior or work):

He was rewarded for his hard work.

Punish—(to impose a penalty for wrongdoing): The student was punished for cheating.

175. **Ripe**—(fully grown or developed):

The apple was ripe and ready to eat.

Raw—(uncooked or unprocessed):

The meat was still raw.

176.**Rise**—(to move upward): The sun rises in the east.

Fall—(to move downward): The leaves fall in autumn.

177.**Rough**—(not smooth or uneven):

The surface of the rock was rough.

Smooth—(having an even and regular surface):

The table was smooth to the touch.

178.**Rude**—(impolite or disrespectful): His rude behavior was unacceptable.

Polite—(showing good manners): She was polite and respectful to everyone.

179.**Sacred**—(holy or deserving of respect):

The temple is considered sacred by many.

Profane—(not holy or disrespectful):

The use of profane language was discouraged.

180.**Safe**—(free from harm or danger):

It's safe to walk here at night.

Risky—(involving danger or risk):

Skydiving is a risky activity.

181.**Saint**—(a person recognized for their holiness):

The church was dedicated to a saint.

Sinner—(a person who commits immoral acts):

He confessed his sins, knowing he was a sinner.

182.**Servant**—(someone employed to perform duties for others): The servant prepared the room for the guests.

Master—(the one who commands or has control):

The master gave his orders to the servants.

183.**Sharp**—(having a fine edge or point):

The knife was sharp and cut through the fruit easily.

Blunt—(not sharp):

The scissors were too blunt to cut anything.

184.**Simple**—(easy, not complicated):

The instructions were simple to follow.

Complex—(complicated, not simple):

The problem was complex and required more time to solve.

185.**Sink**—(to go down below the surface):

The ship began to sink after hitting the iceberg.

Swim—(to move through water):

The children love to swim in the pool.

186.**Sober**—(not affected by alcohol or drugs):

He was sober and fully aware of his surroundings.

Drunk—(affected by alcohol):

He was too drunk to drive home.

187.**Solid**—(having a firm, stable form):

The sculpture was made from solid marble.

Liquid—(a substance that flows freely):

Water is a liquid at room temperature.

188.**Starboard**—(right side of a ship when facing forward):

The sailors were working on the starboard side.

Port—(left side of a ship when facing forward):

The cargo was loaded on the port side of the ship.

189.**Straight**—(not bending or curving):

The road is straight for miles.

Crooked—(bent or not straight):

The old fence was crooked and needed fixing.

190.**Strait**—(narrow):

The ship passed through the narrow strait.

Broad—(wide):

The river broadened as it approached the sea.

191.**Strange**—(unfamiliar or unusual):

It was strange to see him at the party.

Familiar—(well known or recognized):

She was familiar with the neighborhood.

192.**Succeed**—(to achieve a desired result):

She succeeded in completing the project on time.

Fail—(to not achieve a desired result):

He failed to meet the deadline.

193.**Sympathy**—(understanding and caring for someone's suffering):

She expressed her sympathy for the grieving family.

Antipathy—(a strong dislike):

He had a deep antipathy toward dishonesty.

194.**Temporal**—(related to worldly, physical things):

The priest spoke of the temporal nature of wealth.

Spiritual—(related to the soul or spirit):

She focused on her spiritual growth.

195. **Tense**—(feeling nervous or stressed):

He felt tense before the exam.

Relaxed—(free from tension or stress):

She felt relaxed after the yoga session.

196. **Thesis**—(a statement or theory put forward):

His thesis was well-researched and argued.

Antithesis—(the direct opposite):

His argument was the antithesis of her beliefs.

197. **Thick**—(having a large distance between opposite sides): The book was very thick.

198. **Thin**—(having a small distance between opposite sides):

The paper was too thin to hold much weight.

199. **Tight**—(firmly fixed or fastened):

The lid was too tight to open.

200. **Loose**—(not firmly fixed or fastened):

The door handle was loose and needed to be tightened.

201. **Tranquil**—(peaceful or calm):

The lake was tranquil at sunrise.

Disturbed—(unquiet or troubled):

The loud noise disturbed the peaceful atmosphere.

202. **Transparent**—(allowing light to pass through):

The glass window was transparent.

Opaque—(not allowing light to pass through):

The frosted glass was opaque.

203. **Triumph**—(a great victory or achievement):

Winning the championship was a triumph for the team.

Defeat—(failure to win):

The team faced a crushing defeat in the final match.

204. **Trivial**—(of little importance):

The argument was over a trivial matter.

Important—(of great significance):

It is important to complete the assignment on time.

205. **Unite**—(to bring together):

The event aimed to unite the community.

Separate—(to divide or keep apart):

The two groups were separated by a fence.

206. **Upper**—(higher in position):

The upper deck of the ship offered a great view.

Lower—(below in position):

The lower floor of the building was flooded.

207. **Upright**—(honest or moral):

He was known for his upright character.

Dishonest—(not honest or moral):

The dishonest salesman tricked his customers.

208. **Urban**—(relating to the city):

He enjoyed the urban lifestyle.

Rural—(relating to the countryside):

They moved to a rural area to escape the city.

209. **Urbane**—(sophisticated and polished):

He was admired for his urbane manners.

210. **Rude**—(impolite or uncultured):

His rude behavior shocked everyone.

211. **Vacant**—(empty or unoccupied):

The apartment was vacant.

Occupied—(being used or filled):

The hotel was fully occupied.

212. **Vague**—(unclear or not specific):

His explanation was vague and confusing.

Clear—(easy to understand):

She gave a clear and concise answer.

213. **Vertical**—(standing upright, perpendicular):

The skyscraper stood tall in a vertical line.

Horizontal—(flat or parallel to the ground):

The shelves were aligned in a horizontal fashion.

214. **Victory**—(success in a battle or competition):

Their victory was celebrated throughout the city.

Defeat—(failure in a battle or competition):

The army faced a humiliating defeat.

215. **Virtue**—(moral goodness):

Patience is considered a great virtue.

Vice—(immoral or wicked behavior):

Greed is often regarded as a vice.

216. **Voluntary**—(done by free choice):

The volunteers offered their time willingly.

Compulsory—(required by law or rule):

Attendance at the meeting is compulsory.

217. **Wake**—(to stop sleeping):

He wakes up early every morning.

Sleep—(to rest by closing one's eyes):

She fell into a deep sleep after a long day.

218. **Wealth**—(a large amount of money or resources):

He inherited a great deal of wealth.

Poverty—(the state of being poor):

They worked hard to escape poverty.

219. **Wide**—(having a large distance from side to side):

The river was wide and deep.

Narrow—(having a small distance from side to side):

The path was narrow and difficult to walk on.

220. **Win**—(to be successful in a competition or contest):

He was determined to win the race.

Lose—(to fail in a competition or contest):

She didn't want to lose the game.

221. **Wise**—(having knowledge and good judgment):

The elder was known for his wise advice.

Foolish—(lacking good sense or judgment):

It was a foolish decision to ignore the warnings.

222. **Zenith**—(the highest point):

The sun reached its zenith at noon.

Nadir—(the lowest point):

His career hit its nadir when the company went bankrupt.

MULTIPLE-CHOICE QUESTIONS (MCQS)

1. **What is the antonym of "Abstract"?**

- a) Unreal
- b) Conceptual
- c) ✓ Concrete
- d) Imaginative

2. **Which word is the antonym of "Advance"?**

- a) Move Forward
- b) Proceed
- c) ✓ Retreat
- d) Progress

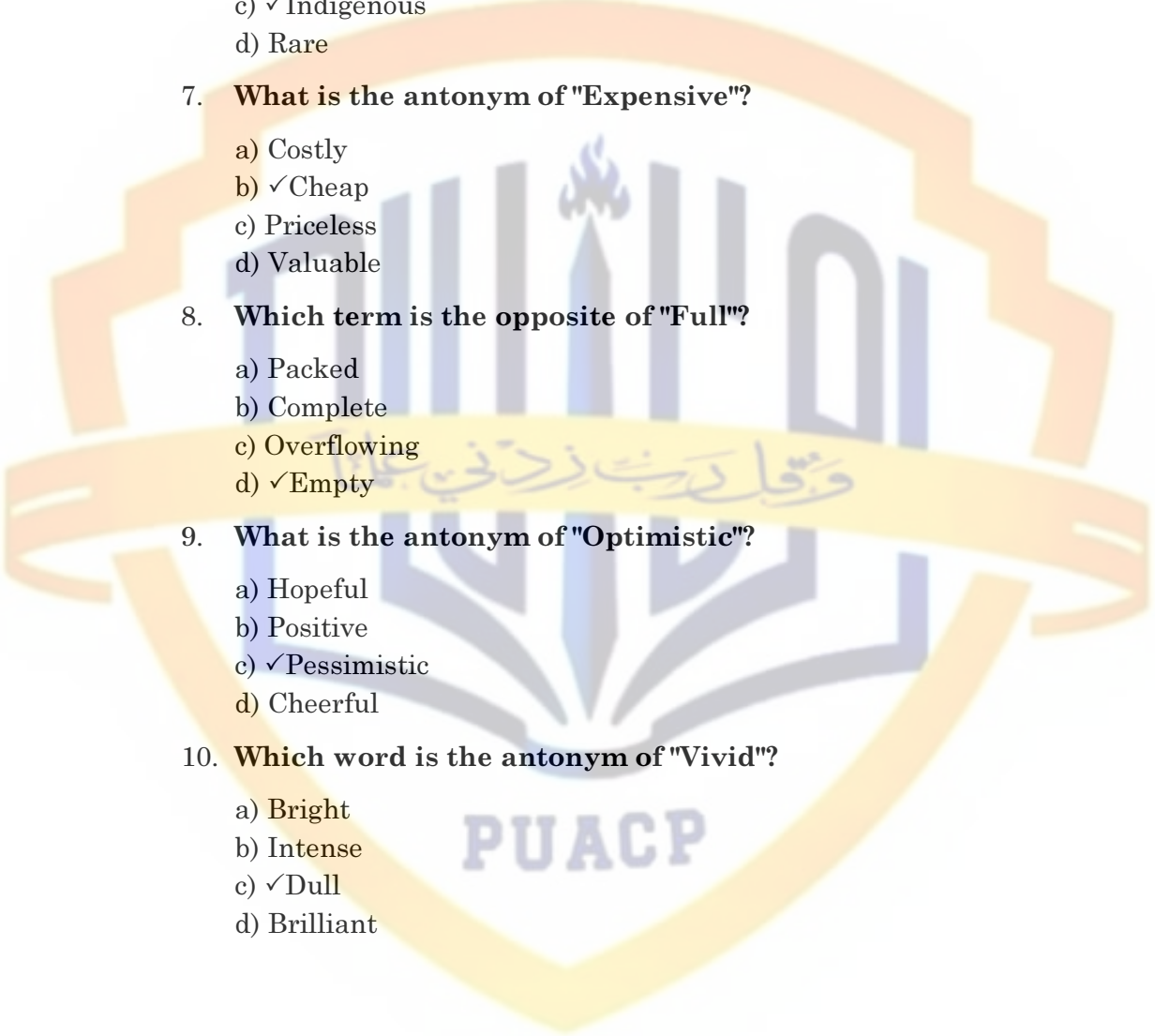
3. **What is the antonym of "Affluent"?**

- a) Prosperous
- b) Wealthy
- c) ✓ Poor
- d) Rich

4. **Which word is the opposite of "Agree"?**

- a) Approve
- b) Concur
- c) ✓ Differ
- d) Accept

5. **What is the antonym of "Dynamic"?**

- 
- a) Active
b) Energetic
c) ✓Static
d) Vibrant
6. Which word means the opposite of "Exotic"?
- a) Unusual
b) Foreign
c) ✓Indigenous
d) Rare
7. What is the antonym of "Expensive"?
- a) Costly
b) ✓Cheap
c) Priceless
d) Valuable
8. Which term is the opposite of "Full"?
- a) Packed
b) Complete
c) Overflowing
d) ✓Empty
9. What is the antonym of "Optimistic"?
- a) Hopeful
b) Positive
c) ✓Pessimistic
d) Cheerful
10. Which word is the antonym of "Vivid"?
- a) Bright
b) Intense
c) ✓Dull
d) Brilliant

11. Which term refers to the greatest possible amount?
- a) Minimum
 - b) Average
 - c) ✓ Maximum
 - d) Medium
12. What is the opposite of 'mild'?
- a) Gentle
 - b) Harsh
 - c) Friendly
 - d) ✓ Stern
13. Which term describes something that is 'related to the spirit or soul'?
- a) Physical
 - b) Material
 - c) ✓ Spiritual
 - d) Emotional
14. What term describes a person who is extremely stingy?
- a) Spendthrift
 - b) ✓ Miser
 - c) Philanthropist
 - d) Generous
15. Which term means 'the state of being forgotten'?
- a) Memory
 - b) Remembrance
 - c) ✓ Oblivion
 - d) Recognition
16. What is the opposite of 'transparent'?

- a) Clear
- b) ✓ Opaque
- c) Bright
- d) Visible

17. **Which term refers to the practice of being married to one person at a time?**

- a) Polygamy
- b) ✓ Monogamy
- c) Polytheism
- d) Monotheism

18. **What is the term for 'a small, representative system'?**

- a) Macrocosm
- b) ✓ Microcosm
- c) Universe
- d) Cosmos

19. **Which term describes a feeling of discomfort or suffering?**

- a) Joy
- b) Pleasure
- c) ✓ Pain
- d) Happiness

20. **What is the opposite of 'loose'?**

- a) Firm
- b) ✓ Tight
- c) Relaxed
- d) Open



1.2.4. IDIOMATIC EXPRESSIONS

Idiom is a word or words that are peculiar to a particular language. An idiomatic expression is whose meanings cannot be inferred from the meanings of the words that comprise it.

IDIOMS, THEIR MEANINGS AND SENTENCES

1. **A to Z:** [Very thoroughly and completely]
He has studied the subject A to Z.
2. **ABC:** [Basic knowledge of something]
He does not know the ABC of Biology.
3. **Above all:** [Before anything else]
Above all, you must be obedient to your parents and teachers.
4. **Achilles' heel:** [The weak point in a person's character]
His Achilles' heel was his pride.
5. **Add fuel to the fire:** [To make a difficult situation worse]
His words to the workers added fuel to the fire and they went on strike.
6. **Add insult to injury:** [To hurt someone's feelings even more]
She insulted him at first, adding insult to injury.
7. **Aladdin's lamp:** [Anything that helps you realize your desire quickly]
Goodwill is almost as effective as Aladdin's lamp.
8. **All and sundry:** [Everybody]

All and sundry went to see the village fair.

9. **All at once:** [Suddenly]

All at once, a lion sprang out of the bushes.

10. **All day long:** [The whole day]

She has been sitting and waiting for the mail all day long.

11. **All in all:** [With everything included]

We have not done badly, all in all.

12. **An eye wash:** [Trickery; deception]

Elections in Pakistan are just an eye wash.

13. **An oily tongue:** [Flattering speech]

Beware of the oily tongue of your new neighbor.

14. **An open secret:** [A secret known to everybody]

His marriage with Alina is an open secret.

15. **Apple of discord:** [An object of dispute or enmity]

This property is an apple of discord between two brothers.

16. **Apple of someone's eye:** [Someone's favorite person]

She is the apple of her father's eye.

17. **Apple pie order:** [Perfectly neat and methodical arrangement]

The books were lying on the table in apple pie order.

18. **At cross purposes:** [Having opposite views]

Anam is at cross purposes with her mother on the issue of her marriage.

19. **At home in:** [Feeling comfortable and relaxed]

He is quite at home in new company.

20. **At sixes and sevens:** [In disorder]

The dishes were lying on the table at sixes and sevens.

21. **Bad blood:** [Ill feelings]

There is bad blood between the two friends.

22. **Bag and baggage:** [With one's luggage]

I left Islamabad bag and baggage.

23. **Bag of bones:** [An extremely thin person]

Ali is a bag of bones.

24. **Bear the brunt of:** [To bear the major loss]

You have to bear the brunt of the loss in business.

25. **Beat about the bush:** [To talk irrelevantly]

Do not beat about the bush; come to the point.

26. **Bed of roses:** [Comfortable]

Life is not a bed of roses.

27. **Bed of thorns:** [A difficult situation]

Life is a bed of thorns for a politician.

28. **Beggar description:** [Too extraordinary to describe]

Her beauty beggars description.

29. **Below one's dignity:** [Contrary to one's honor]

It is below my dignity to do injustice.

30. **Below the belt:** [Unfair method]

No one should hit his enemy below the belt.

31. **Better half:** [Wife]

Ahmad is sincere to his better half.

32. **Bird of passage:** [A migratory bird or a transient person]

Do not trust him; he is a bird of passage.

33. **Bird's eye view:** [A view seen from above]

Ahmad took a bird's eye view from the plane.

34. **Birds of a feather:** [Similar people stick together]

Birds of a feather flock together.

35. **Blessing in disguise:** [Something that proves to be fortunate after seeming unfortunate]

The loss of wealth sometimes is a blessing in disguise.

36. **Blind alley:** [A narrow street closed at one end]

The robber was easily caught when he ran into a blind alley.

37. **Blow hot and cold:** [Keep on changing your opinion about something]

He keeps blowing hot and cold about her new job.

38. **Blow your own trumpet:** [Talk proudly about your own achievement and abilities]

I don't like to blow my own trumpet.

39. **Blue-eyed boy:** [A favorite]

Mr. Shahid is the blue-eyed boy of his boss.

40. **Blue stocking:** [A woman having literary taste]

Ayesha is not well-educated, but she is a blue stocking.

41. **Bolt from the blue:** [A sudden calamity]

The news of her son's accident was a bolt from the blue for her.

42. **Bone of contention:** [The root of an argument or conflict]

This house is a bone of contention between two brothers.

43. **Bosom friend:** [A very close friend]

Ali is my bosom friend.

44. **Bread and butter:** [Livelihood]

Teaching is my bread and butter.

45. **Break the ice:** [To make a beginning or start a conversation]

Everyone was silent until Ali broke the ice.

46. **Break the news:** [To tell someone important news]

The doctor had to break the news to Ali about his wife's illness.

47. **Breathe one's last:** [To die]

The old man breathed his last this morning.

48. **Brevity is the soul of wit:** [Being concise is a sign of intelligence]

Everyone knows that brevity is the soul of wit.

49. **Bridle one's tongue:** [To become silent]

He tried to bridle his tongue before the police.

50. **Bring to book:** [To punish or hold accountable]

The servant was brought to book for his fraud.

51. **Bring to light:** [To reveal something]

The mystery of his murder was brought to light.

52. **Broken reed:** [Someone who is unreliable]

Do not trust her because she is a broken reed.

53. **Burn one's boats:** [To make a decision that cannot be reversed]

I cannot take back my resignation as I have burned all my boats.

54. **Burn one's fingers:** [To get into trouble]

You will burn your fingers if you try to help the thief.

55. **Burn the candle at both ends:** [To exhaust oneself by doing too much]

He looks tired; it seems he has been burning the candle at both ends.

56. **Burn the midnight oil:** [To work late into the night]

He burned the midnight oil before the exams and topped the class.

57. **Burning question:** [An urgent or important matter]

Load shedding is a burning question these days.

58. **Bury the hatchet:** [To make peace or end a conflict]

Let's bury the hatchet and be friends again.

59. **Busy bee:** [A very active or hardworking person]

He is a busy bee and will surely succeed in his exams.

60. **By and large:** [Generally speaking]

By and large, children need a lot of care.

61. **By dint of:** [Through effort or means]

I passed the exam by dint of hard work.

62. **By hook or by crook:** [By any means necessary, fair or foul]

He does his work by hook or by crook.

63. **By virtue of:** [On account of]

You may pass the exam by virtue of hard work.

64. **Call into question:** [To express doubt or suspicion]

They called the entire project into question.

65. **Capital punishment:** [The death penalty]

The criminal was sentenced to capital punishment.

66. **Carry the day:** [To win or succeed]

Our team carried the day in the final match.

67. **Casting vote:** [The decisive vote]

The minister's casting vote decided the outcome.

68. **Cat and dog life:** [A life full of quarrels]

The couple is leading a cat and dog life.

69. **Cat's paw:** [A person used as a tool by another]

He is just a cat's paw for his boss.

70. **Catch at a straw:** [To seize a slight chance when in trouble]

A drowning man catches at a straw.

71. **Caught red-handed:** [Caught in the act of doing something wrong]

Ali was caught red-handed stealing from the shop.

72. **Cheek by jowl:** [Very close or intimate]

Ali and Ahmad are cheek by jowl these days.

73. **Chicken-hearted:** [Cowardly]

Only a chicken-hearted person would flatter his boss.

74. **Child's play:** [Something easy to do]

Becoming a doctor is not child's play.

75. **Close-fisted man:** [A miser]

Tahir is a close-fisted man who rarely gives to charity.

76. **Cock and bull story:** [An unbelievable or exaggerated story]

Ali told a cock and bull story about why he was late.

77. **Cold-blooded murder:** [A cruel and deliberate murder]

The killing was a cold-blooded murder.

78. **Come of age:** [To reach adulthood]

The children of our neighborhood have come of age this year.

79. **Come to an end:** [To stop or conclude]

The function came to an end at 9 PM.

80. **Come to light:** [To become known or revealed]

New facts about the case came to light.

81. **Crocodile tears:** [False or insincere tears]

She shed crocodile tears at the news of her rival's misfortune.

82. **Cry in the wilderness:** [an impossible thing]

The cry of peace is a cry in the wilderness.

83. **Cut a sorry figure:** [to make oneself look foolish]

She cut a sorry figure in the presence of her elegant husband.

84. **D-Day:** [a crucial day for an important event]

5th February is a D-Day for the freedom fighters of Kashmir.

85. **Daggers drawn:** [to be in open hostility]

All the political parties are at daggers drawn in Pakistan.

86. **Dark horse:** [an unexpected winner]

Imran Khan proved a dark horse in the election.

87. **Dead letter:** [something no longer in use or effective]

This law has already become a dead letter.

88. **Die in harness:** [to continue working until death]

Quaid-e-Azam died in harness.

89. **Double face:** [insincere or deceitful]

Most of the politicians are double faced.

90. **Drawn game:** [a game with no winner]

The two teams played a drawn game.

91. **Eat a humble pie:** [to admit one's mistake and face humiliation]

At last, the proud Indian army had to eat a humble pie in the 1971 war.

92. **Eat one's words:** [to retract a statement or admit that one's prediction was wrong]

He is going to make you eat your words.

93. **End in smoke:** [to fail or come to nothing]

All his efforts to start a new business ended in smoke.

94. **Every inch:** [completely or fully]

Fahad is every inch a gentleman.

95. **Face the music:** [to confront the consequences of one's actions]

He has been cheating the public; now it's time for him to face the music.

96. **Fair and square:** [honestly and justly]

We must be fair and square in our dealings.

97. **Fair play:** [equitable and just treatment]

Islam directs us to have fair play with our fellows.

98. **Fair weather friend:** [a friend who is only supportive when things are going well]

Do not trust him; he is a fair weather friend.

99. **Fall short of:** [to not meet a standard or expectation]

They fall short of the standard in this book.

100. **Far cry:** [a significant difference or distance]

Karachi is a far cry from Islamabad.

101. **Feather in one's cap:** [an achievement or honor]

The prize he won was quite a feather in his cap.

102. **Few and far between:** [rare or infrequent]

His visits to my house are few and far between.

103. **Find fault with:** [to criticize or point out mistakes]

Do not find fault with your elders.

104. **Fire and water:** [two opposite things]

Truth and falsehood are fire and water to each other.

105. **First and foremost:** [above all else]

Our first and foremost duty is to obey our parents.

106. **Fish in troubled water:** [to take advantage of a chaotic situation]

Our politicians fish in troubled waters when the country is in difficulty.

107. **Fish out of water:** [to feel uncomfortable or out of place]

The mother felt like a fish out of water in the absence of her child.

108. **Flesh and blood:** [human nature or family]

Flesh and blood cannot tolerate this cruel law.

109. **Fly in the ointment:** [a small problem that spoils an otherwise good situation]

The party was going well, but her presence proved to be a fly in the ointment.

110. **Follow suit:** [to imitate or do the same as others]

If one company increases the price of things, the others also follow suit.

111. **Fool's paradise:** [a state of blissful ignorance or false happiness]

He thinks that he can live on love alone, but he is living in a fool's paradise.

112. **For good:** [permanently or forever]

He is leaving the city for good.

113. **For the sake of:** [in order to benefit or help]

We must sacrifice our lives for the sake of Pakistan.

114. **French leave:** [to leave without permission]

The accountant took French leave after working.

115. **Freudian slip:** [an unintentional error that reveals subconscious thoughts]

He spoke by chance that he liked Ayesha, which was a Freudian slip.

116. **Gala day:** [a special or festive day]

23rd March is a gala day for us.

117. **Get rid of:** [to eliminate or remove]

We must get rid of corruption.

118. **Gird up one's loins:** [ready for action]

The professor advised the student to gird up their loins for the upcoming examination.

119. **Give one a wide berth:** [to keep at a distance]

He gave a wide berth to his selfish friend to avoid unnecessary conflicts.

120. **Give up:** [leave something]

Please give up the idea of quitting and keep trying.

121. **Give up the ghost:** [to die]

The old man gave up the ghost after a prolonged illness.

122. **Give vent to:** [to express anger]

Ahmad gave vent to his anger by shouting at Ali.

123. **Go hand in hand:** [to accompany each other]

Rights and duties go hand in hand in a well-functioning society.

124. **Go to dogs:** [to be ruined]

He took to drinking and soon went to dogs.

125. **Good for nothing:** [useless]

His new peon is a good for nothing fellow.

126. **Hair's breadth escape:** [a narrow escape]

We had a hair's breadth escape from the accident.

127. **Hale and hearty:** [especially of old people]

He is still hale and hearty despite being in his nineties.

128. **Hang fire:** [to delay or delayed]

Our plans for the new factory are hanging fire at the moment.

129. **Hand in glove with:** [in intimate terms]

Ali and Akmal are hand in glove with each other.

130. **Hand to mouth:** [to live on with difficulty]

The old couple was living a hand-to-mouth existence.

131. **Hard and fast rule:** [fixed, set rule]

There is no hard and fast rule for writing a story.

132. **Hard nut to crack:** [an uphill task]

Rooting out corruption from society is a hard nut to crack.

133. **Have a fly in one's bonnet:** [to be slightly out of wits]

His strange behavior suggests he might have a fly in his bonnet.

134. **Have an axe to grind:** [to be trying to gain personal profit]

Everyone seems to have an axe to grind in this debate.

135. **Head over heels:** [completely]

Ali is head over heels in love with her.

136.**Heart and soul:** [completely]

He loves her heart and soul.

137.**Hen-pecked husband:** [a husband who obeys his wife]

Akram is considered a hen-pecked husband.

138.**Herculean task:** [very difficult task]

Ending corruption in Pakistan is a Herculean task.

139.**House of cards:** [a plan that is likely to fail]

My plan to reform the society fell apart like a house of cards.

140.**Hue and cry:** [a loud opposition]

The new taxes raised a great hue and cry among the citizens.

141.**In a fix:** [in difficulty]

We are in a fix and don't know how to proceed.

142.**In a nutshell:** [briefly]

Please summarize your story in a nutshell.

143.**In black and white:** [in writing]

Give me your statement in black and white.

144.**In cold blood:** [mercilessly]

The robbers killed the family in cold blood.

145.**In fits and starts:** [not steadily]

Do not study your books in fits and starts.

146.**In keeping with:** [consistent with]

His actions are not in keeping with his words.

147.**In letter and spirit:** [completely]

This security plan is enforced in letter and spirit.

148. **In spite of:** [despite]

In spite of the noise, I continued writing.

149. **In the doldrums:** [in low spirits]

She was in the doldrums after her exam failure.

150. **In the light of:** [considering]

He accepted my request for a fee concession in the light of our discussion.

151. **In the long run** [finally, at last]

The thirsty crow quenched its thirst in the long run.

152. **In the nick of time** [just in time]

I reached the bus stop in the nick of time.

153. **Inns and outs** [the complete detail of the plan]

I know the inns and outs of this plan.

154. **Iron hand** [firm control]

Nadir ruled the company with an iron hand.

155. **Iron will** [strong determination]

Quaid-e-Azam was a man of iron will.

156. **Jack of all trades** [a person who can do any kind of work]

Ali is a jack of all trades but master of none.

157. **Jail bird** [a person who has been in prison several times]

Akhtar is an old jail bird.

158. **Keep abreast of** [to keep informed about something]

I try to keep abreast of foreign events.

159. **Keep an eye on** [to watch carefully]

You should keep an eye on our enemy.

160. **Keep at arm's length** [to avoid]

Try to keep the anti-Pakistan elements at arm's length.

161. **Kick the bucket** [used humorously]

Ali kicked the bucket soon after the marriage as he had a heart attack.

162. **Kith and kin** [blood relations]

He came to see me with all his kith and kin.

163. **Labour of love** [a thankless labour]

My brother is doing a labour of love in his company.

164. **Lame excuse** [unsatisfactory explanation]

Do not make a lame excuse to leave the class.

165. **Laughing stock** [someone who is laughed at]

If you wear this coat, you will be the laughing stock.

166. **Leaps and bounds** [speedily]

Our country is making progress by leaps and bounds.

167. **Learn by rote/heart** [to learn by memory]

Please, do not learn this lesson by rote/heart.

168. **Leave no stone unturned** [make a thorough search]

The police left no stone unturned to find the killer.

169. **Let the cat out of the bag** [to reveal a secret]

The child let the cat out of the bag by saying that the thief was hidden in his house.

170. Lick the dust [to be humiliated]

The Indian army had to lick the dust in the 1965 war against Pakistan.

171. Lion's share [the largest share]

Ahmad got the lion's share from the property of his father.

172. Live wire [a person full of energy]

Our new teacher is a man of action and he is a live wire.

173. Long and short [the basic fact of a situation]

The long and the short of your plan is that you have failed.

174. Look before you leap [take care before acting]

Do not sign the new agreement. You should look before you leap.

175. Look down upon [to hate]

Do not look down upon the poor.

176. Look forward to [to wait eagerly]

I am looking forward to your meeting with me.

177. Maiden speech [the first speech that one makes]

Her maiden speech was successful.

178. Make a mess [to do something badly]

You have made a mess of your life.

179. Make amends for: [to render compensation]

I have come to you to make amends for my misconduct.

180. Man of letters: [literary man]

Dr. Iqbal was a man of letters.

181. **Man of parts:** [a man of superior ability]

Quaid-i-Azam was a man of parts.

182. **Man of spirits:** [brave person]

Rashid Minhas was a man of spirits.

183. **Man of straw:** [of no importance]

Nobody respects him because he is a man of straw.

184. **Narrow escape:** [a close call with danger]

We had a narrow escape in the accident.

185. **Necessary evil:** [an evil that cannot be avoided]

Examinations are a necessary evil.

186. **Neck or nothing:** [to take great risks]

Neck or nothing, I will help him.

187. **Now and then:** [occasionally]

He calls at my house now and then.

188. **Null and void:** [no longer effective]

The contract was declared null and void.

189. **Odds and ends:** [miscellaneous items]

Please try to pick up the odds and ends of this plan.

190. **Off and on:** [irregularly]

By working off and on, he cannot hope to pass.

191. **On account of:** [due to]

She could not come on account of her illness.

192. **On the eve of:** [at the time of]

He delivers a speech on the eve of his arrival.

193. **On the verge of:** [about to]

This bank was on the verge of ruin.

194. **On the whole:** [generally]

On the whole, he is a good boy.

195. **Once and for all:** [finally]

Let us settle this matter once and for all.

196. **Once in a blue moon:** [very rarely]

She visits the school once in a blue moon.

197. **At one's wits' end:** [completely puzzled]

He is at his wits' end at the loss of his documents.

198. **Open secret:** [a secret known to everyone]

His marriage with a film actress is an open secret.

199. **Out and out:** [completely]

He is out and out a bad person.

200. **Over the moon:** [extremely happy]

She was over the moon when she heard she got the job.

201. **Owing to:** [because of]

Owing to illness, she could not come to our home.

202. **Pandora's box:** [a source of many troubles]

The publication of news opened up a Pandora's box in society.

203. **Part and parcel:** [an essential part]

Drinking has become a part and parcel of his life.

204. **Pass away:** [to die]

His father passed away last night.

205. **Pay lip service to:** [to give insincere support]

Most of our officers pay lip service to their jobs.

206. **Pay through the nose:** [to pay a lot]

You will have to pay through the nose for all your misdeeds.

207. **Pocket an insult:** [to endure insult]

He abused me in the presence of my teacher, and I had to pocket the insult.

208. **Point blank:** [directly and clearly]

He refused to help me point blank.

209. **Pros and cons:** [points for or against]

Let us discuss the pros and cons of co-education.

210. **Queer fish:** [a strange person]

Our new teacher is a queer fish.

211. **Rainy day:** [time of difficulty]

Save something for a rainy day.

212. **Random shot:** [a carelessly made answer or shot]

It was a random shot and we should not take it seriously.

213. **Read between the lines:** [to understand the real meaning or intention]

Try to read between the lines of this matter.

214. **Red letter day:** [an auspicious day]

14th August is a red letter day for us.

215. **Rolling stone:** [an unstable person]

A rolling stone gathers no moss.

216.**Rotten apple:** [a bad person in a group]

Our group is peaceful as there is no rotten apple in it.

217.**Round up:** [gather]

The soldiers are going to round up all the criminals.

218.**Royal road:** [an easy way]

There is no royal road to success.

219.**Ruling passion:** [a dominating passion]

Greed has become a ruling passion with most of us.

220.**Safe and sound:** [safe]

The missing girl reached home safe and sound.

221.**Scapegoat:** [a person blamed for others' faults]

All of them were guilty but Ali was made a scapegoat.

222.**Set aside:** [to disregard]

He set aside all objections and listened to me.

223.**Short cut:** [a shorter way]

There is no short cut to passing the exams.

224.**Slip through one's fingers:** [to escape narrowly]

A man fails to seize a good opportunity and the chance slips through his fingers.

225.**Small hours:** [the hours immediately after midnight]

He works into the small hours every night.

226.**Smell a rat:** [to suspect a trick]

I smell a rat in your plan.

227.**Snake in the grass:** [a deceitful person]

Beware of your new friend; he may prove a snake in the grass.

228.**Sour grapes:** [pretending to disdain what one cannot have]

Ali's search for the attractive job proved sour grapes for him.

229.**Spick and span:** [clean and tidy]

The schoolboys look spick and span in their white uniform.

230.**Split hairs:** [to pay too much attention to small details]

There is no need to split hairs about who actually did it.

231.**Square meal:** [a good nourishing meal]

It is difficult for the poor to get a square meal nowadays.

232.**Stick to the point:** [to remain focused on the topic]

Stick to the point if you want to get a good result.

233.**Stone's throw:** [a very short distance]

Nadeem lives a stone's throw away from my house.

234.**Storm in a teacup:** [a great fuss over a trivial matter]

The husband and wife's quarrel is just a storm in a teacup.

235.**Swallow the bait:** [to be caught by tempting promises]

During the election, many people swallowed the bait and elected selfish leaders.

236.**Sworn enemy:** [a determined enemy]

India is our sworn enemy.

237. **Take a fancy to:** [to like]

The artist took a fancy to that beautiful painting.

238. **Take for granted:** [to think inferior of any other's help]

Do not take my teaching for granted; I can stop it.

239. **Take heart:** [gather courage]

Please try to take heart at your loss in business and take the examination again.

240. **Take into account:** [to consider, to give due sympathy]

The judge took into account his poverty and set him free.

241. **Take the bull by the horns:** [to deal with a difficult situation bravely]

If you want to improve the situation, take the bull by the horns.

242. **Take time by the forelock:** [to let slip no opportunity]

Those who do not take time by the forelock repent afterward.

243. **Take to heart:** [to feel discouraged]

He took his failure to heart.

244. **Take to one's heels:** [to run away]

At the sight of the policeman, the thief took to his heels.

245. **Take to task:** [to be punished]

The servant was taken to task for his neglect of duty.

246. **The fourth estate:** [the press]

The fourth estate wields great influence in a democratic country.

247.**The last straw:** [a little addition that makes a situation very miserable]

His father's hard work in his old age proved to be the last straw for his life.

248.**The old Adam:** [the unredeemed part of a man's nature]

Everyone has the old Adam in him.

249.**The rank and file:** [common people]

The rank and file of the country stood up against the Mayor.

250.**Thorn in the flesh:** [a painful thing]

His dishonesty is a thorn in the flesh of his boss.

251.**Through thick and thin:** [in good and bad times]

I stood by him through thick and thin.

252.**Throw cold water upon:** [to discourage]

I asked him to help me, but he threw cold water upon my hopes.

253.**Throw to the dogs:** [to abandon someone to enemies or evil]

He served the evil empire well, but in the end, they threw him to the dogs.

254.**Throw dust in one's eyes:** [to mislead a person]

The shopkeeper gave me salt instead of sugar and threw dust in my eyes.

255. **Thumb nail sketch:** [a short description giving main facts]

He cannot show the thumb nail sketch of my future scheme.

256. **Tide over:** [to overcome]

He will tide over his recent difficulties soon.

257. **Time and tide:** [time waits for no one]

Time and tide wait for none.

258. **To and fro:** [from side to side]

The players are growing to and fro in the field.

259. **To be at a loss:** [to feel puzzled]

She is at a loss to understand his point of view.

260. **To call a spade a spade:** [to speak plainly]

You will be offended if I call a spade a spade.

261. **To get rid of:** [to be free from]

I will be happy when I get rid of my old car.

262. **To look a gift horse in the mouth:** [to examine a gift critically]

We should not look a gift horse in the mouth.

263. **Tooth and nail:** [with full force]

She opposed me tooth and nail on this issue.

264. **Turn over a new leaf:** [to start again with the intention of doing better]

He turned over a new leaf after the death of his wife.

265. **Ups and downs:** [times of good and bad luck]

I have seen many ups and downs in life.

266. **Utopian scheme:** [impracticable scheme]

Confederation of Pakistan and India is a utopian scheme.

267. **Wash dirty linen:** [to discuss family affairs in public]

The wickedness of your son is a private affair; do not wash dirty linen in public.

268. **Wet blanket:** [a person who spoils the fun]

She is a wet blanket and spoils the charm of every function.

269. **White lie:** [an untruthful thing]

What she said was a white lie.

270. **Wild goose chase:** [a useless effort]

To find out the lost girl without the help of the police is a wild goose chase.

271. **Win laurels:** [to win distinction]

He bowled out three players of his rival team and won laurels in the match.

272. **With flying colors:** [with distinction]

Anam passed the CSS examination with flying colors.

273. **With open arms:** [warmly]

She received the host with open arms.

274. **With an iron hand:** [with power and strictness]

The state must crush terrorism with an iron hand.

275. **Work wonders:** [to achieve remarkable results]

This popular party will work wonders in the election.



1.3. COMMUNICATIVE GRAMMAR

Communicative grammar teaches how to use grammar in real conversations. It's not just about learning rules but about using them to communicate clearly.

Example: Instead of only learning past tense rules, students use past tense to tell stories.

i. Contextual Learning

Grammar is taught in real-life contexts. This means learners see how grammar works in everyday situations and texts.

Example: Students learn how to use conditionals like "If I had known, I would have come" through role-plays and dialogues.

ii. Interactive Activities

This approach includes interactive activities like group discussions and role-plays. These activities help learners practice grammar in a fun and engaging way.

Example: Students use reported speech in a role-play to describe what someone else said.

iii. Functional Approach

Grammar is seen as a tool for communication. It shows how different grammatical structures help with various tasks like making requests or giving advice.

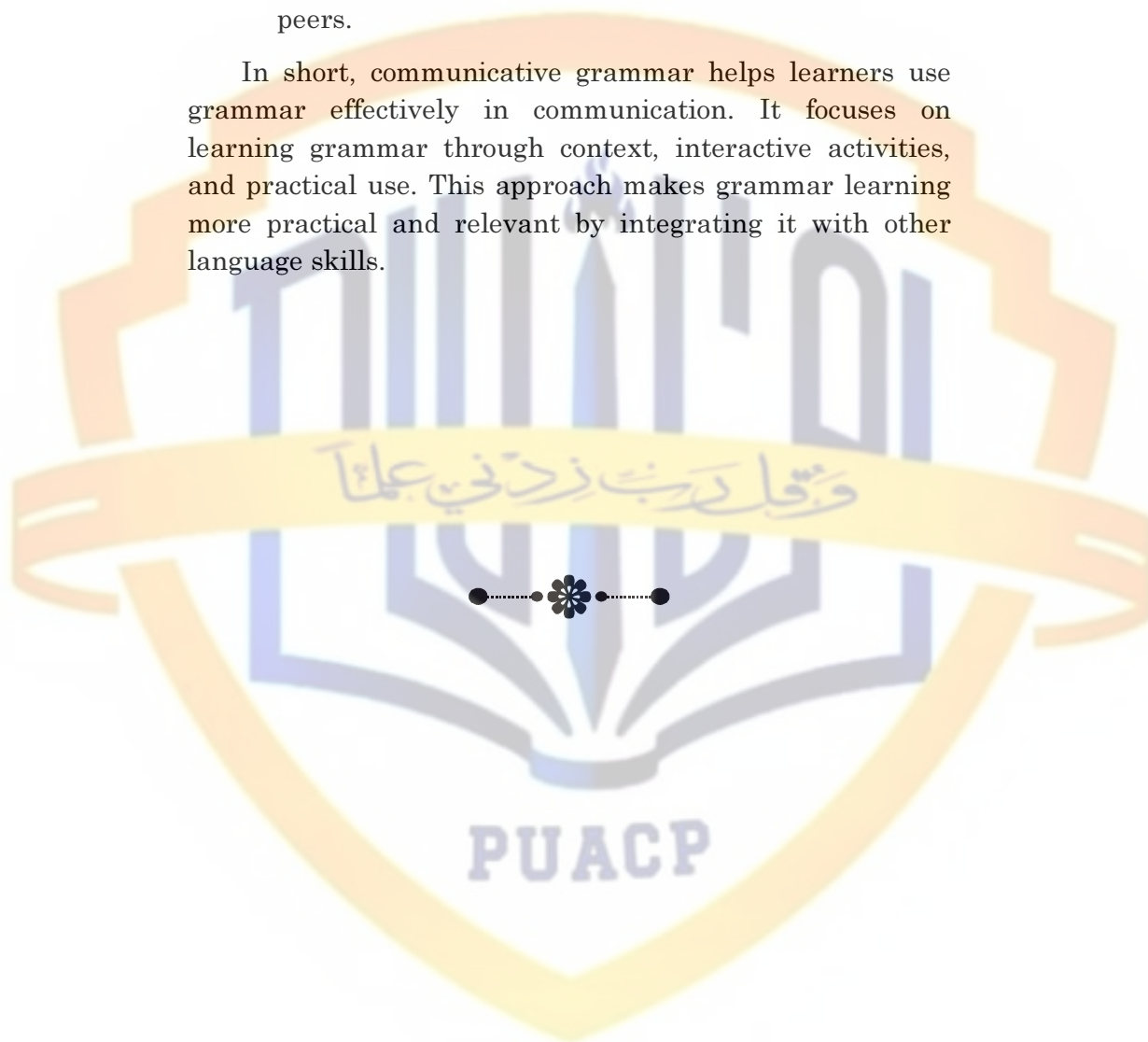
Example: Students learn how to use modal verbs like "can," "should," and "might" to make polite requests or suggestions.

iv. Integration with Other Language Skills

Communicative grammar connects with other language skills like speaking, listening, reading, and writing. This helps learners understand how grammar fits into all parts of language use.

Example: Students write a letter using correct tenses and sentence structures, then discuss it with peers.

In short, communicative grammar helps learners use grammar effectively in communication. It focuses on learning grammar through context, interactive activities, and practical use. This approach makes grammar learning more practical and relevant by integrating it with other language skills.



1.3.1. SUBJECT-VERB-AGREEMENT

Subject-Verb Agreement refers to the grammatical rule that ensures the subject and verb in a sentence agree in number (singular or plural). This agreement is crucial for creating clear and correct sentences.

Here's a detailed explanation:

Basic Rules

1. Singular Subjects with Singular Verbs:

- o A singular subject takes a singular verb.

Example: *The cat runs quickly.*

- o In this sentence, "cat" (singular) is paired with "runs" (singular verb).

2. Plural Subjects with Plural Verbs:

- o A plural subject takes a plural verb.

Example: *The cats run quickly.*

- o Here, "cats" (plural) is matched with "run" (plural verb).

Types of Subjects and Their Agreement

1. Compound Subjects:

- o **Connected by “and”:** Typically, a compound subject joined by "and" is plural and takes a plural verb.

Example: *Tom and Jerry are friends.*

- o **Connected by “or” or “nor”:** When subjects are joined by "or" or "nor," the verb should agree with the closest subject.

Example: *Either the teacher or the students are going on the trip.*

Example: *Neither the students nor the teacher is aware of the changes.*

2. Indefinite Pronouns:

- o Some indefinite pronouns are always singular, such as "each," "either," "neither," and "one."

Example: *Each of the students is responsible for their homework.*

- o Others are always plural, such as "both," "few," "many," and "several."

Example: *Several of the books are missing.*

- o Pronouns like "some," "any," "none," and "all" can be singular or plural depending on what they refer to.

Example (singular): *Some of the cake is left.*

Example (plural): *Some of the cakes are left.*

3. Collective Nouns:

- o Collective nouns (e.g., "team," "family," "committee") can be singular or plural depending on whether the group is being considered as a single unit or as individuals.

Singular: *The team is winning.* (The team is considered as a single unit.)

Plural: *The team are arguing among themselves.* (The team is considered as individuals.)

Special Considerations

1. Titles of Books, Movies, and Other Works:

- o Titles are usually treated as singular.

Example: *"The Great Gatsby is a classic novel."*

2. Amounts of Money, Time, and Distance:

- o These are usually treated as singular when considered as a whole.

Example: *Five dollars is enough to buy a sandwich.*

3. Phrases Between Subject and Verb:

- o Words or phrases between the subject and the verb do not affect the agreement.

Example: *The book on the table is mine.* (The verb "is" agrees with the singular subject "book," not with the plural "tables.")

Common Mistakes

1. **Incorrect:** *The group of students are attending the seminar.*

- o **Correct:** *The group of students is attending the seminar.*

2. **Incorrect:** *Neither the manager nor the employees were informed.*

- o **Correct:** *Neither the manager nor the employees was informed.* (If the closest subject is singular, use a singular verb.)

Understanding and applying subject-verb agreement helps in writing clear and grammatically correct sentences.



1.3.2. VERB TENSES

Verb tenses are a crucial part of English grammar, used to convey the time of an action or state of being. Tenses in English grammar indicate the time when an action, event, or state of being happens in a sentence. There are three main tenses: past, present, and future, each with its own variations.

Regarding time, tenses offer three possibilities:

1. Past Tense
2. Present Tense
3. Future Tense

PRESENT TENSE

1.1. Present Indefinite Tense

(This tense describes habits, facts, and routine activities)

Structure 1: (Active Voice)

- Subject (I, You, We, they, or Plurals) + 1st form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + do not + 1st form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Do + subject + 1st form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) Birds fly in the air. ii) Do you respect your parents? iii) They do not offer their prayer regularly. iv) Do seasons change every year? v) Many young Pakistanis wish to go abroad.

Structure 2: (Active Voice)

- Subject (He, She, it, Singular) + 1st form of verb + s/es + object

- Negative: Subject + does not + 1st form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Does + subject + 1st form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) The sun rises in the east and sets in the west. ii) Does she repent over her sins? iii) Does the innocent child weep for milk? iv) He does not perform his duty honestly. v) The grandmother tells an interesting story to the children.

Present Indefinite Tense (Passive Voice) Structure:

- Object + is/am/are + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Negative: Object + is/am/are + not + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Interrogative: Is/am/are + object + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)

Examples: i) Gifts are distributed among children. ii) Are naughty children punished? iii) Wet clothes are dried. iv) Are the plants watered daily? v) Physical punishment is not given to children in schools nowadays.

1.2. PRESENT CONTINUOUS TENSE

(This tense describes actions that are happening at the moment of speaking)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + is/am/are + ing form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + is/am/are + not + ing form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Is/am/are + subject + ing form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) The farmer is ploughing in the field. ii) Are you taking part in politics? iii) Fire is burning everything to

ashes. iv) We are working day and night for a better future.
v) Flood is destroying the crops.

Present Continuous Tense (Passive Voice) Structure:

- Object + is/am/are + being + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Negative: Object + is/am/are + not + being + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Interrogative: Is/am/are + object + being + 3rd form of verb + subject + ? (if given)

Examples: i) All the rooms are being cleaned. ii) Are the poor being looked down upon? iii) Idols are not being worshipped. iv) New plans are being made for the betterment of people. v) Are things being sold at a high rate in the market?

1.3. PRESENT PERFECT TENSE

Present Perfect Tense (This tense describes actions that are completed at the time of speaking)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + has/have + 3rd form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + has/have + not + 3rd form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Has/have + subject + 3rd form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) My friend has committed suicide. ii) Have you saved anything for rainy days? iii) The court has not released him on bail. iv) How have you learnt all these things? v) Has he achieved his aim?

Present Perfect Tense (Passive Voice) Structure:

- Object + has/have + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Negative: Object + has/have + not + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Interrogative: Has/have + object + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given) + ?

Examples: i) All the old houses have been demolished. ii) Has the stolen child been searched everywhere? iii) Not all the students have been fined. iv) Books have been kept in the cupboard. v) Old values have been forgotten.

1.4. PRESENT PERFECT CONTINUOUS TENSE

(This tense describes actions that began in the past and are continuing at the time of speaking)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + has/have + been + ing form of verb + object + since / for (if given)
- Negative: Subject + has/have + not + been + ing form of verb + object + since/for (if given)
- Interrogative: Has/have + subject + been + ing form of verb + object + since/for + ? (if given)

Examples: i) He has been studying the book for many hours. ii) Omar has not been taking interest in business for many months. iii) We have been waiting for guests since morning. iv) He has been teaching in this college since 1980. v) Students have been wasting their precious time for many days

PAST TENSE

1.5. PAST INDEFINITE TENSE

(This tense describes actions that happened in the past)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + 2nd form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + did not + 1st form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Did + subject + 1st form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) It rained heavily yesterday. ii) Did you forgive your enemy? iii) Politicians did not serve the nation. iv) Did you take part in the examination last year? v) Why did he lose this golden chance?

Past Indefinite Tense (Passive Voice) Structure:

- Object + was/were + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Negative: Object + was/were + not + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Interrogative: Was/were + object + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)

Examples: i) The culprit was hanged. ii) The English book was changed for Class 11 this year. iii) Was the guest of honor given extraordinary respect? iv) Petals were spread in the way of guests. v) His birthday was celebrated with pomp and show.

1.6. PAST CONTINUOUS TENSE

(This tense describes actions that were ongoing in the past)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + was/were + ing form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + was/were + not + ing form of verb + object

- Interrogative: Was/were + subject + ing form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) He was listening to my point of view attentively. ii) Were the children collecting leaves from the garden? iii) People were not raising slogans against the government. iv) People were living in caves in the past. v) Was he giving greater importance to his friend?

Past Continuous Tense (Passive Voice) Structure:

- Object + was/were + being + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Negative: Object + was/were + not + being + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Interrogative: Was/were + object + being + 3rd form of verb + subject + ? (if given)

Examples: i) The children were being educated. ii) Were the workers being egged on for a strike? iii) Facilities were not being given to the masses. iv) Was he being continuously teased in the class? v) The house was being decorated for the wedding.

1.7. PAST PERFECT TENSE

(This tense describes an action that was completed at some point in the past)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + had + 3rd form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + had + not + 3rd form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Had + subject + 3rd form of verb + object + ?

Note: In cases involving two actions, the action that occurred earlier is described in Past Perfect, while the action that occurred later is described in Past Indefinite.

Examples: i) The husband had divorced his wife. ii) Had the peon rung the bell? iii) The passengers had reached their destination before the sun rose. iv) Had you reached home before the rain started? v) I had changed my lifestyle.

Past Perfect Tense (Passive Voice) Structure:

- Object + had + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Negative: Object + had + not + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Interrogative: Had + object + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given) + ?

Examples: i) The roads had been repaired. ii) Had the women been given the right to vote? iii) Homeless people had not been provided homes. iv) Government plans had been criticized. v) Guests had not been welcomed warmly.

1.8. PAST PERFECT CONTINUOUS TENSE

(This tense describes actions that began in the past and continued for a period of time)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + had + been + ing form of verb + object + since / for (if given)
- Negative: Subject + had + not + been + ing form of verb + object + since/for (if given)
- Interrogative: Had + subject + been + ing form of verb + object + since/for + ? (if given)

Examples: i) She had been decorating flowers since morning. ii) Had it been raining heavily for three hours? iii) He had been selling newspapers for one month. iv) Had he been acting upon your advice? v) She had been serving the country.

FUTURE TENSE

1.9. FUTURE INDEFINITE TENSE

(This tense describes actions that are going to happen in the future)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + shall/will + 1st form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + shall/will + not + 1st form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Shall/will + subject + 1st form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) Children will fly kites on the roof in the evening. ii) Shall we spend summer vacation in Murree? iii) Omar will make fun of his friends. iv) Pakistan will make progress by leaps and bounds. v) Will the new flowers bloom in Spring?

Future Indefinite Tense (Passive Voice) Structure:

- Object + shall/will + be + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Negative: Object + shall/will + not + be + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Interrogative: Shall/will + object + be + 3rd form of verb + subject + ?

Examples: i) Corrupt officers will be punished. ii) Shall we be promoted to the next grade? iii) Flowers will be

decorated in the vase. iv) Will my application be accepted?
v) You will be told nothing.

1.10. FUTURE CONTINUOUS TENSE

(This tense describes an action that will be ongoing in the future)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + shall/will + be + ing form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + shall/will + not + be + ing form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Shall/will + subject + be + ing form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) Students will be taking an examination. ii) Will the doctor be examining the patient? iii) The driver will not be driving the bus carefully. iv) Children will be creating a hue and cry in the class.

Note: The passive voice of Future Continuous is not used.

1.11. FUTURE PERFECT TENSE

(This tense describes actions that will be completed in the future)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + shall/will + have + 3rd form of verb + object
- Negative: Subject + shall/will + not + have + 3rd form of verb + object
- Interrogative: Shall/will + subject + have + 3rd form of verb + object + ?

Examples: i) He will have achieved his aim. ii) Will the children have plucked flowers from the garden? iii) The sun

will not have set. iv) He will have accepted your proposal. v) Will you have recognized the spy?

Future Perfect Tense (Passive Voice) Structure:

- Object + shall/will + have + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Negative: Object + shall/will + not + have + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given)
- Interrogative: Shall/will + object + have + been + 3rd form of verb + subject (if given) + ?

Examples: i) The deadly wolf will have been killed. ii) Will all the letters have been burnt? iii) The society will have been reformed. iv) Everything will have been settled.

1.12. FUTURE PERFECT CONTINUOUS TENSE

(This tense describes actions that will be ongoing in the future for a period of time)

Structure: (Active Voice)

- Subject + shall/will + have + been + ing form of verb + object + since / for (if given)
- Negative: Subject + shall/will + not + have + been + ing form of verb + object + since/for (if given)
- Interrogative: Shall/will + subject + have + been + ing form of verb + object + since/for + ? (if given)

Examples: i) He will have been waiting for his friends for many hours. ii) Girls will have been singing wedding songs till late night. iii) He will have been smoking. iv) Will he have been serving his old parents?



1.3.3. FRAGMENTS

In grammar, a **fragment** is an incomplete sentence that fails to express a complete thought. Fragments lack either a subject, a predicate, or both, making them grammatically incorrect as standalone sentences. They often result from broken-off clauses or phrases that are not properly connected to the main sentence. Here's a detailed look at sentence fragments:

Types of Sentence Fragments

1. Dependent Clauses as Fragments:

Definition: A dependent clause (or subordinate clause) cannot stand alone as a complete sentence because it does not express a complete thought and relies on an independent clause.

Example: *Although he was tired.*

Correction: *Although he was tired, he decided to continue working.*

2. Phrase Fragments:

Definition: A phrase is a group of words that acts as a single unit but does not have both a subject and a verb.

Example: *Under the old oak tree.*

Correction: *Under the old oak tree, we had a picnic.*

3. Missing Subject or Predicate Fragments:

Definition: Fragments can lack a subject (the who or what performing the action) or a predicate (the action or state of being).

Example (missing subject): *Went to the store.*

Correction: *She went to the store.*

Example (missing predicate): *The dog with the brown fur.*

Correction: *The dog with the brown fur is sleeping.*

4. Incorrectly Connected Fragments:

Definition: Fragments can occur when clauses or phrases are not properly connected to the main clause, often due to a comma splice or incomplete coordination.

Example: *Because it was raining.*

Correction: *Because it was raining, the event was postponed.*

How to Fix Sentence Fragments

1. Add the Missing Part:

Include the necessary subject or predicate to complete the thought.

Example: *After the movie ended.* → *After the movie ended, we went for dinner.*

2. Combine with a Main Clause:

Attach the fragment to a complete sentence to create a grammatically correct structure.

Example: *Running late for the meeting.* → *We were running late for the meeting, so we took a taxi.*

3. Eliminate the Fragment:

Sometimes, removing the fragment or rephrasing the sentence helps to avoid incomplete thoughts.

Example: *During the presentation. The lights went out.* → *During the presentation, the lights went out.*

4. Use Proper Punctuation:

Ensure proper punctuation and connection between clauses to avoid fragments.

Example: *If you need any help. Please let me know.*
→ *If you need any help, please let me know.*

Identifying Fragments

To identify fragments, look for:

Missing Elements: Check if the sentence lacks a subject or predicate.

Incompleteness: Ensure the sentence expresses a complete idea.

Dependence: Verify if the sentence relies on another clause to make sense.

Avoiding fragments ensures clear, coherent writing that effectively communicates complete ideas.



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1.3.4. RUN-ONS

Run-ons in grammar refer to incorrect sentence structures where two or more independent clauses are joined without proper punctuation or conjunctions. This leads to sentences that are grammatically incorrect and can be confusing to readers. Run-ons occur in two main forms: fused sentences and comma splices. Here's a detailed description with examples:

1. Fused Sentences

A fused sentence occurs when two independent clauses are joined together with no punctuation or coordinating conjunction.

Example: *I love to travel I have been to many countries.*

Correction:

- **Using a Period:** *I love to travel. I have been to many countries.*
- **Using a Semicolon:** *I love to travel; I have been to many countries.*
- **Using a Comma with a Coordinating Conjunction:** *I love to travel, and I have been to many countries.*

Explanation: In the fused sentence, both parts are independent clauses that could stand alone as separate sentences. Proper punctuation or conjunction is needed to clarify the relationship between the clauses.

2. Comma Splices

A comma splice occurs when two independent clauses are joined by just a comma, which is insufficient to separate complete thoughts.

Example: *She wanted to go to the concert, she couldn't get tickets.*

Correction:

- **Using a Period:** *She wanted to go to the concert. She couldn't get tickets.*
- **Using a Semicolon:** *She wanted to go to the concert; she couldn't get tickets.*
- **Using a Comma with a Coordinating Conjunction:** *She wanted to go to the concert, but she couldn't get tickets.*

Explanation: A comma alone is not strong enough to connect two independent clauses. A semicolon, period, or comma with a coordinating conjunction provides the necessary separation.

How to Fix Run-Ons

1. Use a Period:

- o This separates the independent clauses into distinct sentences, making each clause clear and complete.

Example: *He studied hard for the test. He passed with flying colors.*

2. Use a Semicolon:

- o A semicolon connects closely related independent clauses and indicates a stronger link between them than a period.

Example: *She enjoys hiking; her brother prefers cycling.*

3. Use a Comma with a Coordinating Conjunction:

- o Coordinating conjunctions (for, and, nor, but, or, yet, so) can link independent clauses with a comma.

Example: *I wanted to stay home, but I had to attend the meeting.*

4. Use a Subordinating Conjunction:

- o Turn one of the independent clauses into a subordinate clause with conjunctions like although, because, since, etc.

Example: *She was tired because she had stayed up late.*

5. Use a Transitional Phrase:

- o Insert a transitional phrase or conjunctive adverb with a semicolon and a comma to link independent clauses.

Example: *He wanted to go to the beach; however, it started raining.*

Identifying Run-Ons

- **Check for Independent Clauses:** Determine if each part of the sentence has a subject and a predicate and could stand alone as a complete sentence.
- **Look for Incorrect Punctuation:** Notice if independent clauses are joined with only a comma or no punctuation at all.

- **Assess Clarity:** If the sentence feels confusing or poorly structured, it might be a run-on.

Examples and Corrections

1. **Run-On:** *The restaurant was closed we had to find another place to eat.*
 - o **Correction:** *The restaurant was closed, so we had to find another place to eat. or The restaurant was closed; we had to find another place to eat.*
2. **Run-On:** *I have a dentist appointment tomorrow I need to remember to bring my insurance card.*
 - o **Correction:** *I have a dentist appointment tomorrow. I need to remember to bring my insurance card. or I have a dentist appointment tomorrow; I need to remember to bring my insurance card.*
3. **Run-On:** *She enjoys painting, she is also learning to play the guitar.*
 - o **Correction:** *She enjoys painting, and she is also learning to play the guitar. or She enjoys painting; she is also learning to play the guitar.*

Properly addressing run-ons enhances the clarity and readability of writing by ensuring that sentences are grammatically correct and easy to understand.



1.3.5. MODIFIERS

Modifiers are words, phrases, or clauses that provide additional information about other elements in a sentence. Their primary function is to describe, limit, or qualify the meaning of a noun, verb, or other parts of speech, thereby adding detail and clarity to the sentence. Modifiers can be adjectives, adverbs, or longer descriptive phrases and clauses.

Types of Modifiers

1. Adjective Modifiers:

Adjectives modify nouns or pronouns by describing or limiting them.

Example: *The **blue** sky.* (Here, "blue" is an adjective modifying "sky.")

Example: *She wore a **beautiful** dress.* (Here, "beautiful" is an adjective modifying "dress.")

2. Adverb Modifiers:

Adverbs modify verbs, adjectives, or other adverbs by providing information about how, when, where, or to what extent.

Example: *She runs **quickly**.* (Here, "quickly" is an adverb modifying "runs.")

Example: *He is **very** talented.* (Here, "very" is an adverb modifying the adjective "talented.")

3. Prepositional Phrases:

A prepositional phrase includes a preposition and its object, and it modifies nouns or verbs.

Example: *The book **on the table** is mine.* (Here, "on the table" modifies "book.")

Example: *She sang **with great enthusiasm**.* (Here, "with great enthusiasm" modifies "sang.")

4. Participial Phrases:

A participial phrase includes a participle (verb form used as an adjective) and its object or complement, modifying nouns.

Example: *The dog, **barking loudly**, chased the cat.* (Here, "barking loudly" modifies "dog.")

Example: ***Exhausted from the run**, she sat down.* (Here, "Exhausted from the run" modifies "she.")

5. Infinitive Phrases:

An infinitive phrase begins with an infinitive verb (to + base form of the verb) and functions as a noun, adjective, or adverb.

Example: *She needs **to finish her homework**.* (Here, "to finish her homework" acts as the object of "needs.")

Example: *He went to the store **to buy groceries**.* (Here, "to buy groceries" modifies "went.")

6. Relative Clauses:

A relative clause begins with a relative pronoun (who, which, that) and provides additional information about a noun.

Example: *The car **that I bought** is very fast.* (Here, "that I bought" modifies "car.")

Example: *She has a friend **who lives in Paris**.* (Here, "who lives in Paris" modifies "friend.")

Common Issues with Modifiers

1. Misplaced Modifiers:

A misplaced modifier is placed too far from the word it modifies, causing confusion or ambiguity.

Example: *She nearly drove her kids to school every day.* (It sounds like she almost did, rather than did it regularly.)

Correction: *She drove her kids to school nearly every day.*

2. Dangling Modifiers:

Definition: A dangling modifier has no clear or logical subject to modify, making the sentence unclear.

Example: *Walking to the store, the rain started to fall.* (It sounds like "the rain" was walking.)

Correction: *Walking to the store, I noticed that the rain started to fall.*

3. Squinting Modifiers:

Definition: A squinting modifier can modify words both before and after it, leading to ambiguity.

Example: *She almost ran out of gas driving to the beach.* (It is unclear whether "almost" modifies "ran out of gas" or "driving to the beach.")

Correction: *Driving to the beach, she almost ran out of gas.* or *She almost ran out of gas while driving to the beach.*

Functions of Modifiers

- **To Add Description:** Provide more detail about a noun or pronoun.

Example: *The **old** man wore a **tattered** coat.*

- **To Specify or Limit Meaning:** Narrow down the meaning of a noun or verb.

Example: *Only **the most dedicated** students will succeed.*

- **To Explain How, When, or Where Something Happens:** Modify verbs or adjectives by providing additional context.

Example: *She sings **beautifully**. or The event will happen **tomorrow**.*

Modifiers enhance sentences by adding detail and precision, making writing more descriptive and meaningful. Proper placement and use of modifiers are essential for clear and effective communication.



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1.3.6. ARTICLES

Articles are a subclass of **determiners**, which ‘determine’ or specify the nouns that follow. The words used as articles in English are **a/an** and **the**. **A** or **an** is called the **indefinite article**. **The** is called the **definite article**.

CLASSIFICATION OF ARTICLES

1. **Indefinite Articles**
2. **Definite Articles**

1. Indefinite Article - A/An

The **indefinite article** refers to a noun in a *general* way without making it *definite* or *particular*. In the sentence *Give me a knife*, ‘a knife’ **means** ‘any knife’, not a particular knife.

- ☞ **A** or **an** meaning ‘one’ is used before a singular countable noun. If the noun is made plural, **some** is used.

There is a table in the room.

There are some tables in the room.

I have a pen on the desk.

I have some pens on the desk.

- ☞ Notice that **some** can be used before plural countable nouns and uncountable nouns.

I bought some apples.

I bought some fruit.

I bought some vegetables.

I bought some rice.

She did some assignments last night.

She did an assignment last night.

She did some homework last night.

- ☞ **A** or **an** occurs before a singular countable noun used for the first time. When the noun is mentioned again, i.e. when it is made definite, the definite article **the** is used.

*A boy came to me this morning. **The** boy had **an** application form with him. He asked me to fill in **the** form.*

- ☞ **Note:** A singular countable noun cannot be used in a sentence without an article or one of the other determiners,

a book an apple the book

this apple my camera every book

either book neither side

- ☞ A singular countable noun used with **a/an** meaning 'any' or 'every' can represent a group or class.

An elephant is a large animal.

A computer is a useful machine.

A penguin is a sea bird.

When the singular noun is put into the plural, the indefinite article disappears, i.e. it is **zero**.

Elephants are large animals.

Computers are useful machines.

Penguins are sea birds.

Notice that **the** can be used in the same way.

The elephant is a large animal.

Elephants are large animals.

The computer is a useful machine.

Computers are useful machines.

The penguin is a seabird.

Penguins are seabirds.

☞ **A or an** is used to classify people or things.

*She's **a** teacher.*

*He's **an** atheist.*

*This is **a** handsaw.*

☞ **A or an** meaning 'one' is used before some numbers.

A thousand people participated in the rally.

*I had to wait **an** hour.*

☞ **A or an** is used before the name of a person to show that the speaker does not know the person.

A Mrs Baig wants to see you.

☞ **A or an** before a name may mean 'having the same qualities as that person'.

*He's **a** Shy lock.*

☞ The form **a** is used before a consonant sound.

a book **a** house **a** woman **a** year

a union **a** U turn **a** Utopia **a** European

a eucalyptus **a** hotel **a** holiday **a** unit

a university **a** UN publication **a** one way street

☞ The form **an** is used before a vowel sound.

an apple an elephant an Indian an office
an umbrella an hour an heir an honour
an MP an MLA an SOS
an MA/MSc/ MCom/MCA an EU publication

➤ **Note:** The use of 'a' or 'an' depends on the sound of the letter or letters at the beginning of the next word, not the spelling.

The words *woman* and *one* begin with the consonant sound /w/. Words like *unit*, *university*, *union*, *U turn*, *European*, *eucalyptus* and *Utopia* take a because the letter *u* and the combination of letters /e/ have the consonant sound /j/, the sound of the letter *y* in *yes*.

In words like *hour*, *heir*, *honour*, etc *h* is silent; they begin with a vowel sound and take an. Abbreviations like *MP*, *MLA*, *MA*, *MSc*, *MCom*, *MCA* and *SOS* take an because they begin with the vowel sound *lei*, the sound of the letter *e* in *end*. *EU* begins with the vowel sound /i:/, so an is used before it.

Some people drop the *h* in words like *hotel*, *historian*, *historical*, *habitual* and *heretic* and use an before them, but nowadays a is widely used.

2. Definite Article—The

The **definite article** makes the noun *definite* or *particular*. In the sentence *Give me the knife I bought yesterday*, the speaker means a *particular* knife, the knife he bought yesterday.

☞ **The** may be used before any noun, singular or plural, countable or uncountable.

the computer the computers the facts

the information the chairs the furniture

- ☞ When an uncountable noun is used for a general statement, **the** cannot be used before **it**.

She loves music/poetry.

Water is precious.

Milk is good for children.

Gold is a valuable metal.

- ☞ When an uncountable noun is followed by a phrase or clause describing it, we can use **the** before it.

*She loves **the** poetry of Shelley.*

***The** water in this pond is dirty.*

***The** milk we bought yesterday was bad.*

*How many of you like **the** music of Beethoven?*

- ☞ Perhaps the most important function of **the** is to make a noun definite or particular.

*This is **the** bag I bought yesterday.*

*I saw **a** man and **a** woman waiting there. **The** man was tall and thin, but **the** woman was short and fat.*

- ☞ **The** before plural nouns makes them definite or particular.

*I saw **some** cows. **The** cows were eating grass.*

- ☞ But **the** cannot be used in a general statement.

*Cows (NOT **The** cows) eat grass.*

*Monkeys (NOT **The** monkeys) live in hot countries.*

- ☞ We use **the** when someone or something is known to both the speaker and the hearer.

She's in the kitchen/the garden.

When did he go to the park/the post office?

Please close the door.

Other familiar objects and people with the:

the sun the stars the moon

the sky the world the President

the Prime Minister

☞ Names of inventions and musical instruments take **the**.

the telephone the computer

the radio the piano

the guitar the violin

Note: 'The' is not used before 'television' except when it means 'a television set.'

She watches television every evening.

*She turned off **the** television (television set) when the phone rang.*

☞ Adjectives like *young, elderly, rich, poor, wicked, disabled, wounded, etc* become nouns **when the is used before them**.

These nouns are usually plural.

*Certain books and films have a special appeal to **the** young.*

Are the rich happier than the poor?

All the wounded were admitted to a local hospital.

☞ **The** + comparative can show that two things increase/

decrease in the same proportion.

***The** more he earns, **the** more he spends.*

***The** more I study, **the** less I remember.*

- ☞ The is commonly used before superlatives and ordinal numbers.

*It was **the** most interesting item.*

*He was **the** best actor.*

*Nargis was born on **the** twenty first of May.*

- ☞ The following categories of nouns usually take **the**.

- (a) plural place names:

***the** United States of America (the USA)*

***the** Netherlands*

- (b) some other names:

***the** Pentagon **the** Vatican*

***the** Far East **the** Middle East*

- (c) names of lakes, rivers, canals, seas, groups of islands, mountain ranges and deserts:

***the** Ravi (River) **the** Atlantic (Ocean)*

***the** Mediterranean (Sea) **the** West Indies*

***the** Alps **the** Himalayas (but Everest or Mount Everest)*

***the** Western Ghats the Sahara (Desert)*

- (d) names of ships and trains:

***the** Titanic **the** Island Express*

- (e) names of newspapers and sacred books:

The Muslims *The New Pakistan Express*
the Holy Quran *the Bible*
the Ramayana *the Mahabharata*

- (f) names of theatres, restaurants, public institutions, associations, peoples and families:

the Globe (Theatre) *the Ambassador Hotel*
the Parliament *the British Museum*
the European Union *the English*
the Jinnah

A/An, One/Ones

- ☞ Note the use of **one/ones** in the following sentences.
One is singular; **ones** is plural.

I need a knife. Have you got one? (one = a knife)

I need an atlas. Have you got one? (one = an atlas)

These apples are fresh. Would you like one? (one = an apple)

'Is there a bookstore near here?' Yes, there's one near the post office.'

'I need some magazines.' *'Which ones?'*
 (= magazines)

'Which dictionary is yours?' 'The one on the table.'

'Which books are yours?' 'The ones on the table.'

Zero Article

- ☞ **Articles** are not usually used before

- (a) proper names:

Karachi, Nargis, Meera, Akbar

- (b) uncountable nouns used in general statements:

***Iron** is a useful metal.*

***Milk** is good for you.*

- (c) plural nouns used in general statements:

***Bananas** are good for you.*

***Books** give us knowledge.*

- (d) the nouns *chapel, church, college, court, jail, hospital, market, school, university*, etc denoting the primary purpose of the building or place:

They go to college/church/school by bus.

She's at university. (American English: *at **the** university*)

He's in hospital. (American English: *in **the** hospital*)

They were sent to prison.

Notice that **the** before these nouns may denote the building or place.

*I went to **the** college to see the principal.*

*I went to **the** church to see the new vicar.*

- (e) nouns like *bed, home, sea, table, town* and *work*:

arrive/come/go/leave home

go to/get out of /stay in bed

(But: *make **the** bed sit on **the** bed lie down on **the** bed*)

- (f) means of transport

by car

by bus

by boat by bicycle

by bike by plane by ship by taxi

by train by tube

(But: *in the car in somebody's car*

in a taxi on my bicycle on my bike on the boat

on the bus on the plane on the train on the ship)

(g) names of meals taken regularly:

Breakfast will be ready by 7.30.

(But names of particular meals take articles:

*They gave **a** dinner in his honour.*

***The** dinner was quite enjoyable.)*

(h) names of sports and games:

They play cricket/football/tennis every Saturday

(i) names of illnesses:

He's got diabetes.

But: *flu, measles, mumps and plague* may take **the**.

(the) flu (the) mumps (the) plague

Note a few other phrases with zero article.

by letter by post by mail

by radio by phone

(But: *over the phone on the radio*)

in town go to town leave town

out of town go to work leave work

by day by night at dawn

at daybreak at sunrise at sunset

at noon at night on foot

set foot bring word send word

leave word at hand in hand by hand

on hand lose heart in jest on

demand

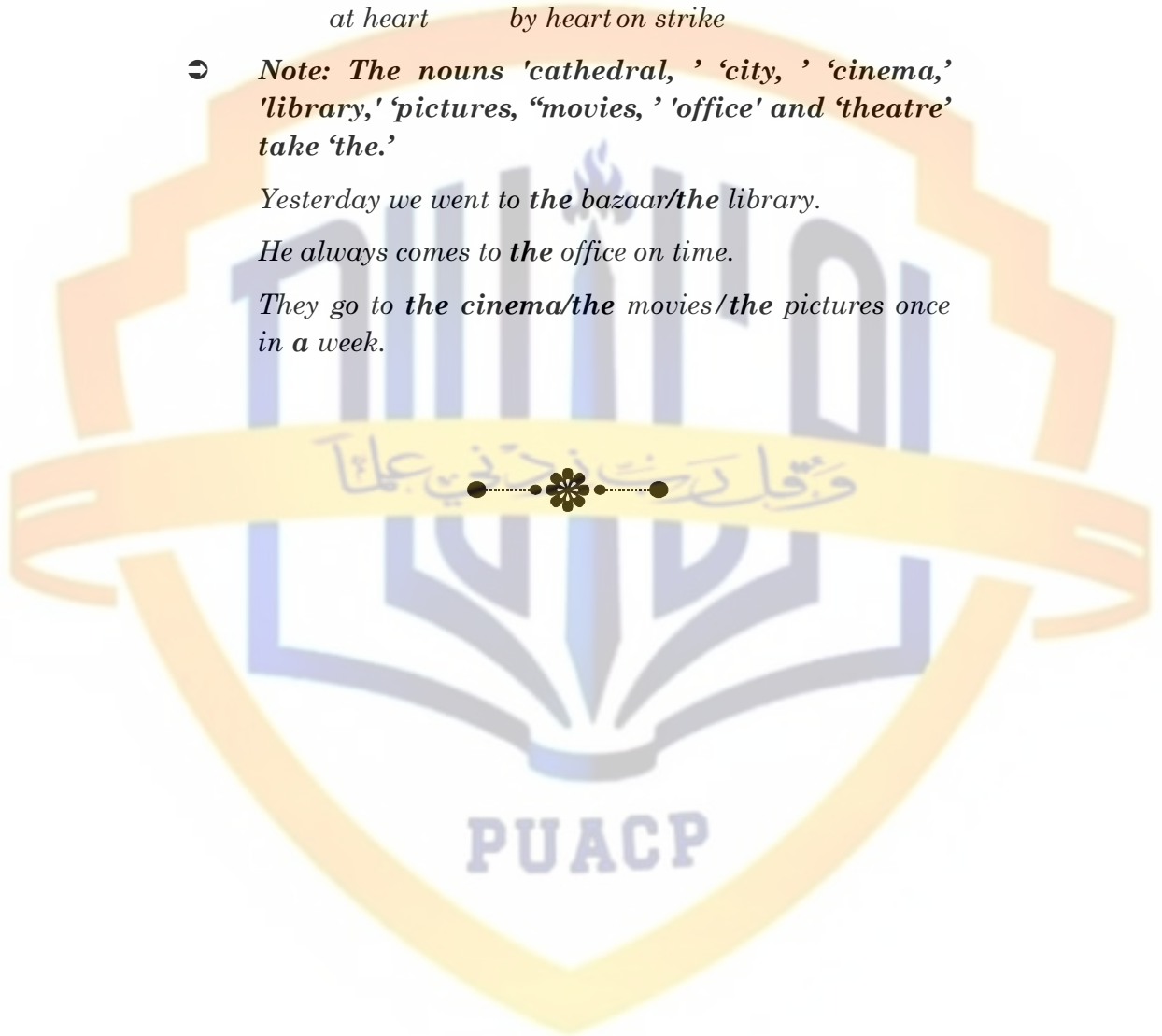
at heart by heart on strike

➞ **Note: The nouns 'cathedral, ' 'city, ' 'cinema,' 'library,' 'pictures, "movies, ' 'office' and 'theatre' take 'the.'**

Yesterday we went to **the** bazaar/**the** library.

He always comes to **the** office on time.

They go to **the** cinema/**the** movies/**the** pictures once in **a** week.



1.3.7. WORD CLASSES

Word classes, also known as parts of speech, categorize words based on their function and role in a sentence. Each class has distinct characteristics and uses.

1. Nouns: Words that name people, places, things, or ideas.

Example: *dog, city, happiness*

2. Pronouns: Words that replace nouns to avoid repetition.

Example: *he, she, it*

3. Verbs: Words that describe actions, occurrences, or states of being.

Example: *run, is, feel*

4. Adjectives: Words that describe or modify nouns and pronouns.

Example: *blue, tall, happy*

5. Adverbs: Words that modify verbs, adjectives, or other adverbs, often indicating how, when, where, or to what extent.

Example: *quickly, very, here*

6. Prepositions: Words that show relationships between nouns (or pronouns) and other words in a sentence.

Example: *in, on, under*

7. Conjunctions: Words that link words, phrases, or clauses together.

Example: *and, but, because*

8. Interjections: Words or phrases used to express strong emotions or sudden exclamations.

Example: *Wow! Ouch! Hey!*

NOUNS

A noun is a word that names a person, place, thing, or idea. It is something you can see, feel, or think about.

Examples:

- **Seen:** van, boy, mango
- **Felt:** sorrow, happiness, pain
- **Thought:** psychology, life, fortune

A noun names any person, place, or thing. For example:

- **Person:** man, woman, teacher, Ali, Ahmad
- **Place:** home, office, town, countryside, Lahore
- **Thing:** table, car, money, music, love, dog, monkey

Examples in sentences:

1. I saw a van.
2. Sorrow brings pain.
3. Life is a bed of roses.
4. A man must be regular.
5. I work in a town.
6. Ali bought a car.

Types of Nouns

1. **Common Noun:** Names any person, place, or thing of the same kind.

Examples: pen, book, city, cat

2. **Proper Noun:** Names a specific person, place, or thing and starts with a capital letter.

Examples: Pakistan, Islamabad, Quaid-e-Azam, Hamlet, Napoleon

3. **Collective Noun:** Names a group of people or things treated as one.

Examples: team, jury, crowd, army

4. **Abstract Noun:** Names something you can't see, hear, touch, smell, or taste, like qualities or feelings.

Examples: bravery, honesty, childhood, education

5. **Material Noun:** Names a substance or material used to make things.

Examples: gold, water, wood, cotton

6. **Possessive Noun:** Shows ownership or relationship with an apostrophe.

Examples: Anwar's book, the cat's toy, my friend's mother

7. **Compound Noun:** Made up of two or more words that work together as one noun.

Examples: father-in-law, software company, bus stop

8. **Concrete Noun:** Names something you can see, hear, touch, taste, or smell.

Examples: dog, music, flower, chair

9. **Countable Noun:** Things that can be counted and have both singular and plural forms.

Examples: book, chair, pen

10. **Uncountable Noun:** Things that cannot be counted or divided into singular and plural.

Examples: milk, rice, water, information

Note on Uncountable Nouns:

- **Common Uncountable Nouns:** advice, bread, coffee, furniture
- **Countable Use of Uncountable Nouns:**
 - o **Advice** as 'an official letter' (countable).
 - o **Business** as a 'shop' or 'factory' (countable).
 - o **Cloth** for cleaning or covering (countable).
 - o **Clothes** always in plural form (countable).

Some Uncountable Nouns:

- **Advice, Anger, Bread, Coffee, Furniture, Information, Money, Music, Rice, Sugar, Water, Wisdom**

Using 'a/an' with Uncountable Nouns:

- When used with an adjective or as a type of something, e.g., "a good education," "a piece of advice."

Examples of Uncountable vs. Countable Use:

- **Coffee:** "I would like a coffee" (countable, for a cup), "Coffee" (uncountable, for the drink).
- **Damage:** "The fire caused damage" (uncountable), "The victim was awarded damages" (countable, for compensation).

Nouns - The Plural Form

1. General Rule:

Most nouns become plural by adding 's'.

- book → books

- pen → pens
- girl → girls
- ring → rings

2. Nouns Ending in -ch, -sh, -s, -ss, -x, -z: Add -es.

- match → matches
- dish → dishes
- bus → buses
- glass → glasses
- quiz → quizzes

3. Nouns Ending in -o or -oo: Add -s.

- dynamo → dynamos
- photo → photos
- zoo → zoos
- piano → pianos
- kangaroo → kangaroos

4. Some Nouns Ending in -o or -oo: Add -es.

- mango → mangoes
- hero → heroes
- potato → potatoes

5. Nouns That Can Add Either -s or -es:

- mosquito → mosquitoes or mosquitos
- zero → zeros or zeroes

6. Proper Nouns Ending in -o: Add -s.

- Romeo → Romeos

- Nero → Neros

7. Nouns Ending in Vowel + y: Add -s.

- way → ways
- hey → heys

8. Nouns Ending in Consonant + y: Drop the y and add -ies.

- baby → babies
- city → cities
- country → countries
- soliloquy → soliloquies
- colloquy → colloquies
- obloquy → obloquies

9. Proper Nouns Ending in -y: Add -s.

- Kennedy → Kennedys
- Germany → Germanys
- Mary → Marys

10. Nouns Ending in -i: Add -s.

- taxi → taxis
- kiwi → kiwis

11. Nouns Ending in -f, -ff, or -fe: Add -s or change -f or -fe to -ves.

- chief → chiefs
- cuff → cuffs
- safe → safes
- thief → thieves

- knife → knives
- leaf → leaves
- life → lives

12. Some Nouns Add -s or -ves:

- hoof → hoofs or hooves
- scarf → scarfs or scarves
- turf → turfs or turves
- wharf → wharfs or wharves

13. Irregular Plurals:

- foot → feet
- tooth → teeth
- louse → lice
- man → men
- child → children
- ox → oxen

14. Foreign Plurals:

- alumnus → alumni
- bacillus → bacilli
- stimulus → stimuli
- radius → radii
- cactus → cacti
- colossus → colossi
- octopus → octopi
- syllabus → syllabuses

15. Regular Foreign Plurals:

- campus → campuses
- virus → viruses
- bonus → bonuses
- chorus → choruses
- circus → circuses

16. Nouns with -um Ending:

- bacterium → bacteria
- curriculum → curricula
- memorandum → memoranda

17. Some Nouns Do Not Follow Foreign Plural Rules:

- album → albums
- museum → museums
- stadium → stadiums or stadia
- gymnasium → gymnasiums

18. Singular Nouns with Foreign Plural Forms:

- criterion → criteria
- phenomenon → phenomena

19. Irregular Foreign Plurals:

- crisis → crises
- thesis → theses
- synopsis → synopses

20. Nouns Ending in -a:

- larva → larvae

- formula → formulae or formulas
- vertebra → vertebrae
- antenna → antennae (insects)
- antenna → antennas (radio)

21. Nouns Ending in -us:

- genus → genera
- cyclops → cyclops or cyclopes

22. Same Singular and Plural Form:

- sheep → sheep
- deer → deer
- moose → moose
- salmon → salmon
- trout → trout

23. Compound Nouns:

- bedroom → bedrooms
- boyfriend → boyfriends
- weekend → weekends
- check-up → check-ups
- lay-by → lay-bys

24. In Some Compounds, Pluralize the First Element:

- Attorney General → Attorneys General
- commander-in-chief → commanders-in-chief
- court martial → courts martial

25. Compound Nouns with Both Elements Pluralized:

- manservant → menservants
- woman doctor → women doctors

26. Years and Abbreviations: Add -s.

- the 1990s
- VIPs
- CDs

27. Words Like Dozen, Score, Hundred, etc.:
Remain singular when used with numerals.

- two dozen
- three hundred

Nouns - Possessive Forms

1. Singular Nouns and Plural Nouns Not Ending in -s:
Add 's.

- the boy's name
- the girl's umbrella
- the chef's skills
- children's books
- women's rights

2. Plural Nouns Ending in -s: Add only an apostrophe.

- the boys' names
- a girls' school
- a women's college
- a two weeks' holiday

3. Singular Names Ending in -s: Add 's or just an apostrophe.

- Thomas's or Thomas' parents
- Charles's or Charles' wife
- James's or James' son
- Keats's or Keats' poetry
- Dickens's or Dickens' novels

4. Long Classical Names Ending in -s: Add just an apostrophe.

- Socrates' wife
- Archimedes' law
- Moses' laws
- Jesus' teachings
- Sophocles' plays
- Euripides' plays

5. For ... Sake Phrases: Add an apostrophe with singular nouns ending in the s sound.

- for goodness' sake
- for peace' sake

6. Compound Nouns: Add possessive ending to the last element.

- the commander-in-chief's orders
- my sister-in-law's wedding
- Beaumont and Fletcher's plays

7. Use of s-genitive and of-genitive:

- The s-genitive is used for animate objects.
- The of-genitive is used for inanimate and abstract nouns.

- o Example: the boy's name / the name of the boy

8. Both Forms Used Together:

- a friend of mine
- a colleague of yours
- some friends of my wife's

9. Elliptic Genitive: Omit the noun after s-genitive.

- Your bag is better than Maria's.
- (Ali's house → Ali's)

10. Group Genitive: Add possessive to larger groups.

- the President of China's visit
- the Speaker of the Parliament House's ruling

11. Double Genitive:

Combine of-genitive and s-genitive.

- a play of Shakespeare's
- this stupid idea of yours
- that foolish son of his

MULTIPLE CHOICE QUESTIONS

1. Which of the following is a proper noun?

- a) car
- b) book
- c) Pakistan
- d) table

2. Identify the common noun from the list below:

- a) Christmas
- b) Ahmad
- c) tree
- d) London

3. Which one of the following is an abstract noun?

- a) kindness
- b) apple
- c) chair
- d) Pakistan

4. Select the concrete noun from the following:

- a) wisdom
- b) freedom
- c) butter
- d) beauty

5. Which of these is a collective noun?

- a) book
- b) audience
- c) wisdom
- d) tree

6. Which of the following is a countable noun?

- a) advice
- b) equipment
- c) book
- d) furniture

7. Identify the uncountable noun:

- a) apple
- b) books
- c) bread
- d) pens

8. Which word can be used with both countable and uncountable nouns?

- a) both
- b) every
- c) much
- d) some

9. Which noun has the same singular and plural form?

- a) book
- b) man
- c) sheep
- d) child

10. Which of these plural forms is correct?

- a) chaires
- b) chair
- c) chairies
- d) chairs

11. Identify the noun that changes to a plural form with 'es':

- a) book

- b) dish
- c) boy
- d) key

12. The noun 'clothes' is:

- a) singular
- b) plural
- c) both
- d) uncountable

13. Which noun is plural in form but singular in meaning?

- a) glasses
- b) trousers
- c) news
- d) scissors

Answers Key

1.b	2.b	3.b	4.b	5.c
6.d	7.c	8.c	9.a	10.a
11.b	12.c	13.c		



PRONOUNS

A **pronoun** is a word that takes the place of a noun. The noun it replaces is called its antecedent.

Examples:

- Aslam didn't go to the office because **he** was tired.
- I bought a dictionary. **It** is very useful.
- I talked to the girls. **They** were smart.

Notes:

- In the first example, **he** is a pronoun replacing the noun **Aslam**.
- In the second example, **it** replaces the noun **dictionary**.
- In the third example, **they** replaces the noun **girls**.

Types of Pronouns

1. **Personal Pronouns** Personal pronouns refer to specific people or things and change form depending on whether they are subjects, objects, or showing possession. Examples include: I, you, he, she, it, we, they, me, him, her, us, them, my, your, his, her, its, our, their, mine, yours, his, hers, ours, theirs.

- o She is going to the market.
- o I saw him at the park.
- o This book is mine.

Notes:

- o A singular pronoun is used for one person or thing, and a plural pronoun is used for more than one.
 - I saw the girl. **She** was reading a book.
 - I saw the girls. **They** were singing a song.
- o **Subject pronouns** are used as subjects in sentences, and **object pronouns** are used as objects.
 - Shahid is my friend. **He** does his work well.
 - Mini is my cousin. I know **her** well.
- o **Possessive adjectives** are followed by a noun.
 - **His** brother has come.
 - **Your** sister is absent.
- o **Possessive pronouns** stand alone and are not followed by a noun.
 - This umbrella is **hers**.
 - **Yours** is not here.
- o **Its** (no apostrophe) is used to show possession, while **it's** is a contraction for "it is" or "it has."
 - The cat has moved **its** tail.
 - **It's** raining. (It is raining.)
- o In informal English, object pronouns (me, him, her, them) are often used after **than** and **as**.

- Jamila is older than **me**.
 - I'm taller than **him**.
 - o Subject pronouns (I, he, she, they) are formal and less common in these cases.
 - Jamila is older than **I**.
 - I'm taller than **he**.
 - o When there is a verb, subject pronouns can be used.
 - Jamila is older than **I am**.
 - I'm taller than **he is**.
 - o Object pronouns are also used after the verb **be**.
 - 'Who's there?' **It's me.**
2. **Reflexive Pronouns** A reflexive pronoun refers back to the subject. We use reflexive pronouns when the subject and the object are the same person or thing. Examples include: myself, yourself, himself, herself, itself, ourselves, yourselves, themselves.
- o He washed **himself**.
 - o I cut **myself** shaving.
 - o I often talk to **myself**.
 - o Did you hurt **yourself**?
 - o She looked at **herself** in the mirror.
 - o We enjoyed **ourselves** during the vacation.
 - o You are making **yourself** laugh.
 - o If you want more, help **yourself**.

List of Reflexive Pronouns:

- o Singular: myself, yourself, himself, herself, itself
- o Plural: ourselves, yourselves, themselves

Notes:

- o Reflexive pronouns can also be used for emphasis.
 - I **myself** posted the letter.
- o The phrase **by + a reflexive pronoun** means "alone."
 - His sister lives **by herself**.
 - Some people like living **by themselves**.

3. **Demonstrative Pronouns** A demonstrative pronoun points to a specific person, place, or thing. Examples: this, that, these, those.

- o **This** is a beautiful garden.
- o **These** are new books.
- o **That** is an old house.
- o **Those** are new houses.

Notes:

- o **This** and **that** are singular; **these** and **those** are plural.
- o When **this**, **that**, **these**, and **those** come before nouns, they are called demonstrative adjectives.
 - **This** garden is beautiful.

- **These** books are new.

4. **Interrogative Pronouns** Interrogative pronouns are used to ask questions. Common interrogative pronouns are: who, whose, which, what.

- o Who brought the letter here?
- o Which is the best solution?
- o Whose is this umbrella?
- o What is your number?

Notes:

- o **Who** is used only for people.
- o **What** and **which** can be used for both people and things. **What** is not commonly used for people.
- o In questions about a person's job, **what** is used.
 - What is Sana's father? He's a doctor.

5. **Relative Pronouns** Relative pronouns introduce relative or adjective clauses. Examples include: who, whose, whom, that (for people), and which, that, whose (for things).

- o The boy **who** brought the letter is waiting there.
- o This is the house **that** we bought last week.

6. **Distributive Pronouns** Distributive pronouns refer to each individual in a group. Examples: each, every, either, neither.

Each, Every

- o **Each** and **every** are used with singular nouns.
 - I talked to **each** member of the group.
 - **Every** student has passed the test.

Notes:

- o **Each** is used when thinking of one person or thing at a time.
 - o **Every** implies a larger number and is used to show all members collectively.
 - o **Each of** is correct, but **every of** is not used.
 - Each of the students has an identity card.
 - o **Each** can occur alone or with **of**. **Every** cannot occur alone.
 - Each (one) is a novel.
 - Every one (of them) is interesting.
 - o **Either** means "one or the other of two things" and is used with a singular noun.
 - Either book is useful.
 - o **Neither** means "not one or the other of two things" and is used with a singular noun.
 - Neither day is convenient.
7. **Indefinite Pronouns** Indefinite pronouns refer to people or things without being specific. Examples include: anybody, everybody, nobody, somebody, anyone, everyone, no one, someone, anything, everything, nothing, something.

Notes:

- o Indefinite pronouns ending in -one and -body refer to people, while those ending in -thing refer to things.
- o An indefinite pronoun takes a singular verb.
 - Everyone has heard the rumor.
- o In negative sentences, use pronouns starting with **any-**.
 - She didn't see anything on the kitchen floor.
- o Use **no-** without another negative word in the same clause.
 - Nobody phoned me.

8. **Reciprocal Pronouns** **Each other** and **one another** are reciprocal pronouns that show mutual action or relationship. They are used to indicate that two or more people do similar things to each other.

- o They loved each other.
- o They wore each other's shirts.

Notes:

- o These pronouns are not used as subjects of sentences.
- o The rule that **each other** is for two and **one another** is for more than two is not strictly followed.

MULTIPLE CHOICE QUESTIONS

1. Which pronoun is used as a substitute for the noun 'Sunil' in the sentence "Sunil didn't go to the office because he was tired"?

- a) Sunil
- b) Office
- c) He
- d) Was

2. In the sentence "I bought a dictionary. It is very useful," which word is the antecedent of the pronoun 'It'?

- a) I
- b) Bought
- c) Dictionary
- d) Useful

3. Identify the pronoun in the sentence: " They were smart."

- a) I
- b) Girls
- c) They
- d) Smart

4. Which type of pronoun is 'he' in the sentence "He is my friend"?

- a) Demonstrative
- b) Interrogative
- c) Personal
- d) Reflexive

5. Which is a possessive pronoun?

- a) My
- b) Our

- c) His
- d) Your

6. Which of the following is a reflexive pronoun?

- a) Ours
- b) Myself
- c) Their
- d) Us

7. Identify the possessive adjective in the sentence "Her sister is absent."

- a) Her
- b) Sister
- c) Is
- d) Absent

8. Which is the correct possessive pronoun for the sentence "This umbrella is ___"?

- a) Hers
- b) Her's
- c) Its
- d) It's

9. What is the antecedent of the pronoun 'They' in the sentence "I saw the girls. They were singing a song"?

- a) I
- b) Saw
- c) Girls
- d) Song

10. Which pronoun should be used to replace the noun 'book' in "The book is on the table"?
- a) They
 - b) It
 - c) He
 - d) She
11. What is the correct subject pronoun to complete the sentence "___ is my cousin"?
- a) Her
 - b) She
 - c) Hers
 - d) Them
12. Choose the correct object pronoun for the sentence "I know ___ well."
- a) He
 - b) Him
 - c) His
 - d) He's
13. Which word is a demonstrative pronoun?
- a) His
 - b) Who
 - c) This
 - d) It
14. Identify the interrogative pronoun in the sentence "Who brought the letter here?"
- a) Who

- b) Brought
- c) Letter
- d) Here

15. In the sentence "I don't work as hard as them," which pronoun is used?

- a) I
- b) Work
- c) Hard
- d) Them

16. Which is the correct reflexive pronoun for "He looked at ___ in the mirror"?

- a) Myself
- b) Yourself
- c) Himself
- d) Itself

Answers Key

1.c	2.c	3.c	4.c	5.c
6.b	7.a	8.a	9.c	10.b
11.b	12.b	13.c	14.a	15.d
16.c				



VERBS

A verb is a word that shows an action, event, or state. For example:

- **Action:** She teaches us English.
- **Event:** The accident happened at night.
- **State:** He is in poor health.

The verb is the most important part of a sentence. Even the shortest sentences need a verb.

Kinds of Verbs

1. Action Verbs

Action verbs show physical or mental actions. They tell us what the subject is doing.

Examples:

- **Physical Actions:**
 - o Run: She runs every morning.
 - o Jump: The children are jumping on the trampoline.
 - o Write: He writes a letter to his friend.
 - o Sing: They sing beautifully.
- **Mental Actions:**
 - o Think: I think about the future often.
 - o Believe: She believes in fairytales.
 - o Know: He knows the answer.
 - o Decide: They decided to go on vacation.

Note: Action verbs are also called main verbs, finite verbs, dynamic verbs, lexical verbs, full verbs, or ordinary verbs.

Finite Verbs: A finite verb changes based on the subject and tense or uses a modal verb. Examples: writes, wrote, will write, may come, can swim, must go.

Non-Finite Verbs: These verbs do not change with tense or number. They include infinitives, gerunds, and participles.

- **Infinitives:** (to) write, (to) come, (to) swim, (to) walk
- **Gerunds:** writing, coming, swimming, walking
- **Participles:** writing, written; coming, come; swimming, swum; walking, walked

2. Linking Verbs

Linking verbs connect the subject to more information about the subject. They show a state of being, not an action.

Common Linking Verbs:

- **To Be:** am, is, are, was, were, being, been
- **Become:** become, became
- **Seem:** seem, seemed

Examples:

- **To Be:**
 - o Am: I am happy.
 - o Is: She is a teacher.
 - o Are: They are excited.
 - o Was: He was tired.
 - o Were: We were friends.

- o Being: The cake is being baked.
- o Been: They have been busy.
- **Become:**
 - o Become: She has become an artist.
 - o Became: He became angry.
- **Seem:**
 - o Seem: They seem friendly.
 - o Seemed: The weather seemed perfect.

3. Transitive Verbs

Transitive verbs can have an object (a word that receives the action). Examples include make, enjoy, buy, build, type, need, and post.

Examples:

- She enjoyed the programme.
- He posted the letter.
- They need some money.
- I bought a camera yesterday.

Kinds of Transitive Verbs:

- **Mono-transitive:** Uses one object (e.g., He is writing a letter).
- **Di-transitive:** Uses two objects (e.g., He gave me a pen).
- **Complex-transitive:** Uses a direct object and a complement (e.g., They made him king).
- **Causative Verb:** Shows causing someone else to do something (e.g., I will get my hair bobbed).

- **Reflexive Verb:** Uses a reflexive pronoun (e.g., She prides herself on her hair).

4. Intransitive Verbs

Intransitive verbs do not have an object. Examples include appear, arrive, come, cry, die, flow, go, happen, laugh, live, rise, sleep, and smile.

Examples:

- Water flows.
- It happened yesterday.
- The baby cried.
- The old man died yesterday.
- They came early.
- She slept well.

5. Ambitransitive Verbs

Some verbs can be both transitive and intransitive. This means they can have an object in one sentence and not in another.

Examples:

- **Intransitive:** You have grown since I last saw you.
- **Transitive:** You have grown a beard since I last saw you.

Some verbs change meaning based on their use.

Examples:

- **Intransitive:** He runs along the beach every morning.
- **Transitive:** He runs a small grocery store.

6. Regular Verbs

Regular verbs form their past tense and past participle by adding -d or -ed. Examples: love, hope, call, and help.

- love, loved, loved
- hope, hoped, hoped
- call, called, called
- help, helped, helped

7. Irregular Verbs

Irregular verbs do not follow the regular pattern. Examples include sing, ride, drive, and write.

Examples:

- sing, sang, sung
- ride, rode, ridden
- drive, drove, driven
- write, wrote, written

8. Stative Verbs

Stative verbs describe a state or condition, not an action. They often relate to emotions, relationships, senses, states of being, or thoughts. They are not used in continuous tenses.

Examples:

- Love: I love spending time with my family.
- Have: She has three cats.
- See: Do you see the rainbow?
- Know: We know the way to the park.
- Be: They are very happy.

9. Auxiliary (Helping) Verbs

Auxiliary verbs work with main verbs to form tenses, questions, and negatives.

Examples:

- Naveed is watching TV.
- They have finished their work.
- Her parents will come tomorrow.
- The letter was posted yesterday.

Auxiliaries help form different verb tenses and questions.

Common Auxiliaries:

- Forms of **be**: am, is, are, was, were
- Forms of **have**: has, have, had
- Forms of **do**: do, does, did

Examples of Usage:

- He is writing a letter.
- She has typed the report.
- The book was published last week.
- Does he work hard?
- He works hard, doesn't he?

10. Modal Verbs

Modal verbs express ability, advice, certainty, duty, intention, permission, and other ideas.

Common Modals:

- shall, should, will, would, can, could, may, might, must, ought (to)

Examples:

- Ability: He can climb trees.
- Advice: You should start now if you want to catch the train.
- Necessity: I must finish the work today.
- Permission: Can I borrow your camera?
- Prohibition: You mustn't smoke in the auditorium.

Note: Modals do not have -s endings, past participles, or infinitives. They are followed by the base form of the verb (e.g., He can climb, not He can climbs).

More About Auxiliary Verbs**Short Forms:**

In casual English, auxiliary verbs often shorten.

Examples:

- I'm (I am)
- He's (He is/He has)
- She'll (She will)
- They've (They have)

Negative Short Forms:

Auxiliary verbs also shorten in negative sentences.

Examples:

- It isn't easy. (It is not easy)
- They won't come. (They will not come)

Forming Questions and Negatives:

- To make a question, invert the subject and the first auxiliary.
 - o Is she watching TV?
- To make a negative, place “not” after the first auxiliary.
 - o He has not finished.

VERBALS

Verbals are words that come from verbs but act differently in sentences. They can function as nouns, adjectives, or adverbs, but they are never verbs themselves.

There are three main types of verbals: infinitives, gerunds, and participles.

1. Infinitives

An infinitive is a basic verb form that usually starts with "to." It does not change for tense or number.

- Examples:
 - o He wants to go home.
 - o I hope to see you at the party.
 - o They wish to buy a car.
 - o They planned to expand their business.

Infinitives can be:

- **To-infinitives:** With "to" (e.g., to go, to see)
- **Bare infinitives:** Without "to" (e.g., see, hear, let)

Bare infinitives are used:

- After auxiliary verbs: It may rain tonight.

- With verbs like see, hear, let: I saw Sana cross the street.

Note:

- Using "to" or not can change meaning: "I saw Sana cross the street" means seeing the whole action, while "I saw Sana crossing the street" means seeing her in the middle of the action.
- Some verbs, like help, can be followed by either form: I helped him finish his work.

Infinitives also have:

- **Progressive forms:** To be taking, to be wasting
- **Perfect forms:** To have phoned, to have replied
- **Passive forms:** To be bought, to have been bought

Infinitives can:

- Be the subject: To drive a small car is fun.
- Be the object: She likes to watch TV.
- Be the subject complement: His aim is to become a doctor.
- Be used for purpose: I went there to see Tom.

Split Infinitives:

- Sometimes, an adverb is placed between "to" and the verb (e.g., to speedily settle). This is now common in informal English, though some find it awkward.

2. Gerunds

A gerund is the "-ing" form of a verb used as a noun.

- Examples:
 - o Swimming is fun.

- o Walking is good exercise.
- o She enjoys watching TV.

Gerunds are similar to present participles but are used as nouns.

3. Participles

A participle is a verb form used as an adjective or to form verb phrases.

- **Present participles** end in "-ing" (e.g., smiling, playing).
- **Past participles** usually end in "-ed" for regular verbs (e.g., written, invited) but vary for irregular verbs.

Participles are used to:

- Form progressive tenses: The girls are smiling.
- Form perfect tenses and passive voice: The letter was published last week.

Participles as adjectives:

- Smiling faces
- Flowing hair

Participial Construction:

- Participles can combine sentences: Walking along the village path, he enjoyed the scenery.
- With the same subject, a participle can be placed before the main verb or before the participle: Taking her umbrella, the woman went out.

Passive participles:

- Can be replaced with the past participle alone:
Repaired by an experienced mechanic, the car was in good condition.

MULTIPLE CHOICE QUESTIONS

1. Which of the following sentences contains an action verb?
 - a) She is happy.
 - b) The cake is being baked.
 - c) She runs every morning.
 - d) He became angry.
2. What type of action verb is in the sentence "He writes a letter to his friend"?
 - a) Mental Action
 - b) Stative Verb
 - c) Linking Verb
 - d) Physical Action
3. Which of the following is a linking verb?
 - a) Run
 - b) Swim
 - c) Is
 - d) Write
4. Identify the linking verb in the sentence: "They seem friendly."
 - a) Seem
 - b) Friendly

- c) They
- d) None of the above

5. Which sentence contains a transitive verb?

- a) The baby cried.
- b) She slept well.
- c) He posted the letter.
- d) The old man died.

6. In the sentence "I bought her a ring," the verb "bought" is:

- a) Intransitive
- b) Di-transitive
- c) Mono-transitive
- d) Reflexive

7. Which of the following sentences contains an intransitive verb?

- a) He enjoys the program.
- b) Water flows.
- c) She writes letters.
- d) He made her laugh.

8. Identify the intransitive verb in the sentence: "It happened yesterday."

- a) Happened
- b) Yesterday
- c) It
- d) None of the above

9. Which sentence demonstrates the ambitransitive verb "run" being used transitively?

- a) He runs along the beach every morning.
- b) The car stopped.
- c) He runs a small grocery store.
- d) She speaks quickly.

10. Identify the ambitransitive verb in the sentence:
"The plane will take off in five minutes."

- a) Plane
- b) Will
- c) Take off
- d) Minutes

11. Which of the following is a regular verb?

- a) Sing
- b) Drive
- c) Call
- d) Write

12. Identify the regular verb in the sentence: "She helped me with my homework."

- a) Helped
- b) With
- c) Homework
- d) Me

13. Which of the following is an irregular verb?

- a) Love

- b) Call
- c) Sing
- d) Help

14. Identify the irregular verb in the sentence: "He drove to the store."

- a) Store
- b) To
- c) Drove
- d) He

15. Which of the following is a stative verb?

- a) Run
- b) Jump
- c) Know
- d) Write

16. Identify the stative verb in the sentence: "They are very happy."

- a) Very
- b) Are
- c) Happy
- d) They

17. Which of the following sentences contains an auxiliary verb?

- a) She runs fast.
- b) They have finished their work.
- c) He sings beautifully.

d) She enjoys reading.

18. Identify the auxiliary verb in the sentence: "The book was published last week."

a) Published

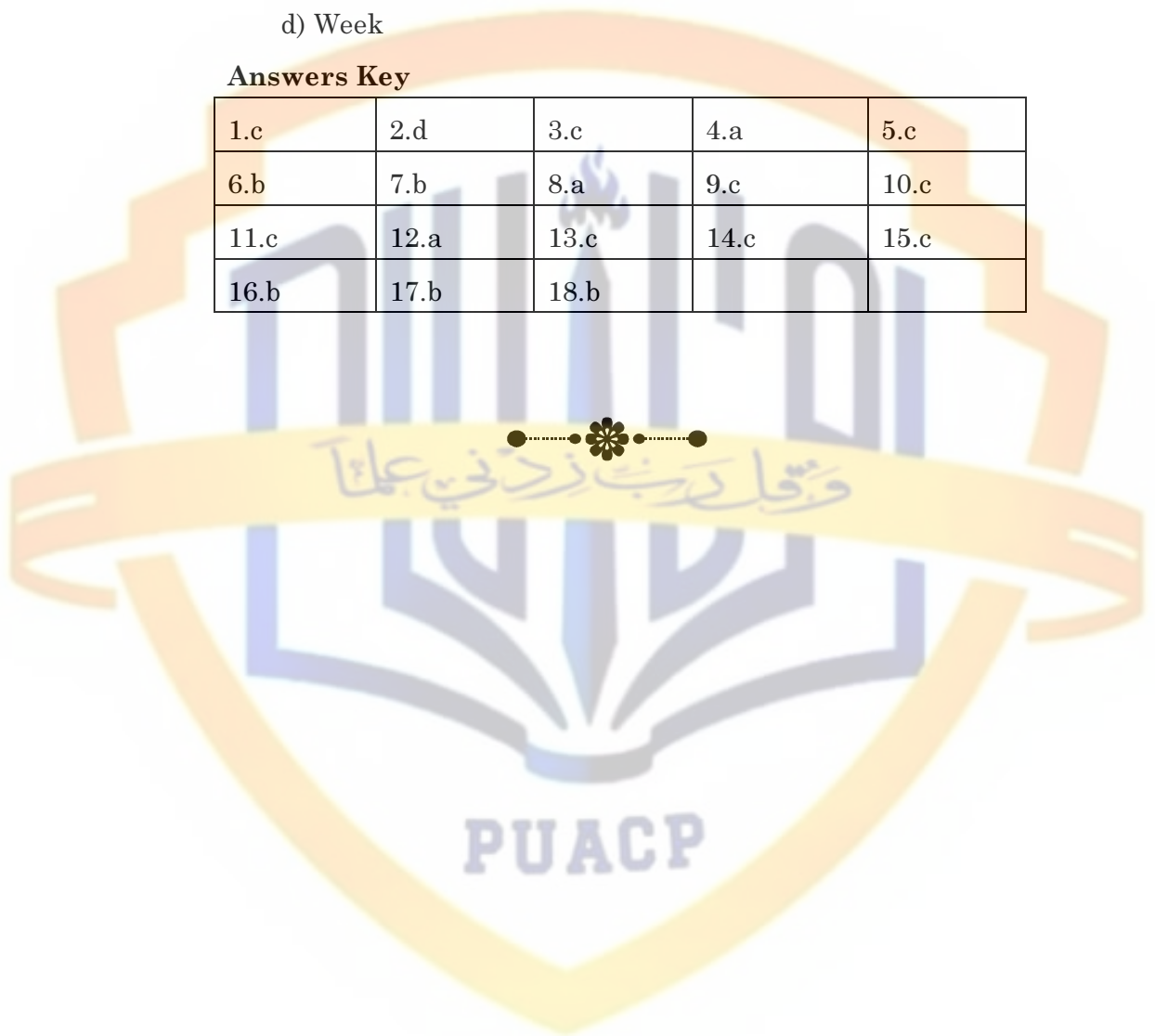
b) Was

c) Last

d) Week

Answers Key

1.c	2.d	3.c	4.a	5.c
6.b	7.b	8.a	9.c	10.c
11.c	12.a	13.c	14.c	15.c
16.b	17.b	18.b		



ADJECTIVES

An adjective is a word that describes a noun or pronoun. It shows qualities, quantity, or number, and tells us more about the person or thing. Adjectives can also have comparative and superlative forms.

Examples:

- He is an ordinary man.
- It is an excellent idea.
- You are a good teacher.
- The Earth is round.
- His brother was a foolish man.

Two Positions of Adjectives

1. **Attributive Use:** An attributive adjective comes before the noun. It describes the qualities of the noun.

Examples:

- o This is the greenest land I've ever seen.
- o The new secretary doesn't like me.
- o The rose-colored petals waved softly to the floor.
- o Is that an English rose?
- o Her porcelain skin was constantly remarked upon.

2. **Predicative Use:** A predicative adjective comes after the verb. It describes the noun as part of the predicate.

Examples:

- o That movie star is handsome.
- o The cat was black.
- o That dress is new, isn't it?
- o The journey seemed slow.
- o They were growing tired.

Kinds of Adjectives

1. **Adjectives of Quality:** These adjectives describe the nature or quality of a noun.
 - o Examples: black, wise, good, difficult, careless.
2. **Adjectives of Quantity:** These adjectives describe how much of something there is.
 - o Examples: little, much, enough, no, any, whole.
3. **Adjectives of Number:** These adjectives state the number or order of things.
 - o **Definite Numeral Adjectives:** one, two, first, second.
 - o **Indefinite Numeral Adjectives:** several, any, certain, some.
 - o **Distributive Numeral Adjectives:** each, every, either.

Examples:

- o She wrote six papers for her B.S.
- o Only a few people are kind to the poor.

- o I got first class in my graduation.
- o All students passed in the exam.
- o Some women are upset.

4. **Demonstrative Adjectives:** These adjectives point out specific people or things.

- o Examples: this, that, these, those.

Types:

- o **Definite:** this, that, these, those.
- o **Indefinite:** one, a, another, some.

Examples:

- o Who is this girl?
- o Listen to that boy.
- o I like these mangoes.
- o I want those mangoes.

5. **Interrogative Adjectives:** These adjectives are used to ask questions about a noun.

- o Examples: how, what, where, which, whose.

Examples:

- o How was pollution spread on the earth?
- o What books are you buying today?
- o Where do you go from here?
- o Which pen do you like more?
- o Whose book was that?

6. **Proper Adjectives:** These adjectives describe the origin or nationality of a noun.

- o Examples: Pakistani, American, English.

7. **Possessive Adjectives:** These adjectives show ownership.

- o Examples: my, your, his, her, its, our, their.

Examples:

- o My computer is not working as fast as before.
- o Our father told us not to quarrel with anyone.
- o Your child is not doing well in school.
- o We are concerned about his performance.
- o The students of class seven submitted their assignment.

8. **Emphatic Adjectives:** These adjectives emphasize the noun they modify.

- o Examples: own, very.

Examples:

- o He arranged the entire party with his own efforts.
- o That is the very book my wife wanted to purchase.
- o I have the perfect gift for you.

9. **Exclamatory Adjectives:** These adjectives show strong emotion.

- o Examples: what, how.

Examples:

- o What an idea!
- o How strange!

- o It's so beautiful!
- o It is such a bad day!

10. **Relative Adjectives:** These adjectives describe a noun or pronoun and are used in relative clauses.

- o Examples: what, which, whichever, whatever.

Examples:

- o Do you know what languages he speaks?
- o I don't know which train to take.
- o Nobody could understand to which laws he was referring.
- o Whichever team wins, he'll be a happy man.
- o We'll have to stay in whatever hotel we can find.

Nouns Used as Adjectives

Sometimes nouns are used as adjectives.

- Examples:
 - o I enjoyed your birthday party.
 - o I met some college professors there.
 - o It was a useful radio/television program.
 - o That is a telephone booth.

When a noun is used as an adjective, it is singular.

- Examples:
 - o They are mountain climbers (not mountains climbers).

- o She went to the flower market (not flowers market).

The Order of Adjectives

When two or more adjectives describe a noun, they follow this order:

1. Opinion
2. Size
3. Age
4. Color
5. Origin/Nationality
6. Material

Examples:

- a beautiful young girl
- a small white car
- a wonderful new experience
- an old brass candlestick
- a small black wooden table

Adjectives—Comparison

Comparative and Superlative Adjectives

1. **Comparative Adjectives:** Use -er or more to compare two things.
 - o **Regular Examples:** old → older, high → higher
 - o **Irregular Examples:** good → better, bad → worse

2. **Superlative Adjectives:** Use -est or most to describe the highest degree of something among three or more things.

- o **Regular Examples:** old → oldest, high → highest
- o **Irregular Examples:** good → best, bad → worst

One-Syllable Adjectives:

- Add -er for the comparative and -est for the superlative.
 - o Examples: tall → taller → tallest, big → bigger → biggest

Two-Syllable Adjectives:

- Usually use more and most for comparison.
 - o Examples: careful → more careful → most careful, famous → more famous → most famous
- Exceptions: Two-syllable adjectives ending in -y, -ow, -le, or -er use -er and -est.
 - o Examples: busy → busier → busiest, happy → happier → happiest

Three or More Syllables:

- Always use more and most.
 - o Examples: interesting → more interesting → most interesting

Irregular Forms:

- **Good:** better, best
- **Bad:** worse, worst

- **Little:** less, least
- **Much/Many:** more, most
- **Far:** farther/further, farthest/furthest

Special Case with "Old":

- **Elder** and **eldest** are used for family comparisons (formal or old-fashioned).
 - Examples: elder brother, eldest daughter
- **Older** and **oldest** are used generally for people and things.
 - Examples: older than, oldest in the place

Comparing Two Things:

- Use the comparative form.
 - Example: Amjad is the fairer of the two girls.

Comparing Three or More Things:

- Use the superlative form.
 - Example: Sana is the tallest girl in the group.

Common Adjectives & Adverbs

1. Ago vs. Before:

- **Ago:** Refers to a time in the past.
 - Example: I saw her two days ago.
- **Before:** Refers to a time earlier than another event.
 - Example: She posted the letter a month before.

2. Alone vs. Lonely:

- o **Alone:** Means without others or by oneself.
 - Example: She lives alone in the house.
- o **Lonely:** Means feeling sad due to lack of company.
 - Example: She lives a lonely life.

3. **Already, Still, Yet:**

- o **Already:** Used for something that has happened before now.
 - Example: I have already seen that film.
- o **Still:** Indicates something continuing or not finished.
 - Example: He's still waiting for his friend.
- o **Yet:** Used in questions and negative sentences to refer to something expected to happen.
 - Example: Has she sent the report yet?

4. **Any vs. Some:**

- o **Any:** Used in negative sentences and questions.
 - Example: Are there any novels on this shelf?
- o **Some:** Used in positive sentences and sometimes in questions expecting a yes answer.
 - Example: I would like some water.

5. **Due to vs. Owing to:**

- o Both mean "because of." Often used in formal contexts.
 - Example: The train was cancelled due to heavy rain.

6. Enough:

- o **Adverb:** Means "as much as needed."
 - Example: He is strong enough to lift that suitcase.
- o **Before Nouns:** Means having the required amount.
 - Example: We have enough workers.

7. Ever vs. Never:

- o **Ever:** Means "at any time" and is often used in questions.
 - Example: Have you ever been to Canada?
- o **Never:** Means "not at any time."
 - Example: I've never been to Canada.

8. Few, Fewer, Little, Less:

- o **Few:** Means "not many" and is used with plural nouns.
 - Example: Few students passed the exam.
- o **Little:** Means "not much" and is used with uncountable nouns.
 - Example: There's little milk left.

9. Good vs. Well:

- o **Good:** An adjective.
 - Example: Her English is good.
- o **Well:** An adverb.
 - Example: She speaks English well.

10. Hard vs. Hardly:

- o **Hard:** Can be an adjective or adverb meaning "difficult" or "with effort."
 - Example: She worked hard to pass the exam.
- o **Hardly:** An adverb meaning "barely" or "almost not."
 - Example: I could hardly believe it.

11. Late, Lately, Recently:

- o **Late:** Means "after the expected time."
 - Example: The trains are running late today.
- o **Lately:** Means "recently."
 - Example: Have you seen your uncle lately?
- o **Recently:** Means "not long ago."
 - Example: I met my uncle recently.

12. A lot of, Lots of, Many, Much:

- o **Many:** Used with plural nouns.
 - Example: Do you have many friends?
- o **Much:** Used with uncountable nouns.

- Example: She doesn't have much money.
- o **A lot of/Lots of:** Used in positive sentences to mean "a large amount."
 - Example: There were a lot of students at the meeting.

MULTIPLE CHOICE QUESTIONS

1. **Which of the following is a predicative adjective?**
 - a) The blue sky
 - b) The intelligent student
 - c) She is happy
 - d) An old car
2. **Which type of adjective is "many"?**
 - a) Adjective of Quality
 - b) Adjective of Quantity
 - c) Demonstrative Adjective
 - d) Interrogative Adjective
3. **Identify the proper adjective in the sentence:**
"She wore a French dress to the party."
 - a) wore
 - b) French
 - c) dress
 - d) party
4. **Which sentence contains an emphatic adjective?**
 - a) That is a very nice house.

- b) The book is interesting.
- c) She is a skilled artist.
- d) The car is red.

5. **Choose the demonstrative adjective in the sentence: "I want those apples."**

- a) want
- b) those
- c) apples
- d) I

6. **What is the comparative form of "good"?**

- a) gooder
- b) more good
- c) better
- d) best

7. **Which of the following is an example of an adjective of number?**

- a) several
- b) much
- c) beautiful
- d) mine

8. **In the phrase "the tallest building," what type of adjective is "tallest"?**

- a) Adjective of Quality
- b) Comparative Adjective
- c) Superlative Adjective

d) Demonstrative Adjective

9. Identify the interrogative adjective in the sentence: "Which book do you want?"

a) Which

b) book

c) do

d) want

10. Choose the correct example of an adjective of quantity:

a) six

b) little

c) red

d) your

11. What is the order of adjectives in the phrase "a beautiful large old house"?

a) Size, Opinion, Age

b) Opinion, Size, Age

c) Age, Opinion, Size

d) Size, Age, Opinion

12. Which of the following sentences uses a possessive adjective?

a) This is my car.

b) She has a nice car.

c) I am excited about the car.

d) The car is blue.

13. What is the superlative form of "happy"?

- a) happier
- b) happiest
- c) most happy
- d) happyest

14. In the sentence "The dog is friendly," what type of adjective is "friendly"?

- a) Adjective of Quality
- b) Adjective of Quantity
- c) Demonstrative Adjective
- d) Interrogative Adjective

15. Which type of adjective answers the question "Of what kind?"

- a) Adjective of Number
- b) Adjective of Quality
- c) Adjective of Quantity
- d) Demonstrative Adjective

Answers Key

1.c	2.b	3.b	4.a	5.b
6.c	7.a	8.c	9.a	10.b
11.b	12.a	13.b	14.a	15.b



ADVERBS

An adverb describes a verb, an adjective, another adverb, or an entire sentence.

Examples:

- Nargis dances beautifully.
- It was an extremely difficult decision.
- Shahid did the work very easily.
- Unfortunately, they did not help us.

Kinds of Adverbs

1. Adverbs of Time

These adverbs tell us when something happens. Examples include: ago, since, then, ever, after, before, early, today, tomorrow, yesterday, already, now.

Examples:

- o He comes here daily.
- o I hurt my knee yesterday.

2. Adverbs of Number/Frequency

These adverbs show how often something happens. Examples include: often, never, regularly, frequently, always, firstly, secondly, sometimes, once, twice, again, seldom.

Examples:

- o He often makes mistakes.
- o I have told you twice.

3. Adverbs of Place

These adverbs describe where something happens. Examples include: here, everywhere, below, right, left, there, up, inside, outside, within.

Examples:

- o Stand here.
- o He looked up.

4. Adverbs of Manner

These adverbs explain how something is done. Examples include: nicely, badly, quickly, clearly, slowly, carefully, honestly, strictly, well, gladly, fast.

Examples:

- o The Muslims fought bravely.
- o The boy works hard.

5. Adverbs of Degree or Quantity

These adverbs describe the extent or degree of something. Examples include: very, much, too, fully, enough, quite, little, entirely, almost, rather.

Examples:

- o She is a very good poetess.
- o I talk too slowly.

6. Adverbs of Affirmation

These adverbs confirm something. Examples include: hardly, surely, indeed, perhaps, ever, yes, scarcely, certainly.

Examples:

- o Surely, he will come.
- o He certainly succeeded.

7. Adverbs of Negation

These adverbs show that something is negative. Examples include: not, no, never.

Examples:

- o He does not come.
- o I will never hurt myself.

8. Adverbs of Reason/Purpose/Consequence

These adverbs explain why something happens. Examples include: hence, so, therefore, accordingly, consequently, likewise.

Examples:

- o They are, hence, unhappy.
- o He therefore left school.

9. Interrogative Adverbs

These adverbs are used to ask questions. Examples include: how, how far, how many, when, where, why.

Examples:

- o Where are you going now?
- o How are you?

10. Relative Adverbs

These adverbs link clauses together. Examples include: when, where, why, what, while, whereas, such as, as well as.

Examples:

- o I know where he lives.
- o This is the same reason why I left.

Formation of Adverbs

- Many adverbs are made by adding -ly to adjectives:
 - o clear → clearly
 - o slow → slowly
 - o beautiful → beautifully
 - o careful → carefully
- Some words ending in -ly are adjectives:
 - o friend → friendly
 - o year → yearly
 - o man → manly
 - o woman → womanly
 - o king → kingly
 - o hour → hourly
 - o day → daily
 - o month → monthly
- Some words can be both adverbs and adjectives:
 - o daily (adjective: a daily newspaper)
 - o daily (adverb: open daily)
 - o monthly (adjective: a monthly meeting)
 - o monthly (adverb: published monthly)
 - o yearly (adjective: a yearly review)
 - o yearly (adverb: reviewed yearly)

Comparison of Adverbs

- For one-syllable adverbs, add -er and -est:

- o fast → faster, fastest
- o late → later, latest
- o soon → sooner, soonest
- o hard → harder, hardest
- Adverb early also takes -er and -est:
 - o early → earlier, earliest
- For two or more syllables, use more and most:
 - o carefully → more carefully, most carefully
 - o beautifully → more beautifully, most beautifully
 - o quickly → more quickly, most quickly
 - o slowly → more slowly, most slowly
- Some adverbs have irregular forms:
 - o badly → worse, worst
 - o far → farther/further, farthest/furthest
 - o little → less, least
 - o much → more, most
 - o well → better, best

Comparison Examples:

- **as...as:**
 - o Jamal is as tall as Safdar.
 - o Aamir is as old as Yousaf.
 - o Kabeer is not as old as Akbar.
 - o Kabeer is not so old as Akbar.
- **less:**

- o This chair is less comfortable than that chair.
- o An ordinary hotel is less expensive than a five-star hotel.

Positions of Adverbs in Sentences

- Adverbs can be at the beginning or end of a sentence:
 - o Every day he comes here.
 - o He comes here every day.
 - o She watches TV every evening.
 - o Every evening she watches TV.
 - o Suddenly she left the room.
 - o She left the room suddenly.
- Mid-position adverbs show frequency and are placed between the subject and the verb:
 - o He usually has a cup of tea in the morning.
 - o She often has a nap after lunch.
 - o She always comes to the office on time.
 - o They rarely go to the cinema.
 - o Jamal never comes to the office late.
- With the verb "be," place adverbs after "be":
 - o Jamal is rarely late.
 - o Ayesha is always on time.
 - o They are never lazy.
- With auxiliary verbs, place adverbs between the auxiliary and the main verb:
 - o She has often phoned me.

- o The boy has finally finished his homework.
 - o Aamir has never cared for these things.
 - o Safia has always come on time.
- In questions, mid-position adverbs are placed after the subject:
 - o Have you ever seen such a sight?
 - o Does Jameel always come on time?
- The usual position of ordinary adverbs is at the end of a sentence:
 - o Safia dances beautifully.
 - o Aamir goes to church every day.
 - o Sana drives the car carefully.
 - o Yousaf speaks English well.
 - o He likes cricket very much.
- When there are two or more adverbs, the usual order is manner, place, time:
 - o Sana danced beautifully in the auditorium yesterday.
 - o Aamir worked hard in the office for more than nine hours.
 - o The professor spoke eloquently at the seminar yesterday afternoon.
- Adverbs of place come immediately after the verb if there is movement:
 - o We went to the station by car.
 - o She comes here every morning.

- More specific time expressions come before more general ones:
 - o The meeting will be held at 10 o'clock on Monday, December 13, 2004.

MULTIPLE CHOICE QUESTIONS

1. Which adverb describes the manner in which an action is performed?
 - a) Quickly
 - b) Tomorrow
 - c) Never
 - d) Here
2. Which of the following is an adverb of time?
 - a) Seldom
 - b) Inside
 - c) Yesterday
 - d) Very
3. Identify the adverb of frequency in the sentence: "He often goes to the gym."
 - a) Often
 - b) Gym
 - c) Goes
 - d) He
4. Which adverb indicates a place?
 - a) Late
 - b) There

- c) Hardly
 - d) Extremely
5. Which of the following is an adverb of degree?
- a) Friend
 - b) Beautifully
 - c) Very
 - d) Today
6. What type of adverb is "never"?
- a) Adverb of Manner
 - b) Adverb of Time
 - c) Adverb of Frequency
 - d) Adverb of Place
7. Identify the adverb of negation in the sentence:
"He did not arrive on time."
- a) Arrive
 - b) Not
 - c) On
 - d) Time
8. Which adverb is used to provide a reason or consequence?
- a) Now
 - b) Seldom
 - c) Therefore
 - d) Hard
9. Choose the interrogative adverb in the sentence:

"How did you solve the problem?"

- a) Did
- b) Solve
- c) How
- d) Problem

10. Which adverb is used to join two clauses?

- a) Quickly
- b) Why
- c) Slowly
- d) Badly

11. Which of the following adverbs is formed by adding -ly to an adjective?

- a) Friendly
- b) Yearly
- c) Clearly
- d) Manly

12. Identify the adverb formed by adding -ly to a noun.

- a) Carefully
- b) Hourly
- c) Beautifully
- d) Slowly

13. Which of the following adverbs is in its superlative form?

- a) Quickly

- b) Most quickly
- c) Quickest
- d) Quicker

14. Identify the correct comparative form of "badly."

- a) Worse
- b) Badlier
- c) More badly
- d) Worst

15. Which adverb is compared using "less"?

- a) Much
- b) Well
- c) Comfortable
- d) Badly

16. Choose the correct superlative form of "far."

- a) Farthest
- b) Farther
- c) Farth
- d) Farthermost

Answers Key

1.a	2.c	3.a	4.b	5.c
6.c	7.b	8.c	9.c	10.b
11.c	12.b	13.b	14.c	15.c
16.a				



PREPOSITIONS

Prepositions are words that show the relationship between a noun (or pronoun) and other words in a sentence. They help indicate time, place, direction, and more. Common prepositions include: *of, to, by, at, on, in,* and *with*.

Examples:

- I saw him at the bus stop.
- She's going to Chennai.
- The last scene of the film is moving.
- The book is placed on the table.
- She keeps her money in a small box.
- He's staying with his uncle.

Common Prepositions in English:

- about, despite, past
- above, down, round
- across, during, since
- after, except, through
- against, for, throughout
- along, from, till
- among, in, to
- around, inside, towards
- at, into, under
- before, like, underneath
- behind, near, until

- below, of, up
- beneath, off, upon
- beside, on, via
- besides, onto, with
- between, opposite, within
- beyond, out, without

Compound Prepositions:

Some prepositions are made of more than one word. Examples are *on account of*, *because of*, *in front of*, *in spite of*, *instead of*, *in addition to*, *according to*, *along with*, *by means of*, *on top of*, *out of*, and *next to*.

Examples:

- He resigned his job on account of ill health.
- In spite of his illness, he went to the office.
- The bus stops in front of the church.
- We had fish instead of meat.
- They sat next to each other.
- You will be paid according to the amount of work you do.

Prepositional Phrases:

A preposition is followed by a noun or pronoun, which is called its object. Together, they form a prepositional phrase.

Examples:

- She went to the supermarket.
- The dictionary was placed on the table.
- The children have come back from the park.

Prepositions as Adverbs or Conjunctions:

Some prepositions can also act as adverbs or conjunctions.

Examples:

- He waited for me outside the bank. (preposition)
- He waited outside. (adverb)
- He went up the ladder. (preposition)
- He went up. (adverb)
- We left before their arrival. (preposition)
- We left before they arrived. (conjunction)
- They've worked here since 1985. (preposition)
- It's five years since I've heard from her. (conjunction)
- He left college in 1998 and I haven't seen him since. (adverb)

Prepositions at the End of Sentences:

In informal English, prepositions often appear at the end of a sentence, especially in certain questions, relative clauses, and short statements.

Examples:

- This is the book I was referring to.
- Who's this sari for?
- What is she looking at?
- What did you do it for?
- Who are you staying with?
- What were they arguing about?
- He's impossible to deal with.

- Everything has been taken care of.
- Every detail was looked into.
- Your advice is not worth listening to.

Types of Prepositions:

1. **Prepositions of Place:** These show the location or position of something.
 - o Examples: in, into, at, on, off, out of, outside, above, over, under/below, between, among, from, up, down, through, across, along, by/beside/next to, near/close to, in front of, opposite, beyond, past.
2. **Prepositions of Time:** These indicate time-related aspects.
 - o Examples: in, on, at, during, for, since, till, until, by, from.
3. **Prepositions of Agency, Manner, Cause, etc.:** These include prepositions that show means or reasons.
 - o Examples: with, by, through, from.
4. **Prepositions of Direction, Source, Origin, Possession, etc.:** These describe direction, source, origin, or possession.
 - o Examples: from, to/towards, via, of.



CONJUNCTIONS

A conjunction is a word that connects other words, phrases, clauses, or sentences. Examples are and, or, but, if, when, and because.

- Ashfaq and Ayesha are good friends.
- Jamal or Sana will help you.
- Shahid went home because he was tired.
- He was ill, but he went to the party.
- When I saw her, she was reading a book.

Types of Conjunctions

1. Coordinating Conjunctions

These conjunctions join parts of a sentence that are of equal importance, like main clauses. Common ones include and, but, yet, or, nor, for, and so.

- o Amjad often comes here and helps me.
- o I invited him, but he didn't come.
- o We can watch TV or go to a movie.
- o She is poor, yet she helps others.
- o Shahid was tired, so he came home early.

2. Subordinating Conjunctions

These conjunctions connect a subordinate (or dependent) clause to a main clause. Common ones include: after, although, because, if, when, while, and since.

- Shahid didn't go to the office because he was ill.

- If you help him, he will finish the work.
- When I went there, I saw her.
- Although he was weak, he finished the work.
- She hasn't called me since she went to Lahore.
- We reached the station before the train left.
- I went out after I had written the letter.
- o Other words and phrases used as subordinating conjunctions include: as ... as, provided that, in case, the moment (that), and so that.
 - I hired a taxi so that I could reach there on time.
 - As soon as the match was over, we came back.
 - Take this umbrella in case it rains.
 - Immediately I entered the room, I saw the mess.
 - I'll lend you the money on condition that you return it next week.
 - We must get the TV repaired no matter how much it costs.

3. Correlative Conjunctions

These are pairs of conjunctions used together. Examples include both ... and, not only ... but also, either ... or, neither ... nor, and whether ... or.

- Both my wife and my sister have arrived.

- He was not only a writer but also an actor.
- Either Nargis or Diya has borrowed the book.
- Neither my father nor my mother likes the proposal.
- He couldn't decide whether to accept the offer or reject it.
- o Relative pronouns and adverbs can also act as subordinating conjunctions.
 - This is the boy who helped my son.
 - It's a film which is meant for children.
 - These are the books that I borrowed yesterday.
 - That is the office where she works.

INTERJECTIONS

An interjection is a word used to show a sudden feeling or reaction. These feelings might be joy, excitement, sorrow, or surprise. Examples include: Oh!, Ah!, Ooh!, Alas!, Help!, Ow!, Eh!, Bravo!, Pooh!, Oh dear!, Look here!, Gosh!, Cheers!, etc.

- Hurrah! We have won the match.
- Alas! I have been ruined.



PHRASE AND CLAUSE

PHRASE

Examine the group of words "*in a corner*". It makes sense, but not complete sense. Such a group of words, which makes sense, but not complete sense, is called a *Phrase*.

A phrase is a group of words which does not have its own Subject and Predicate. Such a group of words make some sense but not complete sense.

in the rain *in the corner* *on the hill*
in the east *a smiling face* *of great beauty*

- I have a *green sporty car*.
- I saw a girl *with blue eyes*.
- Ahmad ran *with great speed*.
- She speaks English *in a foolish manner*.
- He always behaves *in a strange way*.

Note: In the above examples, *italicized* parts are phrases.

KINDS OF PHRASE

On the basis of their functions and constructions, phrases are divided into various types:

1. Noun Phrase:

A noun phrase consists of a noun and other related words (usually modifiers and determiners) which modify the noun. It functions like a noun in a sentence.

- I have a *green sporty car*.

- A **woman** *in the window* shouted for help.
- She bought *a decent black* **shirt**.
- We enjoy *playing* **cricket**.
- Did you enjoy *reading this* **book**?

Note 1: In order to understand a Noun Phrase more clearly, question 'what' should be asked after the verb and what follows is either a noun, a noun phrase or a noun clause.

2. Adjective Phrases:

An adjective phrase is a group of words that functions like an adjective in a sentence. It consists of adjectives, modifier and any word that modifies a noun or pronoun.

- The movie was *surprisingly good*.
[modifying the noun movie]
- The girl *with blue eyes* has come.
[modifying the noun girl]
- He has a coin *made of gold*.
[modifying the noun coin]
- She is *a highly passionate* girl.
[modifying the noun girl]
- Ali is a man *of great wealth*.
[modifying the noun man]

3. Adverb Phrase

An adverb phrase is a group of words that functions as an adverb in a sentence. It consists of adverbs or other words (preposition, noun, verb, modifiers) that make a group with works like an adverb in a sentence.

- *He always behaves* **in a good manner**.

(modifies verb be have)

- *They were shouting **in a loud voice**.*

(modifies verb shout)

- *She always drives **with care**.*

(modifies verb drive)

- *He **satin a corner of the room**.*

(modifies verb sit)

- *He returned **in a short while**.*

(modifies verb return)

4. Prepositional Phrase

A prepositional phrase is made up of a preposition and a noun or pronoun or a noun phrase. e.g. *on a table, near a wall, in the room, at the door, under a tree*

- Naila sings in a melodious tone.
- The building of our college is quite large.
- He looked under the table and the chairs.
- He cleaned the car after the storm.
- The flower vase is on the table.

5. Participle Phrase

A Participle and its accompanying word make up a Participle phrase.

- *Sitting in the office, he reread the book.*
- *Feeling fear, he could not take the risk.*
- ***Taking long strides**, he soon reached there.*
- ***Worried about the delay**, he decided to ring her up.*

6. Verb Phrase

A verb phrase is a combination of main verb and its auxiliaries (helping verbs) in a sentence.

- He *will have worked*.
- They *are writing* essays.
- He ***is eating*** an apple.
- He *will have worked*.
- She ***has been sleeping*** for two hours.

Note: According to *generative grammar*, a verb phrase can consist of main verb, its auxiliaries, its complements and other modifiers. Hence it can refer to the whole predicate of a sentence. **Example:** You **should study for the exam**.

Types of Verb Phrase

There are two types of verb phrase:

a. Finite Verb Phrase

If a sentence has just one verb phrase, it is a finite verb phrase. The head verb is finite and either comes in present or past form.

- I ***go*** to college in the morning.
- Every Monday, I ***go*** to my village.

b. Non-finite Verb Phrase

In this type of verb phrase, the head verb is *participle*, *gerund*, or *infinitive*.

- She ***is hearing*** someone crying for help.
- They ***are listening*** music.

1. Infinitive Phrase

An infinitive phrase consist of an infinitive (to + simple form of verb) and modifiers or other words associated to the infinitive. An infinitive phrase always functions as an adjective, adverb or a noun in a sentence.

- *He likes **to read books**.* (As noun/object)
- ***To earn money** is a desire of everyone .* (As noun/subject)
- *He should **to inform people about fire**.* (As adverb, modifies verb shout)
- *He made a plan **to buy a car**.* (As adjective, modifies noun plan)

6. Gerund Phrase

A gerund phrase consists of a gerund accompanied by an adjective, an adverb, a direct object, or a prepositional phrase.

- ***Doing yoga everyday** keeps you peaceful.*
- ***Reading books quietly** is my favorite pastime.*
- ***Drinking beer heavily** is bad for your health.*
- ***Sleeping through the night** is difficult for me.*
- ***Watching bad television** defined my teenage years.*

7. Absolute Phrase

Absolute phrase (also called nominative phrase) is a group of words including a noun or pronoun and a participle as well as any associated modifiers. Absolute phrase modifies (give information about) the entire sentence. It resembles a clause but it lack a true finite verb. It is

separated by a comma or pairs of commas from the rest sentence.

- *He looks sad, his face expressing worry.*
- *She was waiting for her friend, her eyes on the clock.*
- *She is jumping in the air with joy, her brother coming form Lahore.*
- ***Weather permitting*** we shall meet in the evening.
- ***God willing*** we shall meet again.
- ***The weather being*** fine, we went out for a picnic.
- ***The sun having*** risen, we set out on our journey.

8. Infinitive Phrase

An infinitive phrase consists of the infinitive (to+1v) along with its complement and modifiers. An infinitive phrase functions as an adjective, adverb or noun.

- He likes ***to read books.***
- ***To earn money*** is a desire of everyone.
- He shouted ***to inform people about fire.***
- He made a plan ***to buy a car.***

CLAUSE

A group of words that forms part of a sentence, and has a subject and predicate of its own, is called a Clause.

- *This is the house which Ali built.*
- *He went to the library because he wanted to borrow some books.*
- *They are the students who must be punished.*

- *Be regular, otherwise, you will be punished.*

Note: In above examples the first is a main, principal or independent clause. The second is a subordinate or dependent clause.

KINDS OF CLAUSE

1. The Principal / Independent / Main Clause
2. Coordinate Clause
3. The Subordinate / Dependent Clause

1. The Principal / Independent / Main Clause

The Principal clause consists of a subject and a predicate and expresses a complete thought. It gives the complete meaning by itself.

Ali Raza recites the holy Quran.

The air is blowing.

2. Coordinate Clause:

A Coordinate Clause is of equal standing to the other clause or clauses. Coordinate clauses can be joined together with coordinating conjunctions to make a Compound Sentences; as,

I went to the market and I purchased an umbrella.

In the above sentence, two clauses – “I went to the market” and ‘I purchased an umbrella’ are joined together with Conjunction ‘and’. They are called Coordinate Clauses.

3. The Subordinate / Dependent Clause

The subordinate clause has a subject and predicate. It cannot stand alone as a sentence. It depends on the

principal clause to complete its meanings.

I like those students who are hard working.

They rested when evening came.

Kinds of Subordinate Clauses

- i. Noun Clause
- ii. Adjective Clause
- iii. Adverb clause
- iv. Restrictive and Non restrictive Clauses

i. Noun Clause

A noun clause is a group of words which contains a subject and a predicate of its own, and does the function of a noun.

- *This is what I intend.*
- *I want to know where she lives.*

ii. Adjective Clause

An adjective clause is a subordinate clause that modifies a noun or a pronoun.

- We need a dog that can guard.
- He told a story that seemed untrue.

iii. Adverb Clause

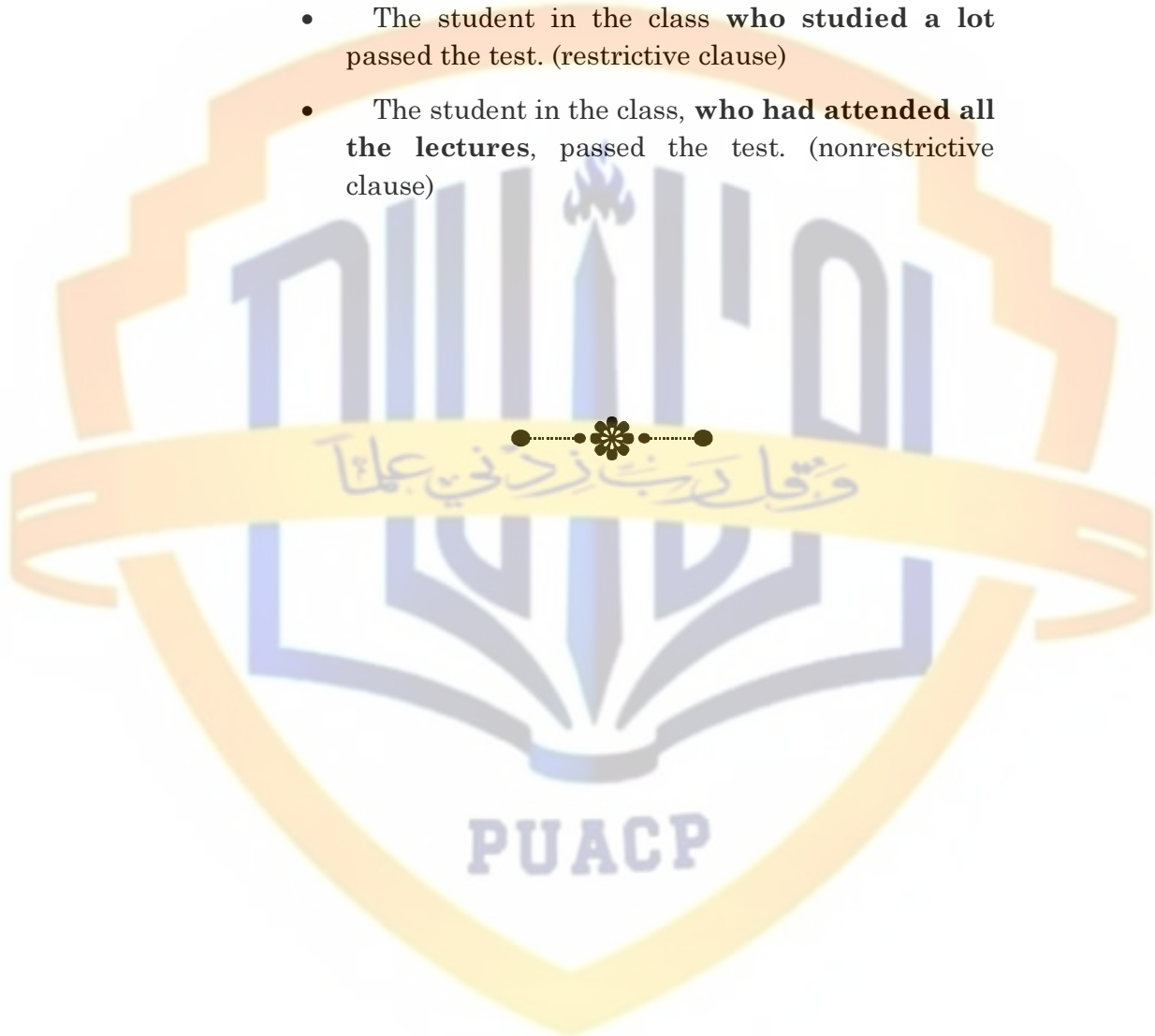
An adverb clause is a subordinate clause which is used as an adverb.

- I am still busy while my brother is sleeping.
- Everyone can work well when he is given a lot of facilities.

iv. Restrictive and Nonrestrictive Clauses

Adjective (relative) clauses can be **restrictive clause** or **nonrestrictive clause**. A restrictive clause limits the meaning of preceding noun or pronoun. A nonrestrictive clause tells us something about preceding noun or pronoun but does not limit the meaning of preceding noun or pronoun.

- The student in the class **who studied a lot** passed the test. (restrictive clause)
- The student in the class, **who had attended all the lectures**, passed the test. (nonrestrictive clause)



1.4. WORD FORMATION

The formation of words is a process that involves creating new words or modifying existing ones. Here are some key aspects of word formation:

1. **Derivation:** Adding prefixes or suffixes to a base word to create a new word. For example:
 - o Prefix: "un-" + "happy" = "unhappy"
 - o Suffix: "play" + "-ful" = "playful"
2. **Compounding:** Combining two or more words to form a new word. For example:
 - o "book" + "shelf" = "bookshelf"
 - o "sun" + "flower" = "sunflower"
3. **Conversion:** Changing the grammatical category of a word without altering its form. For example:
 - o Noun to verb: "email" (noun) → "to email" (verb)
 - o Verb to noun: "run" (verb) → "a run" (noun)
4. **Blending:** Merging parts of two words to create a new word. For example:
 - o "smoke" + "fog" = "smog"
 - o "breakfast" + "lunch" = "brunch"
5. **Acronyms and Initialisms:** Forming a word from the initial letters of a phrase. For example:

- o Acronym: "NASA" (National Aeronautics and Space Administration)
 - o Initialism: "FBI" (Federal Bureau of Investigation)
6. **Abbreviation:** Shortening a word or phrase. For example:
- o "advertisement" → "ad"
 - o "laboratory" → "lab"
7. **Onomatopoeia:** Creating words that imitate natural sounds. For example:
- o "buzz" (imitates the sound of a bee)
 - o "clang" (imitates the sound of metal)
8. **Back-Formation:** Creating a new word by removing an affix from an existing word. For example:
- o "editor" → "edit"
 - o "enthusiasm" → "enthuse"

Understanding these processes helps in recognizing how words are constructed and can be useful in studying language and linguistics.



1.4.1 AFFIXATION

Affixation is a fundamental process in linguistics that involves the addition of affixes to a base or root word to create new words. This morphological process significantly enhances the flexibility and richness of language by allowing the formation of a wide range of words from a single root. Affixation can be categorized into four main types: prefixes, suffixes, infixes, and circumfixes. Each type plays a distinct role in modifying the meaning or grammatical function of the base word. This assignment explores these types of affixation, providing examples and discussing their impact on word formation.

Prefixes

Prefixes are affixes added to the beginning of a base word. They are used to modify or change the meaning of the root word. Prefixes can denote various semantic changes, such as negation, repetition, or direction.

Examples of Prefixes

1. **"Dis-":** This prefix is used to indicate negation or opposition. For instance:
 - o **"Agree" → "Disagree"**
 - The prefix "dis-" changes the meaning of "agree" to its opposite, "disagree."
 - o **"Appear" → "Disappear"**
 - Here, "dis-" conveys the sense of something ceasing to be visible or present.
2. **"Re-":** This prefix implies repetition or backward movement. For example:

- o **"Do" → "Redo"**
 - The prefix "re-" suggests performing the action again.
 - o **"Build" → "Rebuild"**
 - "Re-" indicates the process of constructing something once more.
3. **"Un-":** This prefix is used to express negation or absence.
For example:
- o **"Happy" → "Unhappy"**
 - "Un-" negates the positive state of being happy, resulting in the opposite meaning.

Suffixes

Suffixes are affixes added to the end of a base word. They often change the grammatical category of the word, such as converting a noun to an adjective or a verb to a noun.

Examples of Suffixes

1. **"-ness":** This suffix is used to form nouns that express a state or quality. For example:
- o **"Happy" → "Happiness"**
 - The suffix "-ness" converts the adjective "happy" into the noun "happiness," which denotes the state of being happy.
 - o **"Dark" → "Darkness"**
 - Here, "-ness" turns the adjective "dark" into the noun "darkness," referring to the quality of being dark.

2. **"-ly"**: This suffix is used to form adverbs from adjectives.

For example:

o **"Quick" → "Quickly"**

- The suffix "-ly" transforms the adjective "quick" into the adverb "quickly," describing how something is done.

o **"Happy" → "Happily"**

- "Happily" denotes the manner in which an action is performed, derived from the adjective "happy."

3. **"-er"**: This suffix is often used to form comparative adjectives or nouns indicating a person who performs an action. For example:

o **"Teach" → "Teacher"**

- The suffix "-er" converts the verb "teach" into the noun "teacher," referring to someone who teaches.

o **"Quick" → "Quicker"**

- In this case, "-er" is used to form the comparative adjective "quicker," comparing the speed of two things.

Infixes

Infixes are affixes inserted within a base word. While less common in English, they play a significant role in other languages, such as Tagalog. Infixes can alter the meaning or grammatical function of a word by breaking it into parts.

Examples of Infixes

1. **Tagalog Infixes:** In the Tagalog language, infixes are used to modify the meaning of a word. For example:
 - o **"Sulat"** (write) → **"Sinulat"** (written)
 - The infix "-in-" is inserted within "sulat" to change the verb to its past participle form.
 - o **"Gawa"** (make) → **"Ginawa"** (made)
 - Here, "-in-" is also used to denote past action.
2. **English Example:** While infixes are rare in English, some informal uses exhibit similar behavior. For instance:
 - o **"Unbelievable":** The word "unbelievable" features the infix "believ," which is part of the root word "believe," with the prefix "un-" added for negation.

Circumfixes

Circumfixes are affixes that surround a base word, attaching to both the beginning and end of the word. This type of affixation is more prevalent in languages like German.

Examples of Circumfixes

1. **German Example:** In the German language, circumfixes are used to form various tenses and grammatical forms. For example:
 - o **"Ge-" + "mach" + "-t" = "gemacht"** (made)

- In this case, "ge-" and "-t" are circumfixes surrounding the root "mach," used to form the past participle of the verb "machen" (to make).

2. **"Ver-" + "heir" + "-t" = "verheiratet"** (married)

- o Here, "ver-" and "-t" work together around the root "heir" to create a word indicating a state of being married.

Impact of Affixation on Word Formation

Affixation significantly impacts the flexibility and expressiveness of a language. By altering base words through prefixes, suffixes, infixes, and circumfixes, speakers and writers can create a diverse range of words to convey different meanings, grammatical functions, and nuances.

- **Semantic Changes:** Affixation allows for precise expression of various concepts, such as negation, repetition, or intensity.
- **Grammatical Function:** It facilitates the transformation of words across different grammatical categories, such as converting verbs into nouns or adjectives.
- **Language Evolution:** Affixation contributes to the dynamic nature of language by enabling the creation of new words and expressions over time.

Affixation is a crucial process in word formation that enriches language by adding meaning and grammatical function to base words.



1.4.2 COMPOUNDING

Compounding is a fundamental process in word formation where two or more independent words are combined to create a new word with a specific meaning. This morphological process is pivotal in enhancing the expressiveness and specificity of a language. Compounds can be categorized into three main types: closed compounds, hyphenated compounds, and open compounds. Each type has distinct characteristics and contributes to the richness of vocabulary by forming new words that offer more precise or nuanced meanings than their individual components.

Closed Compounds

Closed compounds are formed when two or more words are combined into a single word without any spaces or hyphens between them. This type of compounding often results in a new term that carries a unique meaning not directly inferred from the meanings of the individual words.

Examples and Analysis

1. "Toothbrush":

- o **Components:** "tooth" + "brush"
- o **Meaning:** A tool used for cleaning teeth.
- o **Analysis:** The closed compound "toothbrush" merges "tooth" and "brush" to create a specific item used for oral hygiene. The combination results in a new meaning that is not just a simple addition of the meanings of "tooth" and "brush."

2. "Notebook":

- o **Components:** "note" + "book"

- o **Meaning:** A book for writing notes.
- o **Analysis:** "Notebook" refers to a bound collection of blank or lined pages used for writing, combining the concepts of "note" and "book" into a single entity. The closed compound provides a precise term for this common item, simplifying communication.

3. "Airport":

- o **Components:** "air" + "port"
- o **Meaning:** A place where aircraft land and take off.
- o **Analysis:** The compound "airport" combines "air" and "port" to denote a facility specifically for air travel. The single term efficiently encapsulates the function and purpose of the place.

Hyphenated Compounds

Hyphenated compounds involve connecting two or more words with hyphens. This form of compounding is often used to clarify relationships between the words or to prevent misreading. Hyphenation helps in indicating that the words function together as a single unit.

Examples and Analysis

1. "Mother-in-law":

- o **Components:** "mother" + "in" + "law"
- o **Meaning:** The mother of one's spouse.
- o **Analysis:** The hyphens in "mother-in-law" help clarify that the term refers to a familial relationship rather than a combination of "mother" and "law" with separate meanings. The

hyphenation ensures that the term is understood correctly.

2. **"Part-time":**

- o **Components:** "part" + "time"
- o **Meaning:** Describing work or employment that is less than full-time.
- o **Analysis:** "Part-time" is hyphenated to denote a specific employment status. The hyphens indicate that "part" and "time" work together to describe a type of job or schedule, distinguishing it from "part" and "time" used separately.

3. **"High-speed":**

- o **Components:** "high" + "speed"
- o **Meaning:** Referring to something that operates at a high rate of speed.
- o **Analysis:** The hyphenation in "high-speed" clarifies that "high" and "speed" form a unit describing the rate at which something functions, such as "high-speed train." The hyphens prevent ambiguity and ensure accurate interpretation.

Open Compounds

Open compounds are formed when two or more words are written separately but function together as a single unit with a specific meaning. This type of compounding is often used for terms where the combination of words forms a fixed expression.

Examples and Analysis

1. **"Ice cream":**

- o **Components:** "ice" + "cream"
- o **Meaning:** A frozen dessert made from cream and sugar.
- o **Analysis:** "Ice cream" is an open compound where "ice" and "cream" are written separately but together refer to a popular dessert. The separate words function as a single term to describe the specific food item.

2. **"Post office":**

- o **Components:** "post" + "office"
- o **Meaning:** A place where mail is sent and received.
- o **Analysis:** The open compound "post office" denotes a location for postal services. The words are written separately, but together they refer to a specific institution.

3. **"Coffee table":**

- o **Components:** "coffee" + "table"
- o **Meaning:** A low table used in living rooms for holding coffee and other items.
- o **Analysis:** "Coffee table" functions as an open compound to describe a type of table. The separate words combine to form a term that specifies a particular kind of furniture.

Impact of Compounding on Word Formation

Compounding enriches language by allowing speakers and writers to create new words that convey specific meanings and concepts. This process:

1. **Enhances Precision:** Compounds can provide more precise terms for objects, concepts, or actions than their individual components. For example, "notebook" is more specific than just "note" and "book" separately.
2. **Facilitates Communication:** By forming new words through compounding, language users can communicate complex ideas more efficiently. Terms like "mother-in-law" or "high-speed" help convey detailed information succinctly.
3. **Reflects Cultural and Technological Changes:** Compounding can reflect cultural and technological developments. For instance, new technological terms like "smartphone" or "webpage" emerge as new concepts become relevant.
4. **Aids Language Evolution:** Compounding contributes to the evolution of language by continuously creating new words to meet the changing needs of communication. This adaptability is a key factor in the dynamic nature of language.

Compounding is a vital process in word formation that combines two or more independent words to create new terms with specific meanings. Whether through closed compounds, hyphenated compounds, or open compounds, this process enhances language by providing more descriptive and precise vocabulary. Understanding the different types of compounding helps in appreciating the flexibility and richness of language, highlighting how it evolves to meet the needs of effective communication.



1.4.3. CLIPPING

Clipping is a linguistic process that involves shortening a longer word by removing one or more syllables. This process results in a more concise, informal, or colloquial form of the original word. Clipping is a common phenomenon in everyday language, reflecting the natural tendency of speakers to simplify and expedite communication. By retaining the core meaning of the original word while making it easier and quicker to use, clipping plays a significant role in the evolution of language. This assignment explores the concept of clipping, its types, and its impact on language, supported by various examples.

Understanding Clipping

Clipping involves the reduction of a word to a shorter form, typically by eliminating syllables. This practice often leads to the creation of more informal or casual variants of words that are easier to pronounce and use in everyday conversation. Clipping is a widespread linguistic phenomenon found in many languages, contributing to the dynamic nature of language and its adaptability to conversational contexts.

Types of Clipping

Clipping can be categorized into different types based on how the original word is shortened. The main types include:

1. **Fore-clipping:** This involves removing the beginning part of the word while retaining the ending.
2. **Back-clipping:** This involves removing the ending part of the word while keeping the beginning.

3. **Middle-clipping:** This involves removing the middle portion of the word while keeping the beginning and ending parts.
4. **Complex Clipping:** This involves the reduction of complex or compound words.

Examples of Clipping

1. Fore-clipping

"Telephone" → "Phone"

- o **Original Word:** Telephone
- o **Clipped Form:** Phone
- o **Analysis:** In this example, the initial syllable "tele-" is removed, leaving "phone" as a shorter, more informal version of the word. Despite the reduction, "phone" retains the core meaning of a device used for communication.

"Refrigerator" → "Fridge"

- o **Original Word:** Refrigerator
- o **Clipped Form:** Fridge
- o **Analysis:** The beginning part "refriger-" is dropped, and "fridge" is used in everyday language. The clipped form is more convenient for casual speech while preserving the meaning related to a cooling appliance.

2. Back-clipping

"Laboratory" → "Lab"

- o **Original Word:** Laboratory
- o **Clipped Form:** Lab

- o **Analysis:** The ending part "-oratory" is removed, leaving "lab." This clipped form is widely used in both professional and casual contexts, making it easier to refer to a place where scientific work is conducted.

"Advertisement" → "Ad"

- o **Original Word:** Advertisement
- o **Clipped Form:** Ad
- o **Analysis:** The longer word "advertisement" is shortened by removing the latter part, resulting in "ad." This clipped term is commonly used in media and casual conversations to refer to promotional content.

3. Middle-clipping

"Influenza" → "Flu"

- o **Original Word:** Influenza
- o **Clipped Form:** Flu
- o **Analysis:** Here, the middle portion "-uenza" is removed, leaving "flu." This clipped form is a more manageable term for referring to the common illness, making it easier to use in everyday speech.

"Mathematics" → "Math"

- o **Original Word:** Mathematics
- o **Clipped Form:** Math
- o **Analysis:** The middle segment "-ematics" is dropped, and "math" becomes a more casual and simplified term for the subject. This clipped form

is widely used in both educational and informal contexts.

4. Complex Clipping

"Public Relations" → "PR"

- o **Original Word:** Public Relations
- o **Clipped Form:** PR
- o **Analysis:** In this case, the compound phrase "public relations" is reduced to its initials "PR." This form of clipping simplifies the term while retaining its meaning related to the management of communication between an organization and the public.

"Video Recorder" → "VCR"

- o **Original Word:** Video Recorder
- o **Clipped Form:** VCR
- o **Analysis:** The term "video recorder" is shortened to its initials "VCR." This clipped form is used to refer to a device for recording and playing back videos, streamlining the reference to the technology.

Impact of Clipping on Language

Clipping significantly influences language by providing more efficient ways to communicate and by reflecting changes in language use. Its impact includes:

1. **Enhanced Efficiency:** Clipped forms make speech and writing more efficient. By shortening words, speakers and writers can convey their message more quickly and easily. This efficiency is particularly useful in fast-paced communication contexts.

2. **Informal Tone:** Clipped words often have a more informal or casual tone, which can make communication feel more personal and relaxed. This informal nature helps in creating a friendly and approachable style of interaction.
3. **Language Evolution:** Clipping reflects the natural evolution of language as speakers adapt their communication to suit changing needs and contexts. New clipped forms can emerge as language users seek simpler or more convenient expressions.
4. **Cultural Reflection:** The use of clipped forms can also reflect cultural trends and shifts. For example, the popularity of terms like "app" (short for "application") highlights the influence of technology on everyday language.
5. **Pragmatic Use:** Clipping is often driven by practical considerations, such as ease of pronunciation or the need for brevity in spoken or written communication. This pragmatic aspect underscores the role of efficiency in language use.

Clipping is a crucial process in word formation that involves shortening longer words to create more informal, colloquial forms. By removing one or more syllables, clipping produces terms that are quicker and easier to use in everyday language while retaining the core meaning of the original word. The various types of clipping—fore-clipping, back-clipping, middle-clipping, and complex clipping—demonstrate the flexibility and adaptability of language.



1.4.4 BACK FORMATION

Back formation is a significant process in linguistics that involves the creation of a new word by removing an affix from an existing word. This process often results in a term that seems to be the base form of the original word. Back formation is a dynamic aspect of language development, reflecting how words can evolve and adapt over time. By transforming a derived word into what appears to be its base form, back formation can lead to the emergence of new word classes and meanings. This assignment explores the concept of back formation, its mechanisms, and its impact on language with various examples.

Understanding Back Formation

Back formation occurs when a new word is formed by removing an affix (a prefix, suffix, or infix) from an existing word. The newly created word often appears to be the root or base form of the original term. This linguistic process can result in the creation of different word classes, such as turning a noun into a verb or an adjective into a noun. The new term may carry a related but distinct meaning from the original word.

Mechanisms of Back Formation

1. **Suffix Removal:** The most common form of back formation involves removing a suffix from an existing word. This process can create a word that seems more basic or fundamental.
2. **Prefix Removal:** Although less common, removing a prefix can also result in back formation, leading to the

creation of a new word that often retains the core meaning of the original term.

3. **Infix Removal:** While infix removal is rare in English, it involves removing an infix from a word to form a new one. This process is more prominent in languages that frequently use infixes.

Examples of Back Formation

1. From Nouns to Verbs

"Editor" → "Edit"

- o **Original Word:** Editor
- o **Derived Word:** Edit
- o **Analysis:** The noun "editor" refers to a person who edits texts. By removing the suffix "-or," the verb "edit" is formed, which means to revise or correct written material. This back formation demonstrates how a noun can be transformed into a verb, thereby creating a new word class.

"Enthusiasm" → "Enthuse"

- o **Original Word:** Enthusiasm
- o **Derived Word:** Enthuse
- o **Analysis:** "Enthusiasm" is a noun referring to intense excitement or eagerness. By removing the suffix "-ism," the verb "enthuse" is created, meaning to show or express enthusiasm. This example illustrates how back formation can produce a verb from a noun, enabling more dynamic expression of the original concept.

"Diagnosis" → "Diagnose"

- o **Original Word:** Diagnosis

- o **Derived Word:** Diagnose
- o **Analysis:** The noun "diagnosis" refers to the identification of a disease or condition. Removing the suffix "-is" results in the verb "diagnose," which means to identify or determine a condition. This transformation highlights how back formation can lead to the creation of verbs from nouns, allowing for more precise action-based descriptions.

2. From Adjectives to Nouns

"Artificial" → "Artifice"

- o **Original Word:** Artificial
- o **Derived Word:** Artifice
- o **Analysis:** "Artificial" is an adjective describing something made by human skill rather than occurring naturally. By removing the suffix "-al," the noun "artifice" is formed, referring to a clever or cunning device or expedient. This back formation shifts the meaning from an adjective describing a quality to a noun denoting a type of device or trickery.

"Necessary" → "Necessity"

- o **Original Word:** Necessary
- o **Derived Word:** Necessity
- o **Analysis:** The adjective "necessary" describes something that is required or essential. Removing the suffix "-ary" results in the noun "necessity," which refers to something that is needed or essential. This example demonstrates how back formation can create nouns from

adjectives, emphasizing the essential nature of the concept.

3. From Verbs to Nouns

"Emigrate" → "Emigrant"

- o **Original Word:** Emigrate
- o **Derived Word:** Emigrant
- o **Analysis:** The verb "emigrate" means to leave one's country to live in another. By removing the suffix "-ate," the noun "emigrant" is formed, referring to a person who emigrates. This back formation shows how verbs can give rise to nouns, specifically denoting individuals who perform the action described by the verb.

"Educate" → "Educator"

- o **Original Word:** Educate
- o **Derived Word:** Educator
- o **Analysis:** The verb "educate" means to teach or instruct. Removing the suffix "-ate" results in the noun "educator," which refers to a person who educates or teaches. This example highlights the creation of a noun from a verb, denoting someone who carries out the action of educating.

Impact of Back Formation on Language

1. **Creation of New Word Classes:** Back formation often results in the creation of new word classes, such as transforming nouns into verbs or adjectives into nouns. This ability to generate new terms enriches the language and expands its expressive capacity.

2. **Language Efficiency:** By forming shorter and more basic terms, back formation contributes to the efficiency of communication. The new words created through back formation are often easier to use and remember, facilitating clearer and more effective language use.
3. **Evolution of Vocabulary:** Back formation reflects the natural evolution of vocabulary as speakers seek to adapt language to their needs. This process demonstrates how language evolves over time, incorporating new words and meanings to fit changing contexts.
4. **Colloquial and Formal Usage:** Back-formed words can be used in both colloquial and formal contexts. For example, "edit" and "enthuse" are commonly used in everyday language, while "diagnose" is utilized in medical and professional settings. This dual usage illustrates how back formation can impact various levels of language formality.

Back formation is a significant linguistic process that involves creating new words by removing an affix from an existing term. This process often results in words that appear to be the base form of the original term, leading to the creation of new word classes and meanings. By transforming nouns into verbs or adjectives into nouns, back formation contributes to the dynamic evolution of language, enhancing its efficiency and adaptability. Understanding back formation provides valuable insight into how language evolves and how new words are formed to meet the needs of communication.



1.5. SENTENCE STRUCTURE

A sentence is a group of words which makes a complete sense. It consists of a subject and a predicate. In writing, a sentence always begins with a capital letter and ends with a full stop, question mark or exclamation mark.

Examples:

- i. He is my brother.
- ii. What is your name?
- iii. Do not open the door.
- iv. Alas! She is dead.
- v. May you live long!

KINDS OF SENTENCES**ON THE BASIS OF FUNCTION****1. Declarative or Assertive Sentence:**

A *declarative or assertive sentence* expresses an opinion, fact, feeling, or makes a statement, or describes things or reports an event. It may give a positive or negative meaning. It ends with a period (i.e., a full-stop).

Examples:

- This book is mine. [statement]
- Ali is reading a novel. [fact]
- I hate liars. [opinion]

- He is not my brother. [fact]
- I love my country. [fact]

2. Interrogative Sentence:

An **interrogative sentence** asks a question. A question mark (?) is used at the end of this kind of sentence.

Examples:

- Where are you going?
- What do you want?
- Is this your college?
- Why is the sky blue?
- Does he work hard?

3. Imperative Sentence:

An **imperative sentence** expresses an order, request, advice, a direction, a suggestion, a command etc. It starts with the verb, and the subject (You) is understood. Imperative sentences usually end with a full stop, but under certain circumstances, they can end with an exclamation mark.

Examples:

- Stop there! [order, command]
- Please bring the book tomorrow. [request]
- Help the poor. [piece of advice]
- Let us play together. [suggestion]
- Don't smoke. [prohibition]

4. Exclamatory Sentence:

An **exclamatory sentence** expresses overflow of emotions or feelings. These emotions can be of happiness, wonder, sorrow, anger, etc. It ends with an exclamation mark (!).

Examples:

- **Hurrah!** we have won the match. [joy]
- **What** a lovely plant it is! [surprise]
- **Alas!** he is dead. [grief, sorrow]
- **Beware!** There's a snake in front! [warning]
- **Help!** There's a thief in that room. [fear]

5. Optative Sentence:

An **optative sentence** expresses a prayer, keen wish, curse etc. It can end with a sign of exclamation.

Examples:

- May you succeed in the examination! [Prayer]
- May you live long! [Prayer]
- Would that he were rich! [Wish]
- May you be blessed with a son! [Prayer]
- Wish you a happy journey together. [wish]

On the Basis of Construction (Structure)

1. Simple Sentence:

A simple sentence has a **subject** and a **predicate**. It does not have subordinate clauses.

Examples:

- Islamabad **is** a beautiful city.

- English is an interesting subject for me.
- The staff **performed** well.
- A white shirt always **looks** sharp.
- The children **were** laughing.

2. Compound Sentence:

A compound sentence has at least two independent clauses, joined together by a comma, semicolon and a **co-ordinator** or **coordinating conjunction**.

- **Co-ordinating conjunction** - *for, and, nor, but, or, yet, so* etc. simply called FANBOYS
- **Co-ordinator** – and, but, or, nor, nevertheless, as well as, not only...but also, etc.

Examples:

- I take tea, but they drink water.
- He was tired, *for* he went to bed early.
- I like tea, *and* he likes coffee.
- I can't eat meat, *nor* can I eat peanuts.
- They are coming by car, *so* they should be here soon.
- She finished her homework; then she watched TV.

Note: A sentence with two independent clauses is a compound sentence even with subordinate clause. i.e. *I may do a computer course (independent clause) but I may not join that (independent clause) if I get admission in the medical college (Subordinate clause).*

3. Complex Sentence:

A **complex sentence** consists of one main clause, and one or more **dependent clauses**. A dependent clause is formed by adding subordinating conjunctions or relative pronouns, or relative adverbs.

Examples:

- Although it was raining, we went for a walk.
- When the teacher arrived, the students stopped talking.
- The book that you gave me is fascinating.
- This is the place where we met for the first time.

- **Subordinating Conjunctions:** (*although, because, if, when, since, while*) These connect the dependent clause to the independent clause, providing a reason, time, condition, or contrast.
- **Relative Pronouns:** (*this, whose, that, who, which, whom*) These introduce a relative clause and relate to a noun mentioned earlier in the sentence.
- **Relative Adverbs:** (*where, when, why, how*) These introduce a clause and provide more information about the place, time, or reason.

4. Compound-Complex sentence:

A **compound-complex sentence** contains at least **two independent clauses** (like a compound sentence), and at least one **dependent clause** (like a complex sentence).

Examples:

- *Because I paid attention,* I got an A on the test and I was so happy.

- Ali does not like cartoons *because they are loud*, so she doesn't watch them.
- Usually, I take a walk every day *while the sun sets*, but it was raining today.
- I like chocolate *because it's sweet*, and I also like to take the toffee *because it is delicious*.
- Life is a tragedy and we are puppets *which few people understand*.

Note: In above examples *italicized* parts of sentences are *dependent clauses*; while **bold** parts of sentences are **independent clauses**.

PARTS OF SENTENCE

Every complete sentence that we speak or write consists of two parts: a **subject** and a **predicate**.

WHAT IS A SUBJECT?

A **subject** is the *doer of an action*. It is a part of a sentence which names the person or thing we *are speaking about*. It may be a *single word* or a *group of words*.

Examples:

- *Fire* burns. [Fire--- Subject]
- *You father* knows me. [Your father--- Subject]
- *Ali* is writing a letter. [Ali--- Subject]
- *My sister* is doing sums. [My sister--- Subject]
- *The boy in the class* is my brother. [The boy in the class---Subject]

Note: The subject of a sentence usually comes first, but occasionally it is put after the predicate; as,
Here comes the **bus**.

Sweet are the uses of **adversity**.

KINDS OF SUBJECT

i. Simple Subject:

A simple subject can be the one word that tells what the sentence is about. It is usually a noun or a pronoun without any modifier.

Examples:

- *Ali* puts a lot of garlic in his food. [*Ali*— is a simple subject]
- The *girl* works. [*girl*— is a simple subject]
- The *students* are playing. [*students* ---- is a simple subject]
- The *woman* fell into cold water. [*woman* ----- is a simple subject]
- *Thomas Edison* invented the light bulb. [*Thomas Edison* ----- is a simple subject]

ii. Complete Subject:

A complete subject is the main word in the sentence, along with the modifiers (often adjectives) that describe it.

Examples:

- *That boy* puts a lot of garlic in his food.
- [*That boy* --- is a complete subject]
- *The world's youngest player* is 11 years old.
- [*world's youngest player* --- is a complete subject]
- *The pretty, red-haired girl* works.
- [*pretty, red-haired girl* --- is a complete subject]
- *The brilliant students of my class* are playing.
- [*brilliant students of my class* --- is a complete subject]

- *The wise and beautiful woman* fell into water.
- [*wise and beautiful woman* - is a complete subject]

iii. Compound Subject:

Two or more than two simple subjects (**nouns**) with the same predicate make a compound subject.

Examples:

- *Wahid and Javed* are brothers.
- Does the *coach* or the *teacher* go along?
- *Ali and Ayesha* put a lot of garlic in their food.
- *Ahmad and Abid* sat by the fire.
- *Dogs and cats* are pet animals.

IDENTIFYING SUBJECT

i. Subject in Unusual Order:

The subject does not always come at the beginning of a sentence. Placing the verb before the subject can make our writing more interesting. It will also give more emphasis to what we say.

Examples:

- *The jets* sped into the deep blue sky. (Usual Order)
- Into the deep blue sky sped *the jets*. (Unusual Order)

ii. Imperative Sentence: Understood 'You':

An imperative sentence (command) usually begins with the verb. For example in the command '*Be careful*', the verb is the first word. The subject of the sentence is you, even though it is not expressed. We say that the subject you is understood.

Examples:

- (You) Pass the salt.
- (You) Shut the door.
- (You) Smile.

Note: Sometimes only one word is necessary to give a command. That word is the verb. The subject is still you and is understood.

iii. Interrogative Sentence:

- a) Some interrogative sentences (questions) are written in the usual order, with the subject first and the verb second.

Examples:

Who ordered this sandwich?

Where did he go yesterday?

- b) However, in other questions the subject may fall between the helping verb and the main verb.

Examples:

Do *you* know Mr. Ali?

Is *your* house ready for visitors?

Have *you* brushed your teeth today?

iv. Exclamatory Sentences:

Subject is not easy to find out in exclamatory sentences. We need to rephrase the sentence to find out the subject in exclamatory sentences.

Question	Statement
What an intelligent boy he is!	<u>He</u> what an intelligent boy is.
How vast the ocean is!	<u>The ocean</u> how vast is.

Note: - The above underlined words are the subjects.

i. 'There is', or 'There are' sentences:

- a) Actually, in the sentences that begin with *There is* and

There are, the **subject** comes after the **verb**.

Examples:

- There *is* no *place* like home. [*place* is the subject]
- There *are* many *leaves* on the ground. [*leaves* is the subject]

WHAT IS PREDICATE?

The **predicate** of a sentence describes either what the subject is doing or the state of the subject. The **predicate** must always contain a verb, but it can also include objects, either direct or indirect, and different types of modifiers, such as adverbs, prepositional phrases, or objects.

Examples:

- Ahmad *laughed*.
- They *worked in a factory*.
- Ali *is writing a letter*.
- My sister *is doing sums*.
- The boy in the class *is my brother*.

Parts of a Predicate

a) Verb:

A verb is a word that shows some kind of action, such as thinking, saying, doing, feeling, and being. Its function is to show what action the subject is committing. If there is no verb, then the predicate does not exist.

Some types of action include:

- thinking (*worried, thinking*)
- saying (*exclaimed, says*)
- doing (*jumping, building*)

- feeling (*liking, hurting*)
- being (*is, are, were*)

b). “to-be” verb

A “to-be” verb shows some state of existence. The subject may not be doing any specific action, simply the state of being. The “to-be” verbs are **bold** below.

Examples:

- *The cat **was** sleepy*
- *I **am***

The “to-be” verb may also indicate a value or quality of the subject, such as

*The book **was an** interesting but long story about relationships.*

c) Object

Along with the verb, the predicate may contain the object if there is one. The object is the item or person that is receiving the action done by the subject.

Examples:

- My cat played with the **toy mouse**.
- Mom roasted the **mutton**.

KINDS OF PREDICATE

i. Simple Predicate

A simple predicate is a verb or verb phrase without any modifiers or objects.

Examples:

- Ayesha **cooked**.

- The students *ran*.
- Children *play*.
- Ali and Akbar *fought*.
- I *ate*.

ii. Complete Predicates

A complete predicate includes a verb or verb phrase with modifiers and/or objects.

Examples:

- Ayesha *cooked food in the kitchen*.
- Ali *delivered a speech on Pakistan Day*.
- Children *play in the ground yesterday*.
- The students *worked hard to get success in the examination*.
- I *ate food with my family members*.

iii. Compound Predicate:

A compound predicate is a combination of two or more verbs or verb phrases.

Examples:

- Ayesha ***cooked** and **baked***.
- Children ***play** and **run*** in the field.
- Ahmad *cooked and baked*.
- I ***ate** food and **took** tea*.
- Two girls were *reading and writing* in the class.

1.6. SOUND PRODUCTION AND PRONUNCIATION

Sound production and pronunciation are fundamental aspects of language that play a crucial role in effective communication. Sound production involves the physical process of creating speech sounds, while pronunciation refers to the way these sounds are articulated and combined to form words and sentences. Understanding these processes helps in mastering accurate speech and clear communication. This assignment explores the mechanisms of sound production, the principles of pronunciation, and their impact on language comprehension and communication.

Sound Production

Sound production in speech involves several anatomical and physiological processes that work together to generate and shape the sounds used in language. These processes include the following:

1. Articulation

Articulation is the process of producing speech sounds by moving various parts of the vocal tract. Key components involved in articulation include:

- o **Lips:** The lips can be pressed together, opened, or rounded to produce different sounds, such as the "p" in "pat" or the "b" in "bat."
- o **Teeth:** The teeth interact with the tongue to create sounds like "th" in "think" or "this."

- o **Tongue:** The tongue's position and movement within the mouth are crucial for producing a wide range of sounds. For instance, the tongue touches the roof of the mouth to produce the "t" sound in "top."
- o **Palate:** The hard palate (the roof of the mouth) and the soft palate (the back part of the roof of the mouth) are involved in producing sounds like "s" in "sea" and "k" in "cat."

2. **Phonation**

Phonation is the process of producing vocal sound by vibrating the vocal cords located in the larynx (voice box). When air passes through the closed vocal cords, they vibrate, creating sound waves. The pitch and volume of the sound are controlled by adjusting the tension and length of the vocal cords.

3. **Resonance**

Resonance involves the modification of sound waves as they pass through the vocal tract. The shape and size of the oral and nasal cavities affect the resonance of the sound, which influences its quality and timbre. For instance, the nasal cavity resonates sounds for nasal consonants like "m" and "n."

4. **Articulatory Phonetics**

Articulatory phonetics is the study of how speech sounds are produced by the movement of the articulatory organs. It classifies sounds based on their place of articulation (where the sound is produced in the vocal tract), manner of articulation (how the sound is produced), and voicing (whether the vocal cords are vibrating).

Pronunciation

Pronunciation refers to the way sounds are articulated and combined to form words and sentences. It encompasses various aspects, including:

1. Phonemes

Phonemes are the distinct units of sound in a language that can differentiate words. For example, the phonemes /p/ and /b/ in "pat" and "bat" change the meaning of the words. Understanding phonemes is crucial for accurate pronunciation and effective communication.

2. Stress and Intonation

- o **Stress:** Stress refers to the emphasis placed on certain syllables or words in speech. In English, stress can change the meaning of a word or sentence. For example, the noun "record" has stress on the first syllable, while the verb "record" has stress on the second syllable.
- o **Intonation:** Intonation is the variation in pitch while speaking. It conveys meaning and emotion and can indicate whether a sentence is a question or a statement. For instance, rising intonation at the end of a sentence often indicates a question.

3. Accent

Accent refers to the distinctive way of pronouncing words based on regional or social factors. Accents can influence pronunciation patterns, including vowel and consonant sounds, stress, and intonation.

Understanding accents is important for comprehending diverse speech patterns and effective communication.

4. Phonological Rules

Phonological rules govern how sounds are organized and used in a language. These rules include processes such as assimilation (where one sound becomes more like a neighboring sound), elision (where sounds are omitted), and vowel reduction (where vowels become less distinct in unstressed syllables). Phonological rules help in understanding patterns of pronunciation within a language.

5. Articulatory Phonetics vs. Acoustic Phonetics

- o **Articulatory Phonetics:** Focuses on how speech sounds are physically produced by the articulatory organs.
- o **Acoustic Phonetics:** Examines the physical properties of sound waves, such as frequency, amplitude, and duration. It helps in analyzing the acoustic characteristics of speech sounds.

Importance of Sound Production and Pronunciation

1. Effective Communication

Accurate sound production and pronunciation are essential for clear and effective communication. Mispronunciations can lead to misunderstandings and hinder the ability to convey intended messages.

2. Language Learning

For language learners, mastering sound production and pronunciation is crucial for developing fluency and

comprehensibility. Proper pronunciation helps learners be understood by native speakers and enhances their overall language skills.

3. Speech Disorders

Understanding sound production and pronunciation is also important for diagnosing and treating speech disorders. Speech therapists use knowledge of articulation and phonation to address issues such as articulation disorders, stuttering, and voice disorders.

4. Cultural and Social Factors

Pronunciation can reflect cultural and social identities. Accents and pronunciation patterns can indicate regional origins, social status, and other factors. Awareness of these aspects can improve intercultural communication and understanding.

5. Professional and Academic Success

In professional and academic settings, clear pronunciation is vital for effective presentations, public speaking, and academic performance. Good pronunciation skills contribute to confidence and success in various contexts.

Sound production and pronunciation are fundamental components of language that significantly impact communication. Understanding the mechanisms of sound production, including articulation, phonation, and resonance, provides insight into how speech sounds are generated. Pronunciation encompasses aspects such as phonemes, stress, intonation, and accents, influencing how words and sentences are articulated.